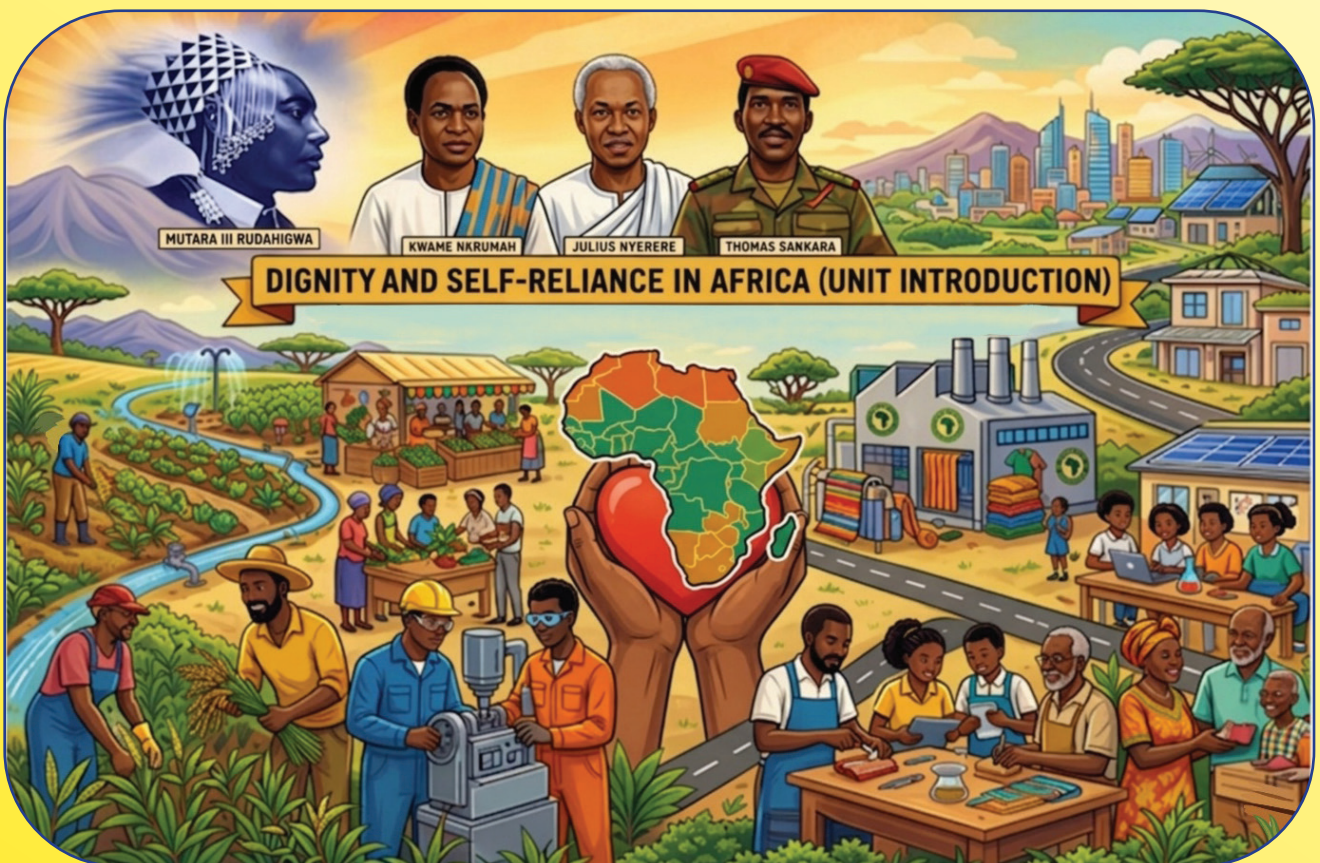


HISTORY



Student's Book

Senior Five

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FOREWORD

Dear Student,

Rwanda Basic Education Board is honored to present to you the Senior 5 History Book that serves as a guide to competence-based teaching and learning to ensure consistency and coherence in the learning of History subject. The Rwandan educational philosophy is to ensure that you achieve full potential at every level of education that will prepare you to be well integrated in society and exploit employment opportunities.

The Government of Rwanda emphasizes the importance of aligning teaching and learning materials with the syllabus to facilitate your learning process. Many factors influence what you learn, how well you learn and the competences you acquire. Those factors include the instructional materials available among others. Special attention was paid to the activities that facilitate the learning process in which you can develop your ideas and make new discoveries during concrete activities carried out individually or with peers.

In competence-based curriculum, the student considers learning as a process of active building and developing knowledge and meanings where concepts are mainly introduced by an activity, a situation or a scenario that helps the student to construct knowledge, develop skills and acquire positive attitudes and values. For effective use of this textbook, your role is to:

- Work on given activities which lead to the development of skills;
- Share relevant information with other students through presentations, discussions, group work and other active learning techniques such as role play, case studies, investigation and research in the library, from the internet or from your community;
- Participate and take responsibility for your own learning;
- Draw conclusions based on the findings from the learning activities.

I wish to sincerely extend my appreciation to the people who contributed towards the development of this book, particularly REB staff who organized the whole process from its inception.

I wish to sincerely extend my appreciation to REB staff who organized the editing process of this textbook. Special gratitude also goes to lecturers, teachers, illustrators and designers who supported the exercise throughout. Any comment or contribution would be welcome to the improvement of this textbook for the next edition.



Dr. MBARUSHIMANA Nelson

Director General / REB

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I wish to express my appreciation to all the people who played a major role in the editing process of this book. It would not have been successful without their active participation.

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I wish to extend my sincere gratitude to secondary schools and the University of Rwanda that allowed their teachers, lecturers who diligently worked with REB in-house textbooks production project to the successful completion of this book. I also thank illustrators, designers, and all other individuals whose efforts in one way or the other contributed to the success of this edition.

Finally, my word of gratitude goes to the Rwanda Basic Education Board staff particularly those from Curriculum, Teaching and Learning Resources Department (CTLRD) who were involved in the whole process of in-house textbook editorial work.



Joan Murungi

Head of Curriculum, Teaching and Learning Resources Department (CTLR)

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UNIT 1

ORIGIN OF ISLAM AND ITS IMPACT IN WEST AFRICA



Key Unit Competence:

Explain the origin of Islam, its role and impact in the expansion of West African empires for the development of West Africa.

Learning objectives

At the end of this unit you should be able to:

Knowledge and understanding

1

- Explain the origin of Islam;
- Describe the role of Islam in the expansion of the West African empires;
- Explain the spread and effects of the Islamic civilisation in West Africa;
- Identify the causes and the consequences of Jihad movements in Western Sudan.

Skills

2

- Analyse the origin of Islam;
- Assess the role of Islam in the expansion of the various empires of West Africa;
- Analyse the spread and effects of the Islamic civilization in West Africa;
- Assess the causes and the consequences of the Jihad movements in West Africa.

Attitudes and values

3

- Appreciate the origin of Islam;
- Recognize the role of Islam in the expansion of the various empires in West Africa;
- Value the spread and effects of the Islamic civilization in West Africa;
- Acknowledge the causes and the consequence of Jihad movements in West Africa.

Introduction

The primary goal of this unit is to provide a comprehensive understanding of how Islam transitioned from the Arabian Peninsula to the West African savannah and Sahel. You will analyse the mechanisms of this expansion, specifically through the Trans-Saharan trade routes, and evaluate how Islamic principles blended with or transformed indigenous African systems. We will cover the historical timeline from the 7th century through the rise of the great medieval empires.

Key areas of focus include:

- The Birth of Islam: A brief overview of its origins in 7th-century Arabia.
- The North African Gateway: How the Arab conquest of the Maghreb created a bridge to West Africa.
- Trade as a Catalyst: The role of Berber and Tuareg merchants in carrying faith alongside gold and salt.
- The Empire Builders: The adoption of Islam by the leadership of the Ghana, Mali, and Songhai Empires.
- Intellectual Centres: The rise of Timbuktu as a global hub for science, law, and theology.

Keywords and Concepts: Trans-Saharan, Syncretism, The Sahel, Mansa and madrasa.

Introductory activity 1



1. *If the Sahara Desert was such a harsh, dangerous environment, what motivations were strong enough to drive merchants and missionaries to cross it?*
2. *How did the physical environment of the Sahel act as a "shore" for both goods and new ideas?*
3. *When two people who speak different languages and follow different religions meet to trade gold for salt, how do they establish trust?*
4. *How does the introduction of a written script (Arabic) change the way a kingdom is governed compared to a kingdom that relies solely on oral tradition?*
5. *Is it possible for a person to adopt a new religion while still keeping their traditional cultural customs? How might this "blending" have looked in a 10th-century West African village?*
6. *In what ways did the adoption of Islam connect West African empires like Mali to the rest of the medieval world (Europe, Asia, and the Middle East)?*
7. *If you were an architect in ancient Timbuktu, how would you combine local mud-brick building techniques with the new geometric styles brought from North Africa?*
8. *Imagine you are a traveler accompanying a caravan in the year 1324. What are the first three things you notice that have changed as you move from the desert into a thriving West African trade city?*

1.1 Origins of Islam

Learning activity 1.1



Look at the description of Mecca before the year 610 CE. It was a wealthy trade hub, but society was divided into powerful tribes that often fought.

1. If a few people hold all the wealth and others have none, what kind of problems arise in a City ?
2. Mecca was home to the Kaaba, which housed many different tribal idols. How did this "diversity of gods" actually help the city's economy?
3. Muhammad often went to a cave (Hira) to meditate on these social problems. Why is "stepping away" sometimes the best way to find a solution to a big problem?

Muhammad Ibn Abdullah in Saudi Arabia founded Islam in 622 A.D. Islam is a monotheist religion and its followers are called Muslims.

This religion has five pillars: charity to the poor; fasting during Ramadhan; making a pilgrimage to Mecca; praying five times a day; and cleanliness.

Islam was spread in Asia before being imposed on the people of North Africa by Arabs between 639 and 708 A.D. From this region, Islam spread to West Africa. Different methods were used to spread Islam. These included the Trans Saharan Trade and Jihads. Religious fanatics and commercial traders influenced the spread of Islam. In West Africa, jihads mainly aimed at purifying Islam and converting the pagans. At the end of the jihads, immense regions of West Africa were transformed into Muslim empires and were ruled according to the Sharia.

The word **Islam** means the act of submitting, or giving oneself over, to God (Allah); the followers of Islam are called Muslims, which means believers.

An Arab merchant named Muhammad Ibn Abdullah founded Islam. He came to be known as the Prophet of Allah or God.

1.1.1 Muhammad the founder of Islam

Muhammad was the son of Abd al-Muttalib ibn Hashim and Fatima Bint Amr. He was born at Mecca in 571 A.D, after the death of his father. When he was six, his mother died and he went to live with his poor uncle, Abu Talib. He worked as a camel driver when he reached his teens. At the age of 25, he married a rich 40-year-old widow named Khadijah, who ran a rich caravan.

According to Islam, the prophet Muhammad received many divine revelations during his life. These revelations were written down and together make up the Qur'an, the holy book of Islam. Muhammad was very successful in the caravan business. Then he became troubled by the drinking, gambling and corruption in Mecca. He began to spend a lot of time alone in a cave on a hillside outside the city. There, he thought and fasted and he decided that all the people of Mecca had been led to evil by their belief in false gods. He concluded that there was only one God, Allah, the same God as the God of the Jews and Christians.

In 610 A.D when he was about 39 years old, Muhammad had a revelation or vision. In 613 he began to preach to the people of Mecca, telling them that the only God was the all-powerful Allah before whom all believers were equal. In 620, Muhammad preached to a group of pilgrims from Yathrib. They invited him to come to Yathrib and be their leader.

The al-Haram Mosque in Mecca, Saudi Arabia, holds the holiest shrine of Islam, the Kaaba. As the birthplace of Islam's founder, the Prophet Muhammad, Mecca is considered as a holy city. It is a pilgrimage point for Muslims worldwide, who are expected to visit the city at least once in their life if they are able to do so.

During the summer of 622 several hundreds of Muhammad's followers fled from Mecca to Yathrib. The year 622, called Anno Hegira or "The year of the Flight", became the first year of the Muslim calendar. Yathrib became Medina al Munawara, the city of the Prophet. From Medina, Muslims launched attacks on Mecca caravans and defeated the people of Mecca in battle. Finally, in 630, Muhammad returned in triumph to Mecca where he destroyed the idols in the Kaaba and dedicated the black stone to Allah.

Medina, in western Saudi Arabia, is a sacred city that only Muslims are permitted to visit. The Prophet Muhammad took refuge in Medina after fleeing Mecca in 622 A.D, and the city's numerous mosques remain a destination for large numbers of Muslims on their annual pilgrimage. The income derived from visiting pilgrims forms the basis of Medina's economy.

In 632 A.D, after 10 years, Muhammad fell ill and died. He was succeeded by a leader called Khalifa or Caliph, successor. The first Khalifa was Abu Bakar, Muhammad's father – in-law. The Khalifa ruled from Medina. Mecca in Saudi Arabia became the holy city of Islam.

1.1.2 Koran and Pillars of faith

The heart of Islam is the Koran (Qur'an) or Muslim holy scriptures. Muslims believe Allah directly revealed it to Muslims. The Koran is written in Arabic, and consists of 114 chapters, called Suras. Each chapter is divided into verses called Ayat (singular Aya which means sign or proof). It contains stories, legends, philosophy, and the advice given to Muhammad by the angel Gabriel.

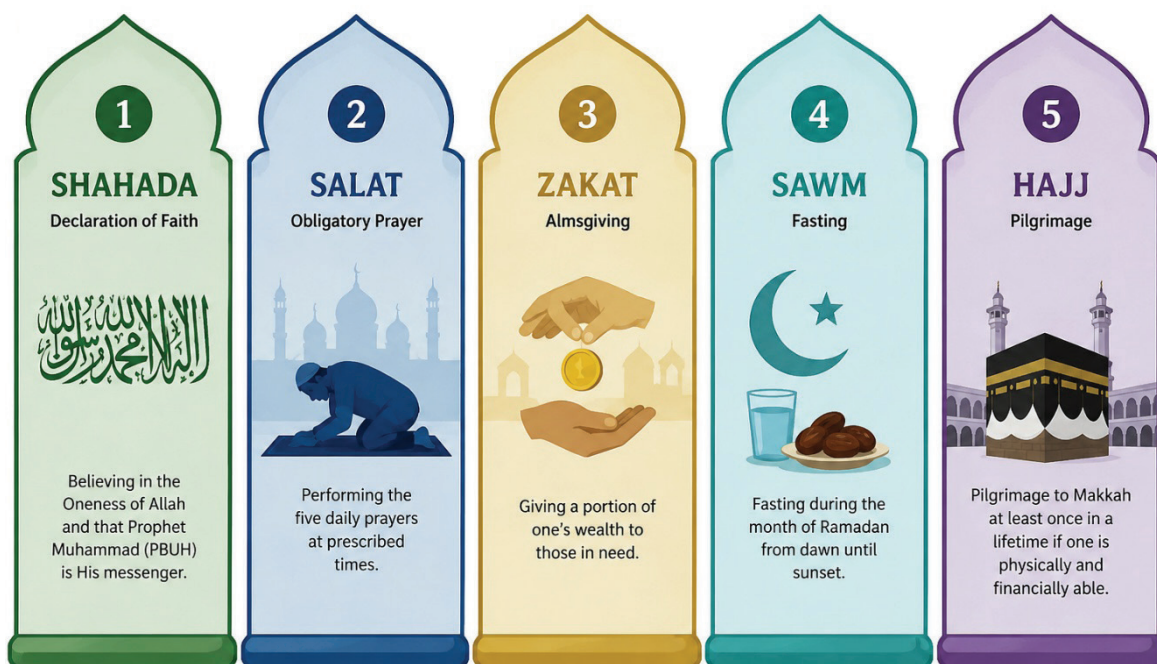
Muslims believe that the Qur'an is an infallible transcription of God's message to Muhammad. As the messenger of God and seal of the prophets, Muhammad was charged with the responsibility of relaying this message to all believers. Qur'an is meant to be recited or chanted as part of Islamic worship.

The Koran identifies the basic beliefs of Islam and tells how good Muslims should live. It describes the pillars of faith, or the five duties all Muslims must fulfil.

1. The confession of faith (shahada), "There is no god but God;
2. Muhammad is the messenger of God, Allah" (La ilaha illa Allah; Muhammadun Rasul Allah;
3. To pray five times a day while facing Mecca at dawn, noon, late afternoon, sunset and evening (salat);

4. To give charity to the poor (zakat);
5. To fast from sunrise to sunset during the holy month of Ramadhan (sawm);
6. To do pilgrimage (hajj) to Mecca two months after Ramadhan. Every able-bodied Muslim is obliged to make pilgrimage to Mecca, at least once in their lifetime.

❖ THE FIVE PILLARS OF ISLAM ❖



Source: <https://www.www.c/6a3ea1d1-7ee8-83ea-a7b2-826196a42b7e>

1.1.3 Spread of Islam in the World

When Muhammad died in 632, his followers needed a new leader. A group of Muslims chose a new leader whom they called Khalifa. The first Khalifa was Abu Bakar and the next three Khalifas were elected for life. They kept in close touch with the people and took advice from their most trusted friends.

For this reason, they were called the Rightly Guided Caliphs. They honoured Muhammad's wish to carry the word of God to other people. They did this by fighting jihads or holy wars, against infidels or non-believers. They sent Muslim warriors into Palestine, Syria, Iraq, Persia, Egypt, North Africa and south Europe, and conquered them.

In the 7th and 8th centuries, the religion of Islam spread through conversion and military conquest throughout the Middle East and North Africa. By 733, just 100 years after the death of Muhammad, the Islamic state stretched from India in the east to Spain in the west.

Their conquest of Spain brought them into Europe. They advanced into France where they were defeated at Tours in 732 by Charlemagne, the king of the Franks.

In Spain, the Muslims established their own society at Cordoba and Granada. But these communities were conquered by Christians in 1492.

The Arabs were successful in their conquests for many reasons:

- Islam, as their religion, united them;
- They believed those who died while fighting infidels went to paradise, which encouraged them to fight so hard;
- The Arabs were fearless fighters and were led by strong leaders;
- Their leaders planned and carried out surprise attacks on their enemies;
- They were skilled in fighting using camels and horses;
- They promised protection to the people who surrendered without a fight and allowed them to keep their land.

Application activity 1.1



When Prophet Muhammad moved to Medina (the *Hijra*), he wrote the **Constitution of Medina**. It was a contract between Muslims, Jews, and other groups.

Questions

1. Draft three modern "School Rules" based on the spirit of the Medina Charter.
2. Describe how can you protect the rights of a everyone in your school?
3. Explain how do you ensure everyone contributes to the safety of the "territory" (the classroom)?
4. How does having a written "contract" change how people behave compared to just having verbal promises?

1.2 The spread of Islam in West Africa

Learning activity 1.2



1. Explain how the geographical location of West Africa in relation to North Africa influence the initial method by which Islam arrived?»
2. Analyse why 'peaceful interaction' through trade often more effective for early conversion than military conquest?
3. Evaluate how early West African societies blended Islamic practices with traditional African beliefs, and interpret what this cultural mixing reveals about their attitudes toward cultural diversity.
4. Identify and explain the universal ethical values promoted by jihad leaders in their efforts to eliminate corruption and bribery within their states.
5. Examine how recognizing West Africa as a major centre of Islamic learning challenges modern stereotypes about the history of education in Africa.
6. Assess how a traditional ruler during the 19th-century jihads might have perceived the sudden demand for radical social and legal changes.

1.2.1 Methods used in the spread of Islam in West Africa

Islam spread in West Africa in the 19th century through both peaceful means and by force (jihad). The following methods were used:

- **Commercial activities:** Trade between North Africa and West Africa involved the Berbers who were Muslims. They converted the West Africans to Islam. This trade is also known as the Trans Saharan Trade. Sahara refers to Dar-Al-Islam, meaning the country of Islam.
- **Migration:** Due to hot climate, some communities from North Africa and the Sahara migrated to western Sudan and the forest region of West Africa e.g. the Berbers, the Wolof, the Serere and the Fulani who were mainly Muslims. They integrated with the people of West Africa who also joined Islam.
- **Muslim missionaries:** Muslim fanatics came to West Africa to convert people to Islam through preaching and building mosques. For example, a **Creole** missionary Muhammad Shita converted many people and built mosques in Freetown, Freetown Bay and Lagos.
- **Education:** Muslim schools were built in West Africa and many Arab scholars arrived to teach Islamic principles to the children of West Africa who eventually converted to the faith.
- **Conversion of local leaders:** Some African kings and chiefs who joined Islam encouraged their subjects to convert. Those who got interested in leadership joined Islam as a symbol of loyalty.
- **Jihad:** Muslim fanatics declared a holy war in order to reform Islam which was declining in the region e.g. the Fulani jihad in Hausaland, Macina, Tukolar, and the Mandika Empire etc.
- **Prestige:** Those who made pilgrimages to Mecca came back with wealth, and new ideas. They were considered heroes in their communities. These inspired others to convert in order to enjoy such status.
- **Muslim solidarity:** Islam was based on the simple theology of brotherhood which won the admiration of other non-Muslims who joined in order to be integrated into the society by sharing the brotherhood in problems and happiness.
- **Similarity with African culture:** Islam tolerated similar African practices. It accepted polygamy, discourage immorality and it also tolerated traditional African religion.
- **Oppression from African leaders:** People from the Hausa states faced a lot of oppression and brutality from their leaders. They decided to join the jihad movements; hence they voluntarily accepted Islam faith.

1.2.2 Effects of the spread of Islam in West Africa

The spread of Islam affected West Africa as follows:

- The rulers who undertook pilgrimages to Mecca brought with them technology and scholars from the Muslim world. These influenced and changed the political, economic and social life in West Africa.
- Many people abandoned their traditional ways and adopted Islamic practices such as attending Juma prayers, fasting and pilgrimages to Mecca.

- Islam introduced literacy as well as Islamic education; for example, Arabic language and scripts were taught. As a result, the cities of the Niger became great centers of learning, e.g. University of Timbuktu.
- Islam helped to unify empires with different tribes, culture, language and customs. Different ethnic groups united under one religion.
- The leaders employed educated Muslims such as secretaries, administrators and judges. These were conversant with Arabic writing and reading.
- The coming of Islam increased and strengthened trade links between West and North Africa; the Arab World and Europe.
- Islam gave rise to the growth of small states which developed into large empires which used the Islamic system of government and laws.
- The Sharia law was introduced into West African states.
- It discouraged slave trade among Muslims in West African states though in western Sudan it encouraged slavery.
- It affected African culture by eroding African traditional cultural practices like taking alcohol, taming dogs, etc. So many Africans abandoned their traditional ways.

Application activity 1.2



1. Analyse the methods and impacts of the spread of Islam in West Africa and evaluate the legacies of Jihad leaders through the creation of a commemorative cultural project.
2. Choose one specific method of spread (e.g., The Trade Route, The University/Scholarship, or The Jihad Reform) and explain why this specific method was chosen as the most "transformative" in West Africa, and in all Africa in general.
3. Accurately distinguishes between trade-based spread and jihad-based reform with specific evidence.
4. Creatively, demonstrates how Islamic and traditional African values intersected.
5. Draws a clear, logical connection between medieval history and modern West African society.

1.3 Jihad Movements in West Africa

Learning activity 1.3



1. Defining the Term: "The term jihad literally means <struggle.> How did 19th-century leaders like Usman dan Fodio interpret this struggle differently from the 'Greater Jihad' (personal spiritual struggle)?"
2. Besides religious 'purification,' what were the major social and economic grievances that led the common people to support these movements?
3. In which specific modern-day countries did the jihads led by Seku Amadu and Al-Hajj Umar Tall primarily take place, and what empires did they establish?
4. What was the Sokoto Caliphate, and how did its establishment change the political map of Northern Nigeria compared to the old Hausa states?
5. Imagine you are a traditional ruler who practices both Islam and local customs. How would you justify your 'syncretic' practices against a reformer who calls them 'un-Islamic'?
6. How does understanding the historical roots of West African jihads help us challenge modern.

A jihad is an Islamic religious movement or a holy war that is fought by fanatic Muslims against those who do not believe in their faith. It aims at spreading, purifying and strengthening Islam.

The 19th century saw a wave of jihads or Islamic movements in northern Sudan. Although, the causes were religious, they had a mixture of political, economic and intellectual causes.

The first jihads in West Africa took place in Guinea in Futa Jallon in 1720s. They were led by Ibrahim Musa. In the 1770s there was yet another jihad in Senegal in Futa Toro led by Sulayman Bal.

In 1808, Uthman Dan Fodio started holy wars in the Hausa states (Daura, Kano, Katsina, Zaria, Rano, Gobir and Hiram). Other West African jihadists were Seku Ahmadu of Macina, Al Hajj Umar of Tukolor and Ahmed Bello.

1.3.1 Causes of Jihads in West Africa:

- **To purify Islam:** After the decline of Mali and Songhai, there was a decline in Islam in western Sudan. Islam was mixed with pagan practices. Therefore, there was a need to revive Islam.
- **To stop unfair judgments in courts of law:** There was a lot of corruption and bribery in the courts that were against the teaching of Islam.
- **Local political competition:** The Fulani were discriminated. The Fulani leaders of the jihads aimed at overthrowing the government of the Hausa people and to establish a government favorable to their people.

- **Widespread belief in the Mahdi (Savior):** According to the Muslims, a Madhi was supposed to emerge during the 13th century of the Islamic calendar. This started from 1785 to 1882.
- **To overthrow pagan governments:** The jihadists wanted to establish governments based on Islamic rule. Strict Muslims in West Africa could not tolerate rule by pagans. Muslims were also forced to go to war against fellow Muslims which was contrary to Islamic practice.
- **To spread Islam:** This was aimed at the people who had resisted conversion to Islam. Thus, they would be forced to join Islam.
- **Desire to spread Islamic education:** Through the conversion of pagans who were against Islamic education, the jihadists hoped to build an ideal Islamic society through education.
- **Over-taxation:** Governments in western Sudan imposed heavy taxes on the Fulani town merchants while the Fulani pastoralists or nomads were opposed to the heavy taxation.
- **Methods used to collect taxes:** The tax collectors were harsh. They whipped and imprisoned the people who failed to pay. Some of the property was confiscated. This is why the people welcomed Islam.
- **Defense of African independence:** The West Africans joined jihads in order to protect their independence and fight against slave trade. This was because according to Sharia, no Muslim is supposed to enslave or sell another Muslim.

Therefore, the time was right for a revolution that only needed someone to start it. This was provided by the arrival of men filled with religious zeal and reformist ideas and with the ability to lead and organize. For example, Uthman Dan Fodio, Al Hajji Umar, Seku Ahmadu among others.

1.3.2 Examples of Jihad leaders

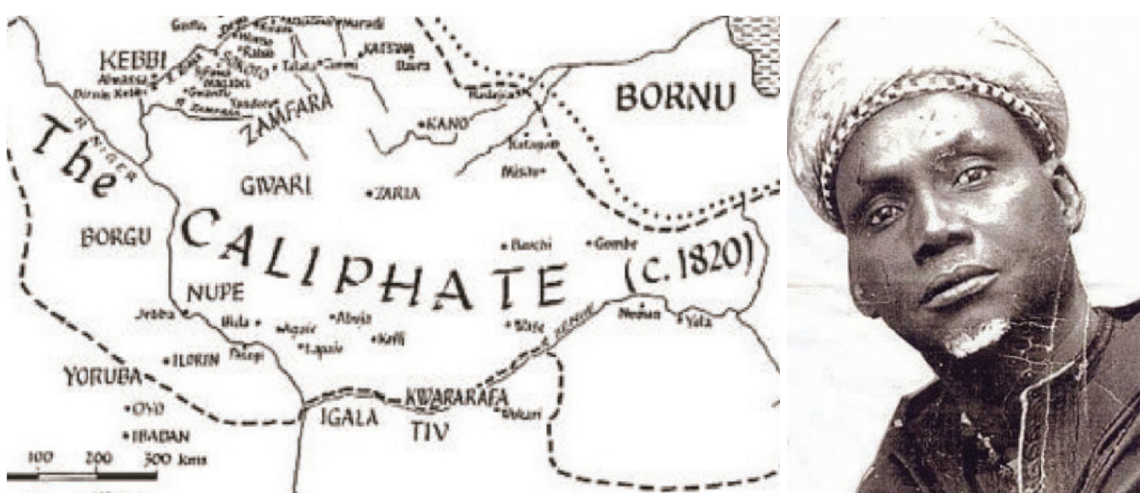


Figure 1.2. Uthman Dan Fodio and his caliphate.

Source: <https://www.dw.com/en/Usman-dan-fodiofounder-of-the-Sokoto-caliphate/a-51995841>

❖ Uthman Dan Fodio

The first jihad in western Sudan took place in Hausaland in 1804. Uthman Dan Fodio led this jihad. He was a Fulani and a scholar. He was born in 1754 at Martha in Gobir.

He received Islamic education from various teachers but finally he ended up in Agades under the famous Islamic teacher Jibril Ibn Umar. At the age of 20, he started his career as a writer and teacher in Senegal. From here, he started missionary tours in Hausaland, especially Zamfara, Kebbi and Daura.

In his preaching and writing, he attacked all unreligious tendencies. He condemned corrupt and unjust governments, and illegal taxation. He insisted on complete acceptance of the spiritual and moral values of Islam.

He soon mobilized a large number of followers. Most of these believed that he was the Mahdi or the saviour. His fame attracted the administration of Sultan Bawa, the leader of Gobir. He was employed as the tutor of the Sultan's son. All these increased Fodio's influence.

Because of this influence, he successfully negotiated with Sultan Bawa of Gobir to release all Muslim prisoners. He also requested the king to grant freedom of worship and exempt Muslims from un-Islamic taxes.

Unfortunately, Sultan Napata and later Yunfa who did not support Uthman Dan Fodio succeeded Bawa. Because of Uthman's growing influence, Yunfa arranged the assassination of Fodio but he managed to escape.

Along with his brother Abdullah and son Mohammed Bello, Fodio escaped to Gudu outside Gobir.

At Gudu, many Fulani tribesmen joined him and he was elected commander of the faithful, Amir Al Munimin. He then, declared a jihad on the non-believers in 1804 and confronted Yunfa's army.

After a prolonged fight, Yunfa's army was defeated and he was killed at Akolawa. Serious resistance against Fodio's army collapsed in 1809. Immediately, Fodio declared the Sokoto Caliphate and he became the undisputed caliph.

Once the conquest period was over, Fodio returned to his work of writing books since he was basically an Islamic scholar. He divided the empire between his son and his brother. Mohammed Bello his son was in charge of the eastern region and Abdullah his brother the western region. Fodio died in 1817 and his son Mohammed Bello was recognized as the caliph of the Sokoto Caliphate.

❖ Al Hajj Umar

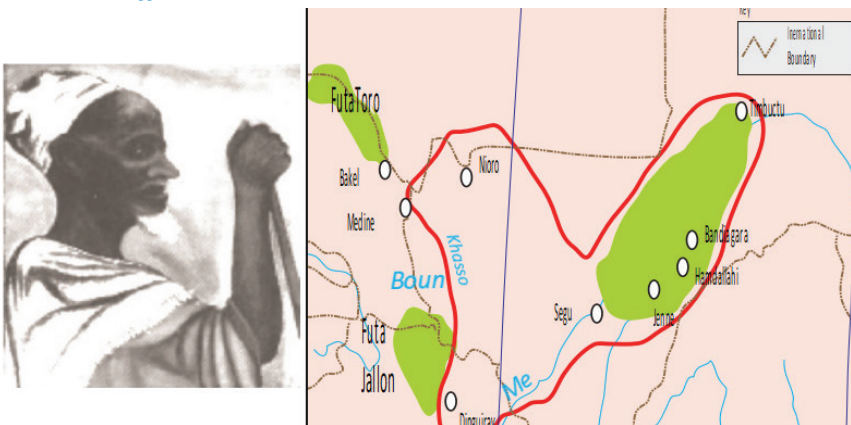


Figure 1.3. Hajj Umar and Tukolor Empire.

Source: <https://www.blackpast.org/global-african-history/tukolor-empire-1852-1864>)

Al Hajj Umar was born in 1794 in Futa Toro. His father was a Tukolor scholar. Umar belonged to the Tijaniyya brotherhood and his first teacher was Abd Al Karim. Umar was also a disciple of Uthman Dan Fodio.

In 1825, he made a pilgrimage to Mecca. The Tijani authorities were impressed with the works of Umar and he was appointed the Khalifa or religious leader of the Tijaniyya in western Sudan in 1831. He was charged with the duty of reviving and spreading Islam in the region.

While away, he was impressed by the reformist ideas of the day. He witnessed Mohammed Ali's revolution in Egypt. He also spent some time in Bornu, Sokoto. In Sokoto, he was impressed by the leadership possibilities opened by jihad. He married the daughters of both Alkanem of Bornu and Mohammed of Sokoto.

He witnessed the expansion and spread of Islam through a jihad. He was also convinced that the revival, purification, and spread of Islam would be possible through embracing Tijaniyya ideas.

In 1838, he returned home with even greater inspiration and determination to purify and spread Islam. He settled at a place called Fouta Djallon. From here he made extensive tours, teaching, preaching and converting.

In his book "Rinah", he attacked evil and illegal tendencies. He condemned mixed Islam. He appealed to the masses, assuring them of favoured treatment on the Day of Judgment as members of the Tijaniyya. His teachings were well received by the ordinary persons. The Quadiyya had alienated these. His fame as a scholar and teacher attracted a large following. He was regarded as the Mujahidin (soldiers fighting in support of their strong Muslim beliefs).

His growing fame and influence alarmed the Quadiyya scholars and Fouta Djallon political authorities. In 1851, he fled to Dingiray.

Here, he established an armed camp with his faithful disciples as well as students attracted from West Africa. These were mainly from the lower classes.

He equipped the army with European weapons bought from the coastal towns of West Africa. He even established a workshop of gun smiths who could repair guns. At a later stage, Al Hajj Umar was able to manufacture some of these arms, thus supplying his army.

In 1852, Umar declared a holy war on infidels in the Sudan. In 1854, he conquered the Wangara states. By 1857, he was ready to attack the Bambara of Segu. Nevertheless, this brought him into conflict with the Muslim state of Massina.

After this, Umar diverted his attention against French imperialists. He would regret this mistake later. By 1863, the Tukolor Empire extended from Futa Djallon to Timbuktu.

In February 1863, Al Hajj Umar was killed in the famous Massina uprising. The Quadiyya leaders who were opposed to his Tijaniyya principles spearheaded this. However, the empire under his eldest son and successor Ahmadi Bin Sheikh, survived until it was over-run by the French in 1893.

Umar strengthened Islam, expanded the borders of the Tukolor Empire, and promoted Islamic literacy. For example, he set up new centres of Islamic education in western Sudan.

Lastly, in his efforts he made the Tijaniyya sect more popular than the Quadiyya. Today, the Tijaniyya is more dominant in West Africa.

1.3.3 Success of Jihads in West Africa

The jihad leaders succeeded in their holy wars due to the following factors:

- Disunity among non-Islamic states in West Africa against fanatic Muslims;
- Jihad movement in West Africa enjoyed good leadership;
- These jihads were led by elites who had very convincing rhetoric or persuasive speech that won then big numbers of followers;
- The possession of fire arms by the jihadists;
- The hope to gain economic achievements. The non-Muslims who were poor supported the jihads with hope of raiding for wealth.

1.3.4 Consequences of Jihads in West Africa

- The jihads led to closer contacts with the outside world. This was true with Saudi Arabia and the Middle East. In fact, a pilgrimage made by Al Hajji Umar to Mecca in 1825 further exposed the Sudan to the outside world.
- They led to the spread and revival of Islamic culture for example the way of dressing with items such as the veil, the turban and the daily prayers and the Hijja.
- Kings and emperors as clerks, secretaries, judges, auditors, inspectors and teachers, employed literate Muslim officials. This strengthened Islamic way of life.
- Large and powerful Islamic states were formed under Muslim rulers like Uthman Dan Fodio of Sokoto, Muhammad Bello of Sokoto, Seku Ahmad of Macina, Al Hajji Umar of Tokolar and Al Kanemi of Dinguiray.
- They caused clashes and conflicts between the pagans and the Muslims. For example, there was enslavement of non-Muslims as permitted by the Koran. This led to tribal wars and antagonism.
- Strong states emerged to resist European infiltration. Jihads united the masses and their leaders against French colonialists.
- A centralized system of administration was introduced and managed according to the Koran.
- There was the stabilization and efficient management of the economy in the Islamic states.
- They abolished unlawful taxes and levied taxes as stipulated in the holy Koran.
- They led to the decline of the African traditional religions. This is because leaders of traditional religion and people who refused to change to Islam were executed.
- The jihads, checked the spread of Christianity in West Africa. This is because the Christian Missionaries were not allowed to enter Muslim lands.

1.4 End of unit assessment



Section A: Knowledge and understanding

1. Briefly explain two social or economic problems in 7th-century Arabia that the message of Islam sought to resolve.
2. Identify the primary geographic barrier between North Africa and West Africa and name the specific group of people who acted as the "human bridge" for Islam to cross it.
3. Name two specific "technologies" (one physical, one intellectual) that Muslim traders brought to West African empires.

Section B: Skills

4. Many West African Kings (like those of Ancient Ghana) did not force their subjects to convert to Islam, but they kept Muslim advisors in their courts. Analyse why this was a clever political move.
5. "Islam provided a universal 'code of conduct' for merchants." Explain how a shared religion helped a trader from Timbuktu do business with a trader from Cairo without knowing them personally.
6. Compare the "Old Way" of oral tradition in West Africa with the "New Way" of written Arabic records. What did empires gain by using written administration?

Section C: Attitudes and values

7. You are a modern-day historian and urban planner. You have been hired by a West African city to create a "Heritage Impact Report." Your job is to prove how the arrival of Islam over 1,000 years ago still affects the development of West Africa today. Using the example of the University of Sankore (Timbuktu), explain how the Islamic focus on literacy and science turned West Africa into a global intellectual hub, and how does this historical legacy of "valuing the book" influence education in West Africa today?
8. Describe the Sudano-Sahelian architectural style (e.g., the Great Mosque of Djenné). Explain how architects blended Islamic design (minarets, Mihrabs) with African materials (mud-brick, wooden beams). What does this tell us about the "values" of cultural blending (syncretism)?

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UNIT 2

MAJOR EUROPEAN EVENTS FROM 1836 TO 1848.



Figure 2.1. Major European events from 1836 to 1848



Key Unit Competence:

Evaluate the causes, course and the effects of the major events that took place in Europe from 1836 to 1848 in favouring good governance.

Learning objectives

By the end of this unit you should be able to:

Knowledge and understanding

1

- Explain the causes and effects of the 1848 European Revolutions and the reasons why these revolutions did not take place in some European countries.
- Identify the common characteristics as well as the successes and failures of the 1848 European Revolutions.

Skills

2

- Analyze the causes and effects of the 1848 European Revolutions and evaluate the reasons why these revolutions did not take place in some European countries.
- Examine the common characteristics of the 1848 Revolutions and assess their successes and failures using relevant historical examples.

Attitudes and values

3

- Acknowledge and appreciate the causes and common characteristics of the 1848 European Revolutions.
- Value the political and social effects of the 1848 European Revolutions in shaping modern Europe.
- Demonstrate critical judgment by evaluating the successes and failures of the 1848 European Revolutions and recognizing the reasons why they did not occur in some countries.

Introduction

The primary purpose of this unit is to analyse the transformative political and social changes that reshaped the map of Europe during the mid-19th century. By studying this period, students will understand how the transition from traditional monarchies to modern nation-states occurred. The unit aims to equip Senior 5 students with the critical thinking skills to evaluate the roles of diplomacy, war, and popular uprisings in achieving national sovereignty and territorial integrity, themes that remain highly relevant to modern global politics and the concept of nation building.

Scope of the Unit

As scope, this unit covers the period between the “Year of Revolutions” in 1848 and the completion of the major unification movements in 1871. The scope includes:

- The 1848 Revolutions: Exploring the causes and consequences of the «Springtime of Peoples» across Europe.
- The Crimean War (1853–1856): Analyzing its role in breaking down the old «Concert of Europe.»
- Italian Unification (Risorgimento): Examining the roles of Cavour, Mazzini, and Garibaldi.
- German Unification: Focusing on Otto von Bismarck’s «Blood and Iron» policy and the rise of the Prussian state.
- The Franco-Prussian War (1870–1871): Assessing its impact on the European balance of power.

Key Words and Concepts: Nationalism, Liberalism, Realpolitik, Unification, Sovereignty, Diplomacy.

Introductory activity 2



Peter, a Senior five student, read that in **1848 many Europeans protested against their governments** because of political oppression, economic hardships, and the desire for national unity. Revolutions spread to countries such as **France, Germany, and Italy**, but they did not occur everywhere. Peter wondered why these revolutions started, what they had in common and why some failed while others succeeded. Why do you think people in Europe started revolutions in 1848? What common problems might have encouraged people in different countries to protest? Why do you think some countries experienced revolutions while others did not?

European Revolutions

The period between 1836 and 1848 was one of the most important moments in European history. During this time, many European societies experienced political tension, economic crises, and social unrest. People were increasingly demanding political freedoms, national unity, and better living conditions.

Several movements such as liberalism, nationalism, and socialism began to influence political thinking. These ideas challenged the absolute monarchies and conservative

systems that had dominated Europe since the end of the Napoleonic Wars in 1815.

The events of this period finally led to the Revolutions of 1848, sometimes called the "Springtime of Nations," when revolutions spread across many European countries. The 1848 European Revolutions were a series of uprisings in Europe. The revolutions were started by the middle class and nobility who demanded constitutional and representative governments, and by workers and peasants who revolted against capitalist practices that were responsible for poverty.

The revolutions broke out in France, Austria, and the Italian and German states. People rose against conservative governments and demanded for political, social and economic reforms. Those revolutions were also against the negative consequences of the Vienna settlement and Metternich system.

2.1 Causes of the 1848 European Revolutions

Learning activity 2.1



1. In 1848, news of the revolution in Paris reached Vienna and Berlin in just a few days via the new electric telegraph and rapid printing presses. If these revolutions happened today with modern social media, do you think they would have been more successful in keeping power, or would the government have found it easier to track and stop the leaders? Justify your answer.
2. At the start of 1848, the wealthy middle class and the starving working class fought side-by-side. However, as soon as the kings were removed, these two groups began fighting each other over private property and wages. According to you, can a revolution ever truly succeed if the people 'at the bottom' and the people 'in the middle' want completely different outcomes? Explain your answer.
3. Imagine you are a leader of the 1848 movement. You have limited resources. Do you spend your energy pushing for Universal Suffrage (the right for every man to vote) or the Right to Work (government-guaranteed jobs and food)? Which one do you think would prevent the revolution from being crushed by the old monarchy six months later? Explain your answer

- **The need to end the unfair decisions of the Vienna Settlement:** The Vienna Settlement aimed at safeguarding against future French aggression and formed buffer states by bringing the Italian and German states under the control of Austria. This did not respect the principle of nationalism. For this reason, the Italians and Germans revolted in 1848.
- **The oppressive regime of Metternich:** Metternich the chancellor of Austria used a harsh-spy network that terrorized people. This forced, the Germans and Italians to rise up for independence.
- **The collapse of the Congress System:** The success of the 1830 Belgian revolution marked the end of the Congress System. This provided an opportunity for the oppressed people to revolt against their leaders.

- **The growth of nationalism:** Because of nationalistic feelings, the German and Italian states rose up to demand for respective national unifications. Elsewhere in Europe people demanded for constitutional rule and an end to despotism.
- **The rise of new personalities in European politics:** They included Mazzini and Garibaldi of Italy, Louis Kossuth of Hungary, Von Bismarck and Stephen Baron of Prussia and Louis Blanc and Lamartine in France. New personalities mobilized support against the oppressive rulers of Austria.
- **The effects of epidemic diseases:** The poor people were affected by diseases like cholera, typhoid and tuberculosis and died in large numbers. The leaders provided no solution to the situation. They became unpopular leading to the outbreak of the 1848 revolutions.
- **The negative effects of the rapid population growth:** In eastern and central Europe, the rapid population growth led to urban congestion, food shortage and unemployment. The masses blamed this on their respective governments. This led to the 1848 Revolutions.
- **The corruption and inefficiency of the rulers:** In many states of eastern and central Europe, the rulers were corrupt and inefficient. This compelled the masses to revolt against Louis Philippe for instance in 1848.
- **The influence of socialist ideas:** Karl Marx initiated socialist ideas. Socialists argued that capitalism was responsible for unemployment, inflation and exploitation of the employees. This encouraged the people to join the 1848 revolutions.
- **The success of the previous revolutions:** The French revolution of 1789 and the 1830 Belgian revolution encouraged the outbreak of the 1848 revolutions. The oppressed people believed their struggle would be successful like in France and in Belgium.
- **The negative impact of industrialization:** The spread of industrialization to many European countries created many economic and social problems like unemployment, low wages, long working hour, poor accommodation, rural-urban migration, inflation, and starvation. These problems forced the poor populations in urban areas to join the 1848 revolutions.
- **The long-term effects of the 1789 French Revolution:** The French revolution had left behind strong ideas of liberty, equality and fraternity. It had also overthrown dictatorship and bad governance in France. Therefore, people in different European states in 1848 were guided by those ideas and wanted to achieve what the French had witnessed in 1789.

Application activity 2.1



1. A prominent historian argues that "Hunger is the only true revolutionary; constitutions are just luxury items for the rich." Evaluate this statement. To what extent was the economic crisis (the "Hungry Forties") more responsible for the 1848 outbreaks than the ideological demands for liberalism and nationalism? Provide evidence from at least two different European countries.

2. You are a political advisor to Klemens von Metternich in early 1848. He believes his "Concert of Europe" can still suppress any rebellion. Identify four specific cracks in the Metternich system that made it unable to stop the "Springtime of Peoples." Why did the repressive tactics that worked in 1820 and 1830 fail so spectacularly in 1848?
3. News of the revolution in France reaches Vienna and Berlin within days, triggering immediate uprisings. Explain the role of improved communications and urbanization as a catalyst for the 1848 revolutions. How did the physical growth of cities and the speed of the press transform local grievances into a continental wildfire?

2.2 Common characteristics of the 1848 Revolutions

Learning activity 2.2



1. In March 1848, a wealthy liberal lawyer and a starving factory worker are seen hugging on a barricade in Berlin, celebrating the King's promise of a constitution. By June, the lawyer is voting for a law to ban worker protests, and the worker is back on the streets protesting against the lawyer's new government. A defining characteristic of 1848 was the "Internal Divorce" between the Middle Class and the Working Class. Explain why these two groups found it easy to start a revolution together, but impossible to finish one.
2. You are a revolutionary leader who has successfully taken control of the capital city (Vienna). You have a new flag, a new anthem, and a new government. However, 80% of the country's population are peasants living in distant villages who still pray for the emperor and have no idea what a "Republic" is. These revolutions are often described as "Urban Phenomena." Analyse how did the failure to spread the revolutionary message to the rural countryside become a fatal characteristic that allowed the old Monarchs to eventually regain power.

The 1848 revolutions have some common characteristics:

- All the 1848 Revolutions were urban based, meaning that they were concentrated in cities and towns, while the countryside remained peaceful.
- Educated people like professors, doctors, lecturers, lawyers, journalists and even teachers who understood the weaknesses of their home governments, led many of the 1848 Revolutions. E.g. Mazzini in Italy, Louis Blanc and Lamartine in France and Kossuth in Hungary.
- The 1848 Revolutions lacked foreign assistance because they occurred at the same time and each country was busy suppressing its own revolution. This also explains why they were defeated.
- Almost all the revolutions of 1848, except in France, were against the unfairness of the Vienna Settlement that restored bad leaders, neglected the principles of nationalism, and encouraged domination of small countries by the big powers.

- The 1848 Revolutions took place at the same time: from January to March 1848, the revolutions took place in less industrialized and agricultural states like Italy, German, Hungary and France.
- All of them had an element of the French revolution of 1789: the demand for constitutional changes.
- All the revolutions failed, except in France where King Louis Philippe was removed.
- The revolutions, except the revolution in France, were organized and carried out against the common enemy: Metternich of Austria and his spy network system.
- The revolutions were partly caused by the effects of natural disasters like bad weather, epidemics, starvation and scarcity. This explains why there were no revolutions in Britain where these natural disasters did not occur.
- The revolutions except in France lacked the support of the national armies. For instance, in Germany, Italy and Hungary their national armies did not support the revolutionaries. This was due to the ignorance of revolutionaries about the use of the army. In Italy, and Austria the soldiers feared to participate because their kings were dictators.
- The revolutions had similar effects such as loss of lives, destruction of property and exiling of the leading politicians except in France.

Application activity 1.1



- In March 1848, a wealthy factory owner, a university student, and a starving silk weaver are all standing on the same barricade in Berlin, cheering for the fall of the Monarchy. By June, the factory owner is calling the police to arrest the weaver. One major characteristic of these revolutions was the initial unity followed by internal collapse. Explain why did the "marriage of convenience" between the middle class (liberals) and the working class (radicals) fall apart so quickly once the common enemy was gone.
- While the streets of Paris and Vienna are filled with revolutionary fervor and demands for new constitutions, the peasants in the distant countryside are either indifferent or actively supporting the Return of the King. A key characteristic of 1848 was that it was an urban phenomenon. Analyze how the failure of the city-based revolutionaries to win over the rural population (the peasantry) lead to the eventual "Winter" (failure) of the revolutions.
- You are a border guard in 1848. You notice that as soon as a newspaper arrives from France announcing a successful revolt, a riot breaks out in your local town square the very next day. These revolutions are famous for their simultaneity and contagion. If these countries had different kings and different languages, what does their "copycat" nature tell us about the shared European identity and the role of improved communication (like the telegraph and press) in 1848?

2.3 Effects of the 1848 European Revolutions

Learning activity 2.3



1. By 1851, the old monarchs were back on their thrones, the rebel leaders were in exile, and the "Springtime of Peoples" seemed to be over. However, within a few years, the Austrian Empire abolished serfdom forever, and many kings kept the constitutions they had been forced to sign. If the revolutionaries lost the military battles and their governments were dissolved, explain why is 1848 still considered a turning point in European history? Can a revolution be a "failure" in the short term but a "success" in the long term.
2. Before 1848, nationalists like Mazzini tried to unite Italy through speeches, secret societies, and "people power," but they failed. After 1848, leaders like Bismarck (Germany) and Cavour (Italy) decided that the only way to build a nation was through "Blood and Iron" (professional armies and cold-hearted diplomacy). How did the collapse of the 1848 revolutions change the strategy of nation-building in Europe? Did the "idealism" of the 1848 rebels actually get in the way of their success, or was their failure necessary to prove that power is won by force rather than arguments?

The 1848 revolutions that occurred mainly in central and Eastern Europe resulted in positive and negative effects:

- The 1848 Revolutions caused loss of lives on a large scale. More than 500 people were killed in France. In Berlin over 300 and 3000–5000 in Austria. In Hungary 13 generals and 1000 other politicians were killed.
- The 1848 revolutions caused many demonstrations against Metternich who fled to exile in London. This led to the decline and collapse of his system. Apart from Metternich, many other people were forced into exile. These included Louis Philippe, Mazzini, Kossuth, Garibaldi, Prince Metternich and Charles Albert. In addition, ordinary people rose to high positions.
- The 1848 revolutionary movements contributed to the Italian and German unification in 1871 because the Metternich System, which posed obstacles to the unification, had collapsed. In addition, the revolutions led to the rise of new men who provided able leadership that led to the unifications. These included Otto Von Bismarck and Stephen in Germany, and Victor Emmanuel II of Piedmont, Gavainag and Louis Blanc in France.
- The revolutions ended feudalism and serfdom. In September 1848, Emperor Francis I of Austria passed the Emancipation Act under which peasants were permitted to own land. Serfdom was also brought to an end in Hungary. This improved lives of peasants in Europe. This marked the end of privileges for the nobles and clergy in many parts of Europe.
- The 1848 revolutions taught revolutionaries a lesson that for any revolution to be successful it should be militarily strong instead of relying solely on intellectual ideas.

- The 1848 revolutions were successful for a short time in some states. For example, in Hungary, Lajos Kossuth established the Hungarian republic and a parliament at Budapest in March 1849; the Frankfurt Assembly was established in May 1848 for the German states; in Italy, Garibaldi and Mazzini set up a Roman republic in 1849. However, these republics were shortly lived.
- The 1848 revolutions in central Europe marked the awakening of various peoples to national consciousness. In that year the Germans and the Italians started their movements for the unification and creation of nation-states. Although the attempts at revolution failed in 1848, the movements gathered strength in subsequent years. After a long struggle, an Italian kingdom was created in 1861 and a German empire in 1871. Other European peoples who agitated for national independence in 1848 include the Poles, the Czechs, the Hungarians, and the Christian peoples in the Balkans under the rule of the Ottoman sultan.
- The 1848 revolutions led to the success of socialism in Europe. The socialists successfully organized the workers and peasants to fight against capitalism. Although socialism was suppressed, it later dominated Eastern Europe, divided Europe into the two ideologies of communism and capitalism up to 1989 and beyond.
- The 1848 revolutions also led to the rise of dictatorial governments and the politics of revenge in the countries where they failed. For example, in Hungary and Austria, the constitutional reforms were canceled. General Haynau forced Kossuth into exile and killed many Hungarians. In Bohemia Winschgratz killed many Czech rebels as revenge.

Application activity 2.3



1. It is 1852. In almost every city where a revolution broke out, the old monarchs are back on their thrones, the revolutionary flags have been burned, and the "Springtime of Peoples" is officially declared a failure. However, in the Austrian Empire, serfdom has been permanently abolished, and in Prussia, the King has voluntarily introduced a constitution that gives more power to the middle class. If the revolutionaries lost the physical battles and were forced into exile, explain why the victorious monarchs still felt the need to grant some of the rebels' most important demands. In your view, can a revolution be a "tactical failure" but a "strategic success"? Explain your answer.
2. Before 1848, nationalists and liberals believed that "The People" could change the map of Europe through speeches, poetry, and small street protests. After the crushing defeats of 1848, a new generation of leaders—like Bismarck in Germany and Cavour in Italy—concluded that idealism was not enough. They decided that national unification would only happen through "Blood and Iron" (military force and calculated diplomacy). Analyse how the failure of 1848 changed the method of nation building in Europe. Did the collapse of the 1848 uprisings prove that democracy and nationalism could only be achieved by working with strong armies and governments, rather than fighting against them?

2.4 Success and failure of the 1848 European Revolutions

Learning activity 2.4



1. By 1851, the kings of Europe had returned to their palaces, the revolutionary assemblies were dissolved, and the leaders of the "Springtime of Peoples" were in prison or exile. On the surface, it looked as if 1848 had never happened. If the monarchs won every military battle and regained their thrones, why did they still feel forced to keep certain "revolutionary" changes, like the abolition of serfdom in Austria or the Prussian Constitution? Does a revolution "fail" if its enemies are the ones who eventually implement its goals?
2. Before 1848, nationalists like Mazzini believed that "the power of the people's will" and poetic speeches could unite Italy. After 1848, a new generation of leaders—like Cavour and Bismarck decided that idealism was useless without a professional army and cold-hearted diplomacy ("Blood and Iron"). Can we argue that the military failure of 1848 was actually a strategic success because it taught European leaders the "realistic" way to build modern nations? Or did the 1848 rebels simply trade their dreams of "liberty" for "power"? Explain your answers.
3. In February 1848, the middle-class liberals and the working-class radicals fought side-by-side to overthrow the French King. By June, the middle-class government ordered the army to fire on the working-class protesters in the streets of Paris. One of the greatest "failures" of 1848 was the collapse of rebel unity. In your view, was it possible for these two groups to ever stay united, or did 1848 prove that the goals of "Political Freedom" (for the rich) and "Social Equality" (for the poor) are naturally at war with each other?

A. Factors for the success of the 1848 Revolutions in France

- **Good leadership:** Louis Blanc and Alphonse Marie Lamartine were good leaders who mobilized the masses and demanded for change during the 1848 revolution in France.
- **Support from the army:** like during the previous revolution of 1789, the army supported the revolutionaries in France. This support encouraged the revolutionaries to succeed.
- **War experience:** most of the revolutionaries who fought in the February revolution in France had also participated in the 1789 revolution where they got experience in fighting. This enabled them to be successful in the 1848 Revolutions.
- **Support from the masses:** due to the poor social conditions, effects of the bad weather and outbreak of epidemic diseases, the masses supported the revolutionaries who promised them rapid reforms.
- **Nationalism and unity:** like in 1789, the people were strongly united. They were determined to overthrow Louis Philippe who had become unpopular.

- **Financial support from the middle class:** Due to the economic problems, France was facing which included unemployment, low wages, inflation, corruption and embezzlement of public funds, the middle class preferred to support the revolutionaries who promised better conditions. The rise of Louis Napoleon Bonaparte in 1848 boosted the popularity of revolutions because he was a nephew to Napoleon Bonaparte. He attracted big support from the population.
- **Lack of external interference:** because the revolutions broke out at the same time in many European countries and due to the collapse of the congress system, there was no external interference in France. In addition, Louis Philippe could not get any support from his fellow kings in Europe.



Figure 2.2. Napoleon III. (Source: [https:// www.britannica.com/biography Napoleon-III-emperor-of- France](https://www.britannica.com/biography/Napoleon-III-emperor-of-France))

B. Failure of the 1848 European Revolutions

The 1848 revolutions failed in most of the European states like Austria, Hungary, Italian and German states, except in France. The failure of these revolutions was due to the following factors:

- The revolutions were not supported by the peasants and lacked foreign support because most countries were facing the same situation.
- Because of economic hardships, the revolutionary leaders and their supporters were very poor and could not finance a prolonged struggle or afford to purchase firearms.
- Ideological conflicts and lack of proper common strategy weakened the revolutions. For example, in Germany, the northern states wanted a little Germany under Prussia while the southern states wanted a big Germany under Austria. Austria had a strong army led by efficient army commanders like General Windschgratz who defeated revolutionaries in Vienna and Hungary, and Raditsky who defeated the Italian revolutionaries at Novaro and Custoza.
- The revolutionaries failed to fulfill the promise made to their supporters. They concentrated on talking and failed to deliver what they had promised, for example in the German and Italian states.
- Poor mass mobilization also contributed to the failure of the revolutions. They were urban centered and failed to involve people in rural areas.
- Religious differences among the revolutionaries weakened the revolutions. In Germany, the southern states supported Austria, a fellow Catholic state, while the northern states, which were Protestant, supported Prussia. Charles Albert, a Catholic did not want to attack Austria while Pope Pius IX supported Austria against the revolutionaries.
- The dismissal of liberal ministers in September 1848 by King Fredrick William IV also played a role in the failure of the revolution in Prussia.
- Unfair representation in the constituent assembly mainly in Prussia also contributed to the failure of the revolutions in the German states.

Application activity 2.4



1. If the monarchs won every battle, regained their thrones, and sent the rebel leaders into exile by 1851, explain why they still felt forced to implement "revolutionary" changes like the abolition of serfdom in Austria or the Prussian Constitution. Does a revolution "fail" if its enemies are the ones who eventually carry out its goals?
2. Before 1848, nationalists like Mazzini believed "people power" and poetry could unite a nation. After 1848, leaders like Bismarck and Cavour used professional armies and cold-hearted diplomacy. By your analysis, did the military failure of 1848 prove that idealism is actually an obstacle to building a modern nation? Explain your answer.
3. In February 1848, the middle class and the working class fought together to overthrow the French King. By June, the middle-class government ordered the army to fire on the working-class protesters. Does this collapse of unity prove that "Political Freedom" (for the rich) and "Social Equality" (for the poor) are naturally at war with each other once the common enemy is gone?

2.5 The reasons why the European revolutions of 1848 did not occur in certain countries

Learning activity 2.5



1. Imagine you are an advisor to a 19th-century Monarch. You see revolution breaking out in neighboring France and Austria. Your country has a growing, angry working class but a functioning parliament. Do you advise the King to crack down with the military (the Russian approach) or pass a law expanding voting rights (the British approach)? Analyze which strategy is more likely to ensure the monarchy's survival for the next 50 years, and what are the risks of each.
2. You are a revolutionary leader in 1848 trying to spread your movement from Berlin to St. Petersburg. You realize that while Berlin has many university students and factory workers, the Russian countryside is filled with illiterate serfs who view the Tsar as a religious figure. Explain how does the social structure of a country (who lives there and what they believe) determine whether a revolution can even "catch fire," regardless of how much people are suffering.

The 1848 revolutions mainly affected the central areas of Europe, which were under the control of Metternich and did not extend to all European countries. Britain, Belgium, Holland and Russia did not experience revolutions due to the following reasons:

- In Belgium, a revolution was not possible because of the constitutional arrangements achieved because of the 1830 revolution. For instance, the right to vote was already extended to include members of the middle class. There was also improvement in public works.
- Britain and Belgium had already established the parliamentary system. Many constitutional changes had taken place and they were also easily implemented by parliament without the use of force like in other countries.
- In Britain, the parliamentary system had focused on improving working conditions. The working day was already shortened. The working conditions of women and children were also addressed. In 1834, the British parliament passed a law to improve the living conditions of the poor.
- Britain was a more advanced industrialized society. It was able to meet the needs of the growing population, especially employment, compared to other European countries where the effects of industrialization caused political instability.
- By 1846, Britain had a law to improve the living conditions in slums. Improvements in sanitation, drainage, street lighting and medical services led to better conditions of living in comparison to central Europe.
- The Vienna Settlement that created a lot of political dissatisfaction in Europe also never affected Britain. This helped Britain to escape the revolutions of 1848.

Application activity 2.5



1. In February 1848, the French middle class (liberals) and the working class (socialists) fought together. Analyse how this cross-class alliance made the French revolution succeed while others failed.
2. Great Britain avoided revolution through gradual reform (like the Reform Acts), while Russia avoided it through total repression (the secret police). By your analysis, which of these two methods is more sustainable for long-term nation building? Explain

2.6 End of unit assessment



Section A. Knowledge and understanding

1. Explain causes of the 1848 European Revolutions.
2. Describe common characteristics of the 1848 European Revolutions.
3. Explain reasons why the 1848 Revolutions did not take place in some European countries such as Britain and Belgium.

Section B. Skills

1. Using relevant historical examples, assess the successes and failures of the 1848 European Revolutions.
2. Study the following statement and answer the questions:
"The revolutions of 1848 failed in most European countries because the revolutionaries were divided and lacked strong military support."
 - a) Explain reasons that support this statement.
 - b) Suggest ways in which the revolutionaries could have improved their chances of success.
3. Analyse how political oppression and the Vienna Settlement contributed to the outbreak of the 1848 European Revolutions.

Section C: Attitudes and Values.

1. Explain how the study of the 1848 European Revolutions encourages people today to value democracy and good governance.
2. Discuss the importance of national unity and cooperation in achieving political reforms in a country.
3. Explain lessons modern societies can learn from the successes and failures of the 1848 Revolutions.

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UNIT 3

EUROPEAN COLONIZATION AND ITS IMPACT ON AFRICAN SOCIETIES

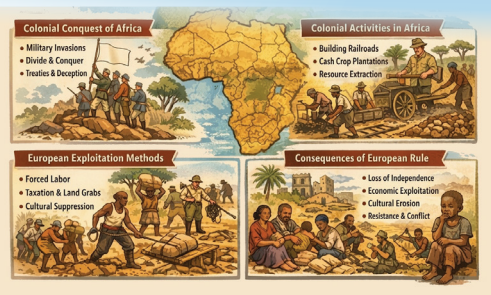


Figure 3.1. European colonisation and its impact on African societies



Key Unit Competence:

Analyse the European domination and exploitation in Africa and its consequences from the 19th Century in enhancing criticism against neo-colonialism in Africa.

Learning objectives

By the end of this unit you should be able to:

Knowledge and understanding

1

- Describe how European countries conquered Africa during the 19th century and identify the main colonial activities carried out in Africa.
- Explain the different methods used by colonial powers to exploit African resources and people.
- Understand the consequences of European domination and exploitation on African societies.

Skills

2

- Analyse the conquest of Africa by European countries during the 19th century and evaluate the different colonial activities carried out in Africa.
- Assess the methods used by Europeans to exploit African resources and people and analyse the consequences of European domination and exploitation of Africa.

Attitudes and values

3

- Judge the conquest of Africa by European countries during the 19th century by examining how and why European powers took control of African territories.
- Value and critically understand the different colonial activities that were carried out in Africa during the colonial period.
- Appreciate the methods used in the exploitation of Africa, assess their impact, and acknowledge the consequences of European domination and exploitation on African societies from the 19th century.

Introduction

This unit helps you to learn about the process of judging the conquest of Africa by European countries from the 19th Century, the impacts this process left to the communities of Africa.

By learning this history, you will understand why Africa was colonized and its impacts until now. You will learn some political situation that are identified in some African communities today.

By the end of this unit also you are expected to understand the historical events of colonization, analyse its impacts, and connect these experiences to the modern challenges of neo-colonialism in Africa. This knowledge will help you think critically about Africa's past and its ongoing struggle for economic and political independence.

As the Scope of the Unit, the following topics will be treated:

A. Reasons for the colonization of Africa

- Economic motives: The industrial revolution created a massive demand for raw materials (rubber, minerals, palm oil) and a need for "surplus" markets to sell European finished goods.
- Political & strategic motives: The "Balance of Power" in Europe; nations like Britain, France, and Germany competed for colonies to boost national prestige and secure naval bases.
- Social & religious motives: The "Civilizing Mission" (White Man's Burden) and the desire to spread Christianity and Western education.

B. The process of partition and conquest

- The scramble for Africa: The rapid, competitive rush by European powers to claim African lands.
- Methods of acquisition: The use of «treaties» (often fraudulent), commercial companies (like the British South Africa Company), and military force (the Maxim gun).

C. Systems of colonial administration

- Indirect Rule: Using existing traditional African structures to govern (favored by the British).
- Direct Rule: Replacing traditional leaders with European officials (favored by the French and Belgians).
- Assimilation & Association: French policies aimed at turning Africans into "Black Frenchmen."

D. African reactions to colonial rule

- Resistance: Armed struggles (e.g., the Maji Maji Rebellion, the Battle of Adwa) and passive resistance (refusing to pay taxes).
- Collaboration: Why some African leaders cooperated to preserve their power or protect their people from total destruction.

E. The impact of colonialism

- Political: Creation of artificial national borders and the destruction of traditional governance (like the weakening of the Umuganura or Itorero in Rwanda).
- Economic: Introduction of the monetary economy, forced labor, and «monoculture» (growing only one cash crop like coffee or tea for export).
- Social: Introduction of Western medicine and literacy, but also the loss of indigenous culture and the creation of «identity-based» divisions.

Key Concepts: Imperialism, colonialism, the Berlin Conference (1884–1885, effective occupation, direct vs. indirect rule.

Introductory activity 3



Muhirwa is a History teacher in senior five at Groupe Scolaire Cyahinda. While introducing a new unit on European domination and exploitation of Africa in the 19th century, He shows students a picture of Africans working on a railway under the supervision of European officials. He asks the class: Analyse why European countries come to Africa in the 19th century? What activities do you think they carried out after taking control? What methods might they have used to exploit African resources and people? How do you think this domination affected African societies and can its effects still be seen in Africa today? As a student of senior five, how which answers should you give this teacher?

3.1 Colonial conquest of Africa

Learning activity 3.1



Read the following story and answer the questions below:

In 1884, representatives from major European powers gathered at the Berlin Conference to divide Africa without consulting any African leaders. Within decades, countries like Britain, France, Belgium, Italy, Spain, Germany, and Portugal established colonies across the continent. They exploited Africa's natural resources, imposed foreign administrations, and disrupted traditional political systems. While Europeans justified colonization as a "civilizing mission," African communities faced loss of land, forced labor, and suppression of their cultures. Some African leaders resisted, using diplomacy, warfare, or alliances, but the power imbalance made large-scale resistance difficult.

Questions

1. Explain how the decisions made at the Berlin Conference facilitated European domination of Africa. Support your answer with examples.
2. Evaluate the statement: "Economic motives were more significant than political or cultural motives in driving European colonization of Africa."
3. Imagine you are an African chief in 1890. How might you respond to European demands for land and labor, considering both resistance and negotiation strategies?

3.1.1 Meaning of colonial conquest

The term **colonial conquest of Africa** refers to the period during the 19th century when European powers systematically invaded, occupied, and controlled African territories. This period is also known as the **Scramble for Africa**.

Between the 1870s and 1900, Africa faced European imperialist aggression, diplomatic pressures, military invasions, and eventual conquest and colonisation. At the same time, African societies put up various forms of resistance against the attempt to colonize their countries and impose foreign domination.

By the early twentieth century, however, much of Africa, except Ethiopia and Liberia, had been colonized by European powers. European imperialists push into Africa was motivated by three main factors: economic, political, and social.

Colonisation developed in the nineteenth century following the collapse of the profitability of the slave trade, its abolition and suppression, as well as the expansion of the European capitalist industrial revolution.

The imperatives of capitalist industrialization, including the demand for assured sources of raw materials, the search for guaranteed markets and profitable investment outlets-spurred the European scramble and the partition and eventual conquest of Africa. Thus, the primary motivation for European intrusion was economic.



Figure 3.2. Africa: Different European colonial empires

3.1.2 The Scramble for Africa

Other factors also played an important role in the colonization of Africa. European countries like Britain, France, Germany, Belgium, Italy, Portugal, and Spain were competing for power. One way for a country to show its strength was to acquire territories around the world, including in Africa.

Social issues were another factor. Industrialization in Europe created problems like unemployment, poverty, homelessness, and displacement of people from rural areas. Many people could not find work in the new industries. One way to address this was to send people to colonies, creating settler colonies in places like Algeria, Tunisia,

South Africa, Namibia, Angola, Mozambique, Zimbabwe, and Zambia.

However, economic interests remained the main reason for colonization. European countries wanted raw materials, markets for their goods, and profitable investment opportunities. These economic, political, and social factors together caused the "Scramble for Africa," in which European commercial, military, and political agents tried to take control of different parts of the continent. They did this through trade competition, claiming exclusive territories, imposing tariffs on rivals, and controlling important rivers and trade routes.

The scramble was so intense that European leaders feared it could lead to conflicts or even wars among themselves. To prevent this, the German Chancellor **Otto von Bismarck** called a diplomatic meeting, known as the **Berlin Conference**, held from November 1884 to February 1885. The conference created the **Berlin Act**, which set rules for European competition in Africa. Key points of the treaty included:

- Notifying other powers when a territory was claimed;
- Effective occupation of claimed territories;
- Freedom of trade in the Congo Basin;
- Freedom of navigation on the Niger and Congo Rivers;
- Free trade for all nations;
- Suppression of the slave trade on land and sea.

This treaty, made without any African representatives, became the basis for the division, invasion, and colonization of Africa by European powers.

3.1.2.1. Causes of scramble and partition

A. Causes of scramble of Africa

- **Need for raw materials for European industries**

There was need for raw materials to supply European industries, which had grown because of industrial revolution. The raw materials included gold, diamonds, copper, iron ore, cotton, coffee, cacao, tea and palm oil.

- **Market for the manufactured goods**

There was mass production of goods by European industries and European countries could not provide market to all the commodities. European countries were also practicing protectionism in order to protect their markets. They thus came to Africa to get markets; e.g. the occupation of Senegal by the French.

- **Need for areas where to invest their surplus capital**

European countries had accumulated a lot of capital from their industrial products; they had to look for areas outside Europe where they could invest their surplus capital.

- **Need to control economically strategic areas to improve trade**

In order to be sure of their improvement of trade, the European countries were ambitious to control the economically strategic areas. For example, the occupation of Egypt by the British was for such reasons.

- **Discovery of minerals in most parts of Africa**

This encouraged the Europeans to come and control some parts of Africa in order to be the masters of those areas rich in minerals. There was gold in Ghana, diamonds and gold in South Africa, copper and diamonds in Congo.

To give protection to European traders and trading companies European traders asked their home governments to come and occupy areas in Africa where they operated in order to protect them from hostile tribes and chiefs who had created insecurity to their business.

To resettle high population from Europe and provide them with jobs the need to settle the unemployed, criminals and people who were suffering from chronic diseases and undesirable in Europe forced European countries to get lands to settle them in Africa. E.g. occupation of Algeria, Tunisia, Morocco and South Africa respectively by the French and the British.

- **To control strategic areas.**

European countries got involved in occupying strategic areas for their defence; e.g. the occupation of the Suez Canal and the strait of Gibraltar by Britain.

B. Partition of Africa

- **British occupation of Egypt in 1882**

Britain got interested in controlling the Suez Canal in 1882 after pushing France out. The French decided to avenge against the British by occupying the Upper Nile and the land from Senegal to Djibouti in the east. To pre-empt this plan, the British took over Kenya, Uganda and Sudan before the French could come in.

- **French occupation of Tunisia and Morocco**

The French occupation of Tunisia and Morocco due to their proximity to Europe, astride the Mediterranean Sea and the Strait of Gibraltar encouraged other powers to join the race for colonies.

- **Growth of nationalism and jingoism**

Colonisation was a sign of prestige and glory for the Europeans and in order to show their power, Europeans had to occupy large areas as colonies. This was why the great European powers got large lands in Africa.

- **Compensation for major losses**

Britain had lost America after the American war of independence in 1776. Their pride, prestige and major source of their raw materials and wealth was lost. France lost Alsace and Lorraine to Prussia in 1871 after the 1870 – 1871 Franco-Prussian war. After achieving some degree of stability, the French Prime Minister Jules Ferry began to look for colonies in Africa as compensation.

- **Activities of King Leopold II of Belgium in Congo**

He took over Congo for himself and not for Belgium his country. As means of counteracting Leopold's activities, the French took over Gabon and Congo (Brazzaville) while British also declared the lower Niger regions as their protectorate.

- **The activities of Pierre Savrogn de Brazza in Congo and Ivory Coast**

He was a French explorer who signed colonial treaties with African local leaders. This forced other European powers to look for colonies in Africa.

- **The influence of the 1884–1885 Berlin Conference**

It had given a green light to colonization by outlining procedures for the partition of Africa.

- **Humanitarian factors**

Humanitarians in Europe urged their countries to occupy territory in Africa to stop slave trade and improve the way of living for Africans.

The scramble, partition and conquest of Africa by the Europeans was followed by the introduction of colonial economic policies, which helped them to effectively exploit Africa. The Europeans adopted new methods of exploitation that were similar in different areas of Africa.

Application activity 3.1



1. Suppose you were a European industrialist in the 19th century. Explain why you would support the colonization of Africa. Give two economic reasons justifying your answer.
2. Imagine you are an African leader in a region where minerals such as gold or diamonds have been discovered. How might European countries react to this discovery, and what actions might they take to control the area?
3. Look at the example of Britain occupying Egypt to control the Suez Canal. Explain how controlling such strategic areas could help a country expand its trade and political influence.
4. Assume you are a historian explaining the Scramble for Africa to students today. Show how economic, political, and social factors worked together to cause European colonization of Africa.

3.2 Colonial activities in Africa

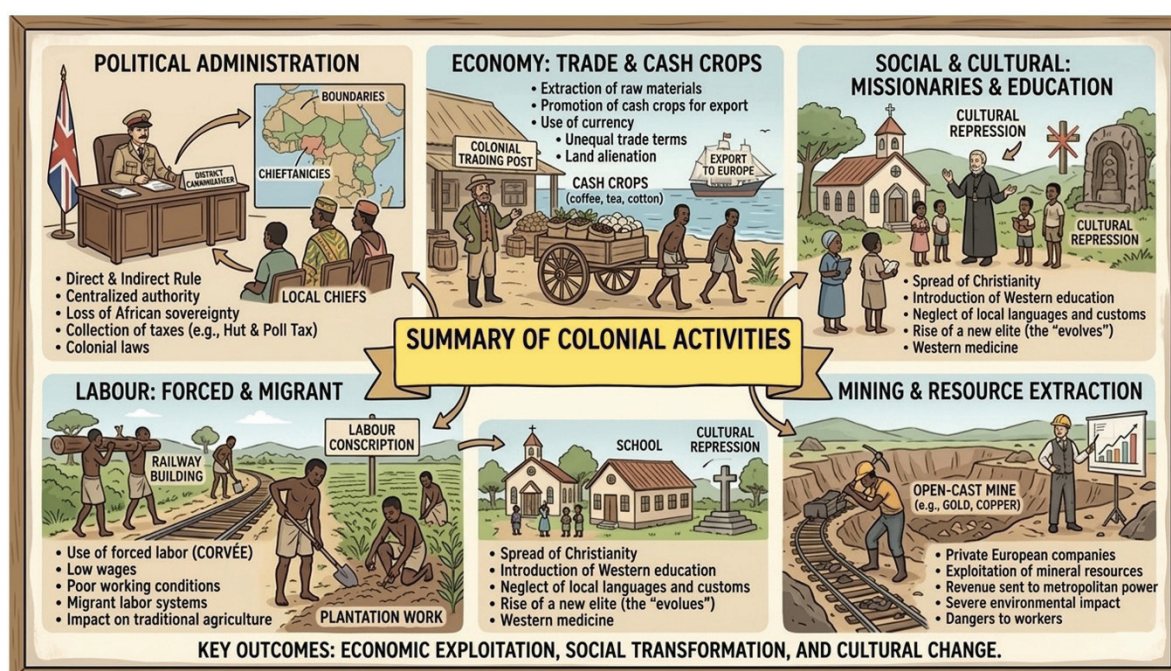


Figure 3.3. Colonial activities in Africa

Learning activity 3.2



1. Look at the "Labour" and "Mining/Trade" panels in the picture above. How did the construction of railways and roads specifically serve the economic interests of the colonial powers rather than the local population?
2. In the "Administration" section, we see the collection of taxes (Hut/Poll Tax). How did the requirement to pay taxes in European currency "force" Africans to move into the labor and cash crop sectors shown in the other panels?
3. Cultural Repression: Observe the symbol for cultural repression. Why was the suppression of indigenous religions and languages considering a necessary "administrative tool" for colonial stability?

Colonial activities in Africa refer to the economic, political, and social actions carried out by European colonial powers after they established control over African territories in the late nineteenth and early twentieth centuries. After the Scramble for Africa, European governments organized their colonies in ways that would allow them to exploit African resources, control African populations, and strengthen their own economies. These activities greatly transformed African societies, economies, and political systems.

One of the most important colonial activities in Africa was the exploitation of natural resources. European powers were interested in Africa mainly because of its abundant raw materials that were needed for their industries in Europe. As a result, minerals such as gold, diamonds, copper, and iron ore were extracted from different parts of the continent. Forest products such as rubber and timber were also collected in large quantities. In addition, Europeans encouraged the production of agricultural products known as cash crops, including coffee, cocoa, cotton, tea, and palm oil. These products were exported to Europe where they were processed in industries and sold in international markets.

Another important activity carried out by colonial governments was the establishment of plantation agriculture. Europeans created large plantations where cash crops were grown mainly for export. In many areas, Africans were forced or encouraged to work on these plantations under difficult conditions. The introduction of plantation farming often reduced the land available for African farmers to grow food crops, which sometimes resulted in food shortages and economic difficulties for local communities.

Colonial governments also developed infrastructure in order to support the exploitation of African resources. Railways, roads, and ports were constructed to facilitate the transportation of raw materials from the interior regions to the coastal areas where they could be exported to Europe. For example, railway lines were built to connect mining areas and plantations with seaports. Although this infrastructure improved transportation in some regions, it was mainly designed to serve colonial economic interests rather than to promote balanced development within African societies.

In order to control their colonies effectively, European powers established new systems of colonial administration. Colonial officials were appointed to govern African territories on behalf of European governments. Two main systems of administration

were used in Africa. The first was direct rule, where European administrators governed the colonies directly without relying on local leaders. The second was indirect rule, where colonial governments used existing African chiefs and traditional authorities to administer local communities under the supervision of European officials. These systems weakened many traditional African political institutions and reduced the independence of African leaders.

Colonial governments also introduced taxation systems in African colonies. Africans were required to pay different forms of taxes such as hut tax or poll tax. Since these taxes had to be paid in money, many Africans were forced to work in mines, plantations, or colonial construction projects in order to earn wages. In this way, taxation became an important tool used by colonial governments to obtain labour and generate revenue for the colonial administration.

Social and cultural activities were also part of colonial rule in Africa. Christian missionaries played an important role in spreading Christianity and Western education. They established churches, schools, and hospitals in different parts of the continent. Missionary schools introduced literacy and basic education to many Africans and trained some individuals to work as clerks, teachers, and assistants in colonial administrations. However, the education provided was limited and mainly aimed at supporting colonial systems rather than promoting independent African development.

Colonial rule also brought significant cultural changes. European languages such as English, French, Portuguese, and Spanish became official languages in many colonies. Western forms of education, religion, and dress were introduced. While some Africans adopted these new cultural practices, many traditional African beliefs, customs, and social institutions were weakened or transformed during the colonial period.

Another important colonial activity involved the control and organization of labour. In order to ensure the success of their economic activities, colonial authorities introduced different labour systems. These included forced labour, contract labour, and migrant labour systems. Many Africans were required to work in mines, plantations, and public works such as road and railway construction. These labour systems often caused hardship, population movements, and social disruption in many African communities.

Colonial activities in Africa had both positive and negative consequences. On one hand, some infrastructure such as roads, railways, schools, and hospitals was developed during the colonial period. These developments contributed to improvements in communication, transportation, and education in some areas. On the other hand, colonial activities mainly benefited European countries while African societies experienced exploitation of their resources and labour. Africans lost control over their land and political systems, and their economies became dependent on the export of raw materials to Europe.

Briefly, colonial activities in Africa were primarily designed to serve the economic and political interests of European colonial powers. Through the exploitation of natural resources, the establishment of colonial administrations, the introduction of taxation and labour systems, and the spread of missionary education, colonial governments reshaped African societies. Although some forms of development occurred during this period, colonial rule largely resulted in economic exploitation, social change, and political domination of African peoples.

Application activity 3.2



1. Some historians argue that colonial rule brought development to Africa, while others argue it mainly caused exploitation. Using examples from the lesson, discuss which view you agree with and justify your answer.
2. Imagine you are an African farmer living during the colonial period when plantation agriculture was introduced. Explain two challenges you might face because of the establishment of plantations and how they could affect your livelihood and community.
3. Compare direct rule and indirect rule by explaining advantages and disadvantages of each system for African societies.
4. Using examples from the lesson, explain how the construction of railways and roads helped European colonial powers achieve their economic objectives in Africa.

3.3 European methods of exploitation of Africa.

Learning activity 3.3



Read the following scenario and answer the questions asked on it.

Karake was a young African man living in a village during the colonial period. One day, colonial authorities informed the villagers that every household had to pay a hut tax in money. Since Karake and his family had no money, he was forced to leave his village to work in a European-owned mine far from home. The colonial government had also built a railway line that transported minerals from the mine to the coastal port, where they were shipped to Europe. Meanwhile, large pieces of land near Karake's village had been taken by Europeans to establish plantations for growing cash crops for export.

Questions

1. From Karake's experience, identify **two methods used by Europeans to exploit Africans** and explain how they worked.
2. Explain **why the colonial government introduced hut taxes** and how this policy forced Africans like Karake to provide labour.
3. Analyze **how the construction of the railway helped Europeans benefit economically from African resources**.

• Taxation

It was the main method of generating revenue for supporting colonial administration. The commonest were the hut and gun taxes. The method of collection was brutal and harsh, and often caused resistance wars. For instance, the Hut Tax War of 1898 in Sierra Leone.

Taxation was also important to force or condition Africans to grow cash crops or to work on European farms. This was because in order to get money for paying taxes these were the only possible alternatives. In some areas like the Congo Free State and Angola, taxes were paid in form of natural products and animals. Failure to pay taxes in these areas would lead to confiscation of property and sometimes mutilation.

- **Forced cash crop growing.**

To meet the primary demand for colonization of Africa, cash crop growing had to be boosted. Some crops like rubber were grown traditionally; Europeans grew some such as pyrethrum while Africans grew others like coffee and cotton under the supervision of Europeans. These cash crops were needed to supply raw material to industries in Europe.

Europeans did not encourage the production of food. Forced labour undermined the production of food crops. This led to famine in African societies that had been traditionally self-sufficient in food. The African economies were developed as producers of raw materials in form of cash crops and minerals, and as consumers of European manufactured goods.

- **Forced labor**

Africans were forced to work on European farms, mines and construction sites of colonial offices and roads. Their labor was either paid cheaply or not paid at all. In the Portuguese colonies of Angola and Mozambique there was a unique form of forced labour called contract labour. Africans were rounded up and taken to Principe and Sao Tome to work in sugar cane plantations.

Due to this forced labor, African societies experienced famine. A lot of time was spent on work for Europeans.

- **Land alienation**

This was the most evil form of exploitation of natural resources. Africans in settler colonies were hit hardest by this practice, for example in Kenya, South Africa, Rhodesia, Algeria, Angola and Mozambique. In some areas of Africa, Africans were forced to settle in reserve camps leaving fertile and mineralized plots of lands to Europeans. This policy caused resistance in many areas of Africa.

- **Development of legitimate trade**

After realizing the benefits of slave trade and its abolition, they introduced legitimate trade. This form of trade is said to have brought peace and stability as it eliminated the raids and suffering caused by slave trade.

Europeans who transferred all the profits to their countries monopolised legitimate trade. They paid low prices for African products and highly priced their exports to Africa. Worse still, the legitimate trade involved the exchange of high valued African products like gold, copper, diamonds, cotton, coffee, rubber, and palm oil among others. Exports to Africa included beads, used clothes, bangles, spices and glassware.

- **Discouraged industrialisation**

To control the monopoly for trade in raw materials and market for their manufactured goods in Africa, Europeans extremely discouraged manufacturing industries. In Egypt,

Lord Cromer established processing plants for cotton lint while cotton cloth production was done in Britain. Cromer also set up tariffs on locally manufactured foods and on imported coal. He also set up heavy fines on smokers to kill the tobacco industry.

In Senegal, the French never set up any industries to the extent that even groundnuts were exported in their shells. Only primary processing industries were set up to reduce the volume of raw materials. The prices for raw materials were very low while the manufactured goods from Europe were sold at high prices. This was a clear indication of colonial exploitation.

- **Development of road and railway transport.**

To support legitimate trade, road and railway transport networks were established. These networks connected the interior of African colonies to the coast. Roads were mainly established in areas rich in resources where colonialists had direct gains. The main purpose was to facilitate the effective exploitation of raw materials.

In Togo, Germany constructed railway lines and named them according to the produce they were meant to carry such as cotton line, palm oil line and iron line.

- **Education system.**

Christian missionaries controlled the colonial education system. In the colonial schools, Africans were trained to serve as lower cadres, known as "colonial auxiliaries" did. The main products of these schools best suited the posts of houseboys, house girls and clerks. They could not make engineers, doctors and other professional careers.

The colonial education system produced people who liked European ways of life. As a result, they exploited fellow Africans. In Rwanda, education was exclusively given to the sons of chiefs. In French, Portuguese and Italian colonies education was used for assimilation purposes.

Liberal subjects such as, political science, literature and history were neglected in order to keep Africans away from forming revolutionary movements against colonialists. To colonialists, the best subjects fit for Africans were bible study, reading and writing of languages.

Application activity 3.3



1. The colonial education system mainly trained Africans to become clerks, house servants, or assistants in colonial administration analyse how this type of education helped colonial governments maintain control over African societies.
2. European colonial government built roads and railway lines connecting resource-rich areas to coastal ports. Explain how this transport system supported the exploitation of African resources.
3. A colonial government introduces hut taxes and requires all Africans to pay them in money. Explain how this policy could force Africans to work on European farms, mines, or plantations.

3.4 Consequences of the European domination and exploitation of Africa from the 19th Century.

Learning activity 3.4



Read the scenario below and answer the questions that follow.

During the colonial period, **Amina**, a young African woman, noticed many changes in her community after Europeans established control over the region. Colonial authorities for plantations and mining activities took large areas of land. Many people in the village were forced to work on these plantations or migrate to towns to earn money for paying taxes. New roads and railways were built mainly to transport raw materials to the coast for export. Missionary schools were also introduced, teaching European languages and culture while many traditional African practices began to decline.

Questions

1. Identify the economic consequences of European domination shown in the scenario.
2. Explain how colonial labour policies affected African communities.
3. Analyze positive and negative impact of missionary education on African societies.
4. Describe how European domination led to cultural changes in African communities.

3.4.1 Economic consequences of colonialism.

• Migration

The colonial powers used forced labor in the exploitation of Africa. This economic policy was introduced in order to exploit Africa. All adults were subjected to forced labor. Those who failed to accomplish it were punished. Africans were also beaten or had their properties confiscated.

As result of this forced labor, some Africans resisted European colonialists. Others preferred to migrate to the neighboring countries where the situation was quite different.

• Resettlement of Africans

Another consequence of colonial economic policies was the resettlement of Africans due to land alienation. They were displaced from their fertile soils to provide space for colonial economic projects such as infrastructure.

• Exploitation of Africans

All colonial economic policies resulted in the exploitation of Africans. Examples include taxation and labor policies.

- **Dependence of Africans to European economy**

The over dependence of the African economy was due to poor colonial economic policy. This policy discouraged industrialization and also destroyed local African industry. The African economy was reduced to a market for European goods. The Europeans got the raw materials at low prices while their manufactured goods were sold at high prices in Africa.

- **Development of infrastructure**

European colonialists succeeded in the development of communication lines. Railways were constructed in many parts of Africa to connect the interior of Africa to the coast. The aim was to facilitate the economic exploitation of Africa. Communication lines only extended to areas rich in resources, for example, minerals.

3.4.2 Cultural consequences on Africa

- **Disruption of traditional African cultures and introduction of Christianity**

Colonialism affected African societies in various ways. It disrupted the traditional tribal cultures and religions. They introduced Christianity and subjugated Africans to European rule. The introduction of Christianity led to suppression of many ancient practices, although some survived.

- **European colonization of Africa led to the demise of old African kingdoms and empires and the emergence of new political entities**

Some of the old societies were reconstructed and new African societies were founded on different ideological and social premises. Consequently, African societies were in a state of flux, and many were organizationally weak and politically unstable. They were therefore too weak to resist the European invaders.

- **Effective control and exploitation of the colonized societies**

As a result of their origins in military conquest and because of the racist ideology of the colonialists, the colonial states were authoritarian. Because they were imposed and maintained by force, without the consent of the governed, the colonial states never had the effective legitimacy of normal governments. Second, they were authoritarian because they were administered by military officers and civil servants appointed by the colonial power. While they were all authoritarian, bureaucratic state systems, their forms of administration varied, partly due to the different national administrative traditions and specific imperialist ideologies of the colonizers and partly because of the political conditions in the various territories that they conquered.

Application activity 3.4



1. Explain how the current transport network in our country (roads and railways) still reflect the routes established by colonial powers to transport raw materials.
2. Colonialism introduced a 'money economy' and taxation. By your analysis, in what ways did this shift change the traditional African concept of family and community labor?
3. Suppose the colonial economy had focused on internal trade between African regions rather than trade with Europe. Evaluate how infrastructure of our continent might look different today.
4. To what extent can we blame the 'Consequences of Colonial Economy' for our current level of industrialization, versus the policy choices made after independence?"

3.5 End of unit assessment



Section A. Knowledge and understanding

1. Define the term Scramble for Africa and explain how it contributed to the colonization of the continent.
2. Explain three major causes of the European colonization of Africa in the 19th century.
3. Describe two major colonial activities carried out by European powers in Africa and explain their purpose.
4. Explain the economic consequences of European domination in Africa.

Section B. Skills

1. Interpret the following situation: A railway line was constructed from a mining area in the interior of Africa to a coastal port during the colonial period. Explain how this railway supported European economic interests rather than the development of African societies.
2. Analyze how taxation policies introduced by colonial governments forced Africans to participate in colonial economic systems.
3. Analyze how colonial economic policies created dependence of African economies on European countries.

Section c. Attitudes and values

1. Study historical sources such as pictures, maps, or written accounts about colonial Africa. Explain why it is important to analyze such sources when studying the history of colonization.
2. Some historians argue that the legacy of colonialism can still be seen in Africa today. Explain two ways in which colonial policies continue to influence modern African societies.
3. As a student studying African history, explain why it is important to understand the impact of colonialism in order to evaluate modern forms of neocolonialism in Africa.

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UNIT 4

POST INDEPENDENT RWANDA

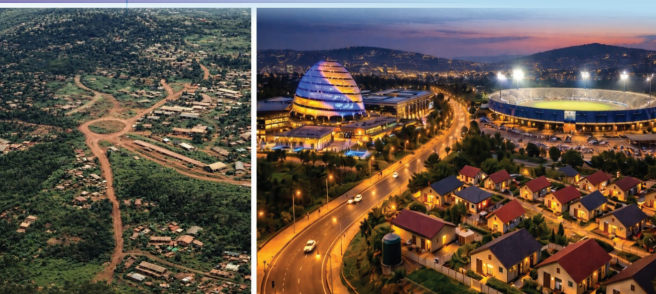


Figure 4.1. Post independent Rwanda



Key Unit Competence:

Analyse the events that happened in First and second Republic for ensuring a proper governance.

Learning objectives

By the end of this unit you should be able to:

Knowledge and understanding

- 1
 - Describe the successes and the failures of the first and second republic of Rwanda.
 - *State the reasons that caused the fall of the first and second republic of Rwanda.*
Describe the causes, course and the consequences of the Liberation war of 1990 in Rwanda.
Identify the achievements and the challenges of the Government of Rwanda after the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi.

Skills

- 2
 - Explain the successes and failures of the first and second republic of Rwanda in detail.
 - Examine the reasons that caused the fall of the first and second republic of Rwanda.
 - Explain the reasons that caused the fall of the first and second republic of Rwanda.
Describe the causes, course and the consequences of the Liberation war of 1990 in Rwanda.
Evaluate the achievements and the challenges of the Government of Rwanda after the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi.

Attitudes and values

- 3
 - Appreciate the successes and understand the failures of the first and second Republic of Rwanda.
 - Recognize the reasons that caused the fall of the first and second Republic of Rwanda.

Introduction

This unit helps you to learn about the post independent Rwanda's economic, social and political situation during the first and the second Republic. You will understand the major achievements and challenges of Rwanda after independence, including the first and second Republics. You will learn how leadership, infrastructure, and policies shaped the country's development. The unit helps you appreciate the importance of good governance, national unity, and responsible citizenship. It also encourages you to analyse past successes and failures to make informed decisions for the future.

Introductory activity 4



Figure 4.2. Post-independence Rwanda

Questions.

1. Look at the map carefully. Which regions of Rwanda had schools and hospitals built during the first Republic (1962–1973)?
2. Identify industries or factories developed during the second Republic (1973–1994).
3. Which transport infrastructures (roads, airports) are shown on the map, and how did they help connect the country?

4.1 The first Republic (1962-1973)

Learning activity 4.1



Read the following scenario and answer questions that follow:

During a history lesson at **Groupe Scolaire Kibeho**, Mr. Ndayisaba asked his students about Rwanda's development after independence in 1962. He explained that during the first Republic led by **Grégoire Kayibanda**, the government worked to improve the country. Many **schools, hospitals, and roads** were built to help people access education, health services, and transport. Administrative institutions were also created to strengthen governance. Mr. Ndayisaba then asked students to think about how these achievements helped Rwanda develop after independence.

Questions

1. Identify two achievements of the first Republic shown in the scenario.
2. Explain why were schools and hospitals important for Rwanda's development after independence?
3. Do you think the achievements of the first Republic were enough to ensure long-term stability in Rwanda? Explain your reasoning using historical thinking.

4.1.1 Evolution of new institutions after Independence

1. The Constitution

The First Republic worked under the November 1962 constitution. This means that Rwanda recovered its independence without a constitution as such.

The text was never regarded as mandatory. As matter of fact, when the legislative assembly studied a project of constitution (during its second session), it was not about the revision questions of the Gitarama text. The Gitarama text is a historic declaration in which Hutu leaders officially proclaimed the end of the Tutsi monarchy, dissolved the Belgian colonial administration, and established the democratic and sovereign Republic of Rwanda on January 28, 1961.

Therefore, in attempt to avoid a constitutional vacuum, a parliament shifted into a constituent assembly and studied a constitution project of which the final text was signed on the 24th November 1962.

Independence Day on July 1st, 1962, Rwanda had no constitution. PARMEHUTU leaders had prepared a document to be used as a constitution during the coup d'Etat of Gitarama. However, this text was not published in the official Gazette of Ruanda-Urundi. Moreover, the colonial authority continued thereafter to dictate laws for the new authorities.

Rwanda had a government headed by a president of the republic and a parliament. According to the constitution, the power of the government was allocated to the president of the republic who was at the same time head of state and head of government.

The parliament had the power to supervise the actions of the president of the republic and his government (Article 73). Under the first Republic, three legislatures were elected: in 1961, 1965 and 1969, until the dissolution of the parliament following the July 5th, 1973 coup d'Etat.

2. The President of the Republic and the Government

At the time of recovering Rwanda's independence, Grégoire Kayibanda paved his way into political prominence and was more than willing to use "ethnic" terror and "divisions" to maintain his rule. With the new Republican institutions, the Head of State took the title of the President of the Republic. For the first time, the post was given to Dominique Mbonyumutwa (January-October 1961). He was replaced by Grégoire Kayibanda on the 26th October 1961, after being elected by the National Assembly. He immediately put in place the Government.



Figure 4.3. Grégoire Kayibanda, President of Rwanda from October 1961 to July 1973. (Source: National Archives of Rwanda/Photos)

• The Supreme Court

After Rwanda's independence in 1962, the Supreme Court was established as the country's highest judicial body, but its role and existence shifted significantly over the following decades due to political changes. It was abolished in 1979, reinstated in 1991, and finally strengthened after 1994 to ensure judicial independence

• From Multipartism to Monopartism Learning

At the time of gaining her independence in 1962, Rwanda had embraced a pluralistic political system. However, just like in many African States at that time, the ruling party, MDR PARMEHUTU, turned itself into a "State Party", behaving just like a single party. Therefore, MDR PARMEHUTU assimilated itself into the State. The president of the republic was at the same president of the PARMEHUTU Party. At the level of prefectures, the Prefet was the president of PARMEHUTU, the same as at the level of Communes and so on up to the lowest administrative level.

In order to become a single party, MDR – PARMEHUTU started eliminating other opposition parties using diverse mechanisms including intimidation, arbitrary arrests, physical violence and at times but not often, negotiations. It was in those similar circumstances that APROSOMA disappeared in 1961, after the defection of its principal leaders to MDR – PARMEHUTU. These included Joseph Habyarimana Gitara, Aloys

Munyangaju and Germain Gasigwa.

As for RADER and UNAR, their disappearance was due to the physical elimination of their respective leaders. Examples were the liquidation of Bwanakweli Prosper and Rwagasana Michel in 1963. They were executed in prison of Ruhengeri when "Inyenzi" had just launched a major attack and had penetrated into Bugesera up to Kanzenze. "Inyenzi" was a derogatory name (meaning cockroaches) given to Tutsi counter revolutionaries whose aim was to reverse their achievements of the "1959 revolution". Hence, after having attracted some opposition leaders within its ranks, and having killed others, MDR- PARMEHUTU retrenched itself as an ipso facto single party. That was the reason why in 1965 MDR- PARMEHUTU was the only party that presented candidates for presidential and legislative elections.

4.1.2 Assessment of the First Republic (1962-1973)

1. Political problems

The first challenge faced by the First Republic was the problem of refugees. *Refugee problem* : It rose with the 1959 crisis and increased as the time went on. In fact, after every "Inyenzi" (Majority of whom were Tutsi refugees) attack, Tutsi inside the country were killed and those who survived would seek asylum outside the country.

"Inyenzi" attacks. "*Inyenzi*"-*Ingangurarugo ziyemeje kuba Inyenzi*- was a name given to Rwandans who carried out raids against Rwanda (1961-1967). They refused exile in neighbouring countries where they had been constrained to go because of the November 1959 crisis. Their objective was to fight the Belgians and the new PARMEHUTU leaders as well as to take back their right to citizenship.

At the beginning of the 1960s, the provisional government had shown concern and established a state secretariat for refugees. However, after every *Inyenzi* attack, the Tutsi inside the country would be killed. Survivors would seek asylum outside the country.

The major attacks of Inyenzi were the following:

- The December 21, 1961 attacks from Uganda via Kinigi targeting individuals in Ruhengeri, Kigali and Gitarama.
- The April 1962 attack from Uganda targeting the eastern parts of the country.
- The July 3rd to 4th, 1962, attack from Goma by approximately 80 to 100 Inyenzi. Four of the captured Inyenzi, were executed in Ruhengeri prison.
- The December 24, 1963 attacks in Bugesera. Attackers came from Burundi, via Kirundo and Nemba. After some successes, the Inyenzi were stopped and defeated by the National Guard commanded by two Belgian officers Dubois and Florquin.

After the Bugesera attacks (1963-1964), President Kayibanda warned the Inyenzi that "If they try to conquer Kigali by fighting, it would be the total and quick end of the Tutsi".

2. "Ethnic" ideology

Independent Rwanda inherited "ethnic" ideology that would hinder the socio-economic development of the country. Since the 1920s, "ethnic" ideology was introduced by the Belgian Colonial administration in the framework of the policy of "divide and rule". From then onwards, the Belgians did their best to side with one faction of Rwandans in the administration of Rwanda.

3. Economy

At independence, many government offices were in Bujumbura, which had been the colonial capital of Ruanda-Urundi. Rwanda was underequipped. There were a few infrastructures. The country did not have a radio, an airport, permanent roads, a telephone system, hotels, a university or any other institution of higher learning. Everything had to come through Bujumbura or through Belgian Congo.

In addition, Rwanda lacked the financial means. It had only one donor: Belgium.

As a result, Rwanda was dependent on foreign donors for most of her needs. That is why Rwanda tried to establish its own financial institutions like banks were put in place: The Commercial Bank (1962), the National Bank (1964) and the Rwanda Development Bank (1968). These institutions managed to finance a few factories and industrial companies.

Another economic problem faced by Rwanda was the poor functioning of the monetary and customs union between Rwanda and Burundi.

Distribution of fiscal income was poorly managed. Moreover, the two countries did not have very good relations because they had two different political regimes: Rwanda was a republic while Burundi was a constitutional monarchy.

The country was going through an extremely difficult crisis including the deficits in the balance of payments because in 1962, prices began to rise drastically to reach by 50 per cent and by 1964; prices had risen by 300 per cent. The Rwandan currency depreciated while agricultural and mineral production declined. This resulted in a big fall in exports and a big gap in foreign exchange.

To address this situation, Rwanda asked for assistance from western countries and from international organizations like the International Monetary Fund (IMF). Rwanda's western donors were mainly Belgium and United States of America (USA). Belgium and IMF had just granted Rwanda a little more in terms of loans while the USA had donated food and some money to buy equipment.

Under equipped and without local skilled labour, Rwanda was to resort to external aid or assistance. Yet, this one was given under several, difficult conditions liable to endangering both political and economic independence. For example, the Belgian technical assistance given to the country from 1962 had to be reduced in 1965 because this had grossly affected the Belgian national budget.

Besides external assistance, the government of Rwanda took other measures to get the country out of the economic crisis. It reduced expenses of all ministries including funds allocated to education. Another proposed solution was the First five-year economic development plan of 1966–1971. The plan was based on an analysis of the economic and social conditions, and challenges that Rwanda had to face in order to define its economic development.

Plans were made to construct tarmac roads linking the country to all her neighbours in the framework of the five-year development plan (1966-1971). The following roads were to be built:

- Kigali–Gatuna
- Kigali–Rusumo
- Kigali–Butare
- Ruhengeri–Cyanika.

It is essential to note that before the coup d'état that brought the first Republic in 1973 to an end, construction had only started on the Kigali-Gatuna road in 1971. The construction of this road was completed in 1977.

In addition, the Rusumo Bridge at the Akagera River linking Rwanda, Tanzania, and the bridge over Nyabarongo River were constructed.

In rural development to improve agriculture sector, the emphasis was placed on the reclamation of marshlands in order to improve agricultural production and the distribution of improved seeds and plants in some parts of the country. New crops like rice were introduced. In terms of animal production, some cattle dumps were put in place to fight ticks, which attack cows.

In attempt to get the country out of the economic crisis, the Government of the first Republic sought international assistance from international organizations and Western Governments. It also adopted political austerity measures by reducing expenses in all ministries. Since 1969, the economic situation in the country began to improve due to drastic reduction in military expenses linked with the end of "*Inyenzi*" incursions and increased assistance from Western countries.

4. Education system

The First Republic made very few achievements in education and health. The First Republic tried to give free education and health services.

At independence, Rwanda had a few secondary schools such as *Groupe Scolaire d'Astrida* in Butare, *Ecole Technique Officielle de Kicukiro*, and *College Sainte André* in Kigali and *College du Christ Roi* in Nyanza.

By 1962, there were 23 secondary schools and this number increased to 63 schools in 1972. The number of pupils in primary schools increased from 261,306 in 1962 to 425,000 pupils in 1972 due to the double shift system.

The budget allocated to education also increased from 168,264,000 Frw in 1962 to 563,194,000 Frw in 1972.

The first national university was opened on November 3rd 1963 in Rwanda. A Canadian priest called Levesque with 50 students distributed in three faculties started it: medicine, arts and sciences. It was launched at Ruhande in Butare (Huye District today) with the assistance of Switzerland and Canada. By 1971– 1972, the enrolment had reached 470. The *Institut Pédagogique National* (IPN) was started in 1966. Despite these efforts in education, no tangible fruits were evident as indicated by the small numbers produced during this period.

5. Health

In the health sector, the First Republic also tried to make some efforts. The focus was put on the construction of new dispensaries whose number increased from 67 to 142 in 1972. Steps were also taken to address malnutrition and poor conditions of hygiene. As a remedy, some medical centres were constructed to provide health education in order to sensitize people on how to prevent certain diseases. Breastfeeding mothers were provided with childcare skills. The government also set up nutrition centres for malnourished children.

To take care of disabled children, a centre for physically handicapped children was built at Gatagara. A psychiatry centre for the mentally handicapped was built at Ndera. This centre known as CARAES Ndera, meaning “loving care of the sick” was run by the Brothers of Charity. In preventive medicine, vaccination campaigns were initiated between 1965 and 1970.

4.1.3 Failures of the First Republic

Grégoire Kayibanda and his MDR-PARMEHUTU denied the rights of the parliament to supervise the Government. The same went to the Supreme Court that failed to prevent Grégoire Kayibanda from changing some articles of the constitution in to be re-elected for the 3rd term in 1973. The President himself instead of the people who were the source of PARMEHUTU initiated changing the 1962 Constitution.

The cause of rivalry was that the PARMEHUTU members of the South especially from Gitarama, the home area of President Kayibanda tended to systematically monopolize PARMEHUTU and Government power in a form of nepotism at the expense of the Northern region. This resulted into the loss of military support of which the majority of senior officers were from the Northern region and the rest of the country. There was a failed coup attempt by Pierre Nyatanyi who was then chief cabinet of President Grégoire Kayibanda and Joachim Muramutsa, commander of the Kanombe unit.

1. Discrimination against Tutsi

From 1959 onwards, the Tutsi was targeted, causing hundreds of thousands of deaths. A population of almost two million Rwandans were refugees for almost four decades. The First Republic, under President Grégoire Kayibanda, institutionalized discrimination against the Tutsi and periodically used massacres against the Tutsi as a means of maintaining the status quo.

In 1965, Rwanda was declared a one-party state under MDR/ PARMEHUTU, which was the architect of the racist ideology. The regime of Kayibanda did not manifest a good will to repatriate the refugees. Instead, the state killed the Tutsi whenever the Inyenzi attacked the country.

2. Transfer of “ethnicism” to regionalism

In 1965, PARMEHUTU won every seat in the National Assembly. In spite of this achievement, this party experience had started to internal tensions since 1963. These tensions fell into two categories.

There were inter-personal rivalries and disagreements in the distribution of jobs as the party organs and state structures came closer and closer.

There was increasing discontent among emerging cadres, students and individuals with primary and secondary education.

Very fierce local political competition was combined with rivalries at national level. Burgomasters and préfets competed intensely. Whereas the former drew upon their clientele networks and the legitimacy as elected officials, the latter used state structures and party influence. Divisions emerged due to the struggle for jobs. The state decided to expose "ethnic" divisions so as to unify the regime.

The divide between the south and the north was firmly established. From February–March 1973, purges were organized in schools and in public administration against the Tutsi population. Tutsi students appeared on lists posted in all secondary schools and at the university of Rwanda and signed 'Mouvement des Étudiants' ('Students' Movement') or 'Comité de Salut Public' ('Committee of Public Safety'). They felt threatened and had to flee from these institutions.

Another cause of the rivalry between the north and the south was that PARMEHUTU members of the south especially in Gitarama, the home area of President Kayibanda tended to dominate PARMEHUTU and government power at the expense of the northern region.

For example, in the last government formed by President Grégoire Kayibanda in 1972, there were six ministers out of eighteen. One third came from Gitarama, the region of Kayibanda. Kayibanda was accused of behaving like a monarch who played around, and causing misunderstanding in the government.

There was a failed coup attempt by Nyatanyi Pierre the chief of cabinet under President Kayibanda and Muramutsa Joachim, commandant of the Kanombe unit. Because these two officers were from the north, the coup was seen as a coup of the north against the south. The two officers were imprisoned only to be pardoned later by President Habyarimana when he took over power in the coup d'état of 1973.

4.1.4 Downfall of the First Republic

The first signs of the decline of the First Republic appeared in October 1968, when the majority of the members of the parliament rejected a parliamentary commission of inquiry report on the administration of the country.

This was because of interpersonal and regional differences in the ranks of PARMEHUTU. The report had serious accusations against President Kayibanda. The accusations in the report included favouritism and nepotism, intimidation, misuse of political power and impunity that characterized the political and public life of the regime.

Because of this report, members of parliament were divided into two camps. Some supported the report while others opposed it. The supporters of the report were suspended from the decision-making organs of the party. They were also prevented from contesting the legislative elections of 1969.

Another factor that contributed to the reinforcement of regional divisions was the constitutional amendment of May 18th, 1973 by the National Assembly. This amendment increased the duration of presidential terms of office from five to seven years, and allowed Grégoire Kayibanda to stand for a third term. Although, the National Assembly supported the amendment of the constitution, the country was already divided according to the two main regions: north and south. The north wanted to take power while the south wanted to keep it.

In order to solve the problem of discontent in political and military ranks that was linked to regionalism, President Kayibanda resorted to violence and “ethnic” cleansing of the Tutsi. Kayibanda wanted to hide the regional divisions in the country by turning public and international attention to what had been considered as a lesser evil or no evil at all.

In carrying out this plan, Tutsi children were massacred and chased out of schools and the few Tutsi in minor administrative positions were dismissed, and others murdered. These crimes were planned and carried out by top ranking officials in the government. For instance, in 1972, President Grégoire Kayibanda brought together his closest friends to develop a diversion plan. This plan consisted in dismissing Tutsi from schools and higher colleges as well as public, semi-public and private institutions. Lists of “undesirable” Tutsi were posted (26-29 February 1973) and the order to leave the institution was formulated everywhere in the same way. No prefecture was spared and all the Tutsi population was targeted; no government official from any school, public or private institution disapproved this act: every one kept silence.

The argument that was developed by the Government and its followers consisted in saying that Hutu could no longer be the minority in the schools, public and private institutions, whereas they were demographically majority. Tutsi massacres (February-March 1973) that were prepared and coordinated by the Kayibanda Government led to the state of insecurity that opened the way for the 5th July 1973 Coup d’Etat.

This impunity degenerated into regional confrontation. The Hutu of the north started to resent and fight the Hutu of the central part of the country favoured by President Kayibanda. It was under these circumstances that Habyarimana Juvenal, the minister of defence decided to intervene militarily. He overthrew Kayibanda in the coup d’état of 5th July 1973. Kayibanda and many officials in his regime were thrown into prison. They faced court martial. They were sentenced to death or given long prison sentences.

Application activity 4.1



1. The 1962 constitution theoretically provided for a multiparty system, yet by 1963, Rwanda was effectively a one-party state (MDR-Parmehutu). Explain what methods were used to transition from pluralism to a single-party state.
2. Despite the instability, the notable successes in education and health set up by the First Republic to serve the post-colonial population. Explain.
3. Compare the economic model of the First Republic (continued reliance on coffee exports) with the urgent need for economic diversification. Evaluate the success or failure of the economic policies of this period.
4. Evaluate the consequences of the 1963 Tutsi incursion from Burundi on the internal stability and ethnic relations within Rwanda during this period.
5. Explain how did the First Republic institutionalize ethnic and regional division in the 1960s and early 1970.
6. Analyse the events of February 1973 where lists of ‘undesirable’ Tutsi civil servants were posted. What does this reveal about the role of the state in violence and the failures of the governance system?

4.2 The Second Republic (1973-1994)



Figure 4.4. Achievements of the second Republic (1973-1994)

Learning activity 4.2



After a deep observation of the illustration, answer the following questions:

1. Looking at the "Internal Achievements" section, explain how the Second Republic attempt to move beyond the simple subsistence farming model inherited from the colonial era?
2. In what ways did the Second Republic prioritize the modernization of Rwanda's physical and social landscape?
3. Analyse how the Second Republic seek to strengthen Rwanda's position within the African continent and its own internal borders?
4. Based on the "Main Visitors & Diplomacy" section, what does the presence of diverse world leaders and international organizations suggest about Rwanda's global standing during this period?

4.2.1 The coup d'état of 5th July 1973 and establishment of the Second Republic

In the night of July 4th to 5th, 1973, the presidential guard under the general command of Major General Habyarimana, Minister of Defence and Chief in staff of the army led a coup d'Etat against the regime of Kayibanda Grégoire and Habyarimana took over the power. He was assisted by the following senior military officers: Lieutenant Colonel Alexis Kanyarengwe, Majors Aloys Nsekarije, Sabin Benda, Epimaque Ruhashya, Fabien Gahimano, Jean Népomuscène Munyandekwe, Bonaventure Ntubitura, Laurent Serubuga, Bonaventure Buregeya and Aloys Simba.

The coup leaders dissolved the National Assembly, suspended the 1962 Constitution and banned all political activities. They suppressed MDR PARMEHUTU Political Party, they at the same time put in place what they called a National Peace and Unity Committee composed of 11 senior officers to replace the ousted government. Given the state of insecurity the country was going through before the coup d'état of 5th July 1973, this committee was greeted with a lot of hope, even among the Rwandan refugees.

In President Habyarimana's declaration on July 5, 1973, much was said about national peace and unity. He castigated regionalism, public immorality, and corruption.



Figure 4.5. President Juvénal Habyarimana from 5th July 1973 to 4th April 1994

4.2.2 Assessment of the Second Republic

I. Achievements of the Second Republic

I.1. In terms of political matter

On July 5th 1975, Major General Juvénal Habyarimana established *Mouvement Révolutionnaire National pour le Développement* (MRND). The Party's main objective was to unify, encourage and intensify efforts of all Rwandans to enhance economic, social and cultural development in an atmosphere of national peace and unity. In 1977, the Commission for Administration and Institutional Affairs of (MRND) prepared a new constitution.

In October 1978, government and the MRND Central Committee adopted the constitution. On December 20th, 1978, the population in a referendum with a reported 89 per cent of the votes adopted the new constitution. At the same time, Habyarimana was elected through universal suffrage as president of Rwanda with a 99 percent majority. Article 7 of the Constitution declared Rwanda a single party state under the MRND where every citizen was a member right from birth. In reality, this was the establishment of a one-party political system. The president of the MRND party had to be the sole presidential candidate. The new constitution abolished the National Assembly and replaced it with The National Development Council (NDC). The first National Development Council or (*Conseil National pour le Développement (CND)*) was elected in 1982.

At the diplomatic level, the Second Republic made international openness and

cooperation one of its main priorities. Rwanda therefore increased the number of its diplomatic representatives abroad. On December 19th, 1983 Juvénal Habyarimana was re-elected president of Rwanda with 99.98 per cent of the votes. After five years, on December 19th, 1988 Juvénal Habyarimana was re-elected again for five years winning 99.8 per cent of the votes.

In June 1990, French President François Mitterrand gave a speech at La Baule in France in which he announced that French aid would be conditional upon democratization in Africa. Following this speech, Rwanda experienced a slight opening up towards a multi-party system.

Thus, on July 5, 1990, during his traditional July 5 speech, the day of the Second Republic's 17th anniversary, Juvénal Habyarimana was in position to announce these political changes: the separation of the party bodies from state structures, and the possible implementation of a multi-party system, though he remained very vague about the details of how this would be implemented. On September 1st 1990, thirty-three Rwandan intellectuals published a manifesto 'for a multi-party system democracy'.

On September 25th, 1990 Juvénal Habyarimana named National Synthesis Committee CNS in charge of developing the first draft for a constitution allowing many political parties.

I.2. In terms of economic development

Under the Second Republic, the Second Five-year period of the economic, social and cultural development plan, which covered the period from 1977 up to 1981, was implemented. This plan had four missions:

- Ensuring food security of the population and address the population growth rate;
- Promotion of human resource management;
- Improvement of the social conditions of individuals and the community;
- Improvement of the Rwandan position vis-à-vis external relations.

The objective of this second five-year development plan was the creation of many jobs in order to provide young people in rural areas with opportunities to participate in the social and economic life of the country.

From 1982 to 1986, the Third Five-year period of the economic, social and cultural development plan was also adopted with the following aims:

- To improve food security for the population in terms of both quality and quantity.
- To promote jobs at sustainable wage levels that cover the basic needs while emphasizing training programmes in order to increase labour productivity.
- To improve the population's health conditions, promote access to shelter and produce goods for mass consumption.
- To develop external relations and encourage the fairness of international trade conditions.

The Rwandan diplomatic representation in foreign countries increased. In 1979, Rwanda had hosted the Sixth Franco – African Conference. In 1976wanda had just been a co-founder of the Communauté Economique des Pays des Grand Lacs (CEPGL). It was

also host to the headquarters of the Kagera River Basin Organization (KBO).

The Second Republic made a great effort in agriculture. Cash crops especially tea, coffee and pyrethrum were promoted by the increase in acreage cultivated and the creation of factories. These include the tea factories of Shagasha, Mata, Gisovu, and Nyabihu, and the pyrethrum factory processing in Ruhengeri.

The government of the Second Republic focused a particular attention on food crops like maize, rice, soya beans, sugarcane, etc. Some factories were also set up to process these crops like the Maïserie de Mukamira, Sucrerie de Kabuye, and others.

Emphasis was also put on the creation of agricultural projects. In almost all former prefectures, there were such projects like Développement Global de Butare (DGB), Projet Agricole de Gitarama (PAG), Développement Rural de Byumba (DRB) and Crête Congo Nil. Regarding animal husbandry, the accent was placed on rearing one cow in a cowshed and planting reeds and other kinds of grasses to feed the cows. To improve the existing breeds of cows, strategies such as the importation of bulls, artificial insemination, research, fighting cattle diseases, etc, were adopted. Concerning infrastructural development, the following infrastructure were put in place by the Second Republic:

- Asphaltting of the following routes: Kigali–Gatuna; Kigali–Butare– Akanyaru; Kigali–Ruhengeri–Gisenyi; Kigali–Kibungo–Rusumo; Butare–Gikongoro–Cyangugu,
- Construction of several buildings to serve as offices, for different ministries and hospitals; for example, King Faisal Hospital,
- Extension of electricity network
- Construction of Kanombe Airport
- Construction of Amahoro National Stadium

From 1980 to 1986, the country enjoyed economic growth due to a combination of positive external and internal factors. This included good climate high prices of coffee, tea and minerals, and a considerable flow of external capital into the country. However, from the end of 1986, the situation deteriorated and the economy of Rwanda gradually declined.

The causes of the economic crisis in Rwanda during this period included the following:

- The drastic fall of the world coffee and tin prices
- The over devaluation of the Rwandan franc
- The poor management of public funds
- The demographic explosion prevailing in Rwanda since 1940, hence the reduced yields from land.

To address this economic crisis, the government of Rwanda applied the Structural Adjustment Programme (SAP) dictated by the Bretton Woods institutions (International Monetary Fund (IMF) and World Bank) with a view to stabilizing the economy and benefiting from financial support of those institutions.

II. Socio-cultural evolution

In terms of socio-cultural development, the second Republic made the following achievements:

1. Health

Under health, the Second Republic, many attempts were made to expand the health sector. The dispensaries were transformed into health centres and more medical personnel were trained.

The government also put in place a policy that aimed at creating nutrition centres in order to educate parents on nutrition and hygiene.

Government improved hygiene conditions by putting emphasis on the most vulnerable groups such as women and children. In order to find a solution to hygiene related-problems, the government established nutritional centres at health centres.

Thus, it achieved curative care and preventive education, including vaccination, nutrition, maternal and child protection.

In 1979 the government established the Broad-Based Vaccination Programme (PEV/ BVP) whose objective was to reduce infant mortality through vaccination against certain targeted diseases which included tuberculosis, whooping cough, tetanus, polio, measles and diphtheria.

The office for National Population (ONAPO) to deal with Population growth was also created.

In 1987, the government established the *Programme National de Lutte contre le SIDA* (PNLS) or National Programme for the Fight against AIDS whose objective was to control, prevent, reduce and conduct research on AIDS. In the same year, the government launched the *Programme National de Lutte contre le Paludisme* (PNLP) or National Programme for Fight against Malaria. In 1989 the Programme for Acceleration of Primary Health Care (PASSP) was also put in place. This programme aimed at encouraging community participation in self-reliance and management of health services at their health centres.

2. Education

In this sector, many reforms were made at all levels of education in Rwanda. Among these was the construction of new primary and secondary schools. During the school year of 1978–1979, primary education was revised.

The primary cycle changed from 6 years to 8 years. Towards the end of 1980–1981, the primary school cycle changed from 6 years to 8 years. This reform established professional schools known under the name of Centre de l'Enseignement Rural et Artisanal Intégré (CERAI). These professional schools admitted students who had missed secondary school enrolment for 3 years. In such schools, students could learn professional skills such as woodwork, electricity, masonry and plumbing. Training in professional skills was introduced in Primary 7 and Primary 8, and Kinyarwanda became a language of instruction from P 1 up to P 8. So, in 1991, these reforms were revised, the primary education cycle was brought back to 6 years.

At the secondary education level, the Ordinary Level was reduced and specializations sections introduced in the second year of secondary education. But this reform failed due to lack of:

- Teaching materials
- Qualified teachers in the newly introduced subject's appropriate evaluation methods for the reform.

At university level, the *Institut Pédagogique National* (IPN) was fused with some departments of the National University of Rwanda. The new campus of Nyakinama was created in 1980–1981 as the result of this fusion.

Besides, the duration of studies in most faculties was reduced from five to 4 years.

4.2.3 Failures of the Second Republic

Increased dictatorship. With the aim of consolidating his regime, Juvenal Habyarimana took various measures. On 5th July 1975, Le Mouvement Révolutionnaire National pour le Développement, (MRND) became a "Party State" as was MDR-PARMEHUTU under the First Republic. Moreover, the central committee of MRND was the highest decision-making body in the Habyarimana regime.

The article 7 of the 24 December 1978 Constitution consecrates MRND as the sole political party and all Rwandans were automatically its members. Therefore, Juvénal Habyarimana, the President of MRND, was the sole candidate in the 1983 and 1988 presidential elections.

The Government made no significant efforts to solve the refugee problem. In June-July 1989, the central committee of MRND examined the problem of Rwandan refugees scattered around the world, especially in the neighbouring countries. The central committee resolved that refugees were not to return massively into the country. It strongly advocated that refugees should find a way of integrating themselves into their respective countries of asylum. The central committee of MRND declared openly that Rwanda was overpopulated and incapable of receiving and accommodating the refugees returning in the country.

Juvénal Habyarimana regime had zero tolerance to opposition. Opponents were subjected to political executions. Examples include Abbé Sylvio Sindambiwe (Former Director of Kinyamateka Newspaper) and Félicula Nyiramutarambirwa (Former member of the MRND Central Committee).

There was a deplorable exclusion, which was highly institutionalized right from 1981, in the name of "ethnic and regional balance/ the "Quota System". Applied in all sectors of national life, the "Quota System" had to allocate places in schools, the national army, administration and diplomatic services based on ethnic and regional belonging.

Application activity 4.2



1. Evaluate the impact of the "Iringaniza" (Quota System) on Rwandan social cohesion
2. Explain how the "AKazu" influence the governance of the Second Republic?
3. Compare the regime's "Peace and Unity" slogan with its actual treatment of Tutsi refugees.
4. Explain how the economic crisis of the late 1980s contributed to political instability.
5. Analyze the role of the MRND in the transition from a military coup to a civilian-appearing dictatorship.

4.3 Downfall of the Second Republic

Learning activity 4.3



1. In a 1980s speech, the President argued that because Rwanda was overpopulated, refugees living in Uganda, Tanzania, Burundi and anywhere in the world could not return home.

Evaluate the ethical and political implications of the "glass of water" metaphor. How did this stance challenge the concept of national sovereignty and citizenship?

2. A bright student in 1982 is denied entry to a national university despite having the highest marks in their district because their "ethnic quota" has already been filled.

Analyze how the Iringaniza policy undermined the regime's claim of "Peace and Unity." What long-term impact did this have on the country's intellectual capital?

3. Imagine you are a local official in 1978. Every person in your village must carry an MRND membership card and participate in mandatory political "animation" (songs and dances).

To what extent did the mandatory nature of the MRND contribute to the radicalization of the population in the early 1990s?

4. A historian argues: "The Second Republic was Rwanda's most successful era because it built the roads we still use today."

Is physical infrastructure a valid measurement for the "success" of a government if it is accompanied by systemic human rights abuses? Support your argument.

5. The Akazu and Governance Power in the 1980s shifted from the military as a whole to a small group of relatives of the First Lady, known as the Akazu.

Explain how the emergence of the Akazu led to the "regionalism" the Second Republic originally claimed it wanted to abolish.

1. Violation of Human Rights

During the two years that followed the coup, the former 'leaders' of the First Republic were assassinated or imprisoned. From 1974-1977, 58 people - individuals who were either closer to Grégoire Kayibanda and public figures of the First Republic were assassinated upon orders from Théoneste Lizinde, chief of security at the interior ministry. Whoever attempted to criticize the regime was intimidated or imprisoned. For instance, on September 18th, 1990 the trial of the priest André Sibomana, who was the director of the bi-monthly publication Kinyamateka, and three of his journalists opened in Kigali after the publication of articles denouncing corruption in the government.

Beside these cases, other examples of violation of human rights are the murder of the former chief editor of Kinyamateka newspaper, Father Sylvio Sindambiwe and Nyiramutarambirwa Felicula, a former member of parliament.

2. Economic crisis

By the end of the 1980s, the regime was becoming ineffective. The falling price of coffee caused a severe crisis in the country and fuelled discontent. From 1986, there was a fall in the prices of coffee and tin. Coffee represented 75 per cent of the national economy.

As the result of a drastic fall in international coffee prices, over evaluation of Rwandan currency, unfavourable climatic conditions and poor management of public affairs, and the demographic explosion prevailing in Rwanda since 1980, hence the reduced yields from land.

This crisis exposed the weakness of Juvénal Habyarimana's regime in terms of solving Rwandans' problems. Hence his unpopularity. In January 1988, one-sixth of the Rwandan population was affected by a famine that killed 250 people.

In 1989, coffee prices decreased by 50 per cent. There was an increase in credits from 189 million US dollars up to 941 million and reduction of foreign currency reserves from 144 million US dollars up to 30 million. The Rwandan Gross Domestic Product (GDP) of 330 US dollars fell to 200 US dollars in 1990. In 1989, the national social budget was reduced to 40 per cent.

In 1991, Rwanda signed an agreement with the World Bank to implement a Structural Adjustment Plan (SAP), which led to the devaluation of the Rwandan franc on two occasions: its value fell by 40 per cent in November 1990, then again by 15 per cent in June 1992. Though the SAP was only partially implemented, the main effect of the devaluation was inflation, which reached 19.2 per cent in 1991 and an increase in demand because of the RPF war.

3. "Ethnic" and regional balance or quota system

The discrimination, which was institutionalized by the Second Republic from 1981, was known as "ethnic and regional balance or quota system". The system saw Tutsi children excluded from secondary and tertiary education. This policy also tended to discriminate against the Hutu from all other parts of the country, especially the south. These areas were allocated fewer places in secondary schools and in university, in the national army, administration and diplomatic service based on "ethnic" and regional belonging. The best and numerous positions in all fields were reserved for the Hutu from the north.

This policy applied in all government institutions was a serious violation of, especially, the right to education. This culminated into the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi. The policy excluded bright and gifted children just because they were Tutsi.

4. Centralisation of power

Between 1985 and 1990, most of the leadership positions were reserved for Hutus. Elites held power from the north-west of the country, in contrast with the pro-southern orientation of the First Republic. One-third of the 85 most important governmental positions were given to persons born in the prefecture of Gisenyi. After ten years of economic growth, the economic crisis and regional favouritism destabilized the government.

Division among Rwandans from the north-west began in the 1980s. It started when two highly regarded senior military officers, Colonel Alexis Kanyarengwe and Major Théoneste Lizinde were accused of plotting a coup d'état. Lizinde was accused of killing some politicians who had served in the First Republic from the south. This misunderstanding divided the politicians and people from the north. As a result, political power was monopolized by a small part of the north-west from Bushiru in the ex-commune of Karago. Finally, power was concentrated in the hands of President Habyarimana, his immediate family, and his in-laws. This was termed *Akazu* meaning "from one single household".

5. Glorification of Habyarimana and dictatorship

As years went by, President Habyarimana started developing a personality cult. In addition to this personality cult, President Habyarimana set up a dictatorship. There was a single party, the Revolutionary National Democratic Movement (MRND), and power was concentrated in the hands of a small group of President Habyarimana's family.

6. Crashing of opposition

As shown above, being so intolerant to any opposition, the Habyarimana regime increased social discontent as Rwandans wanted to share the power and get rid of injustice. It is in this way he became so reluctant when he was requested to accept the multiparty system in 1991 at the end of "La Baule Summit" by his French Counterpart-Francois Mitterrand.

7. Refugee problems

The Government of second Republic made no significant effort to solve the Refugees problems. In June–July 1986, the Central Committee of MRND, the highest decision-making body in the Habyarimana regime, examined the problem of Rwandan refugees scattered around the world, especially in the neighbouring countries.

As a solution, the Central Committee resolved that the refugees were not to return into the country. The Central Committee strongly advocated that refugees should find a way of integrating into their countries of asylum. According to the Central Committee, Rwanda was overpopulated and incapable of receiving and accommodating her own people back. Only those who had the capacity to cater for themselves, it was decided, should apply individually for consideration to return to Rwanda.

In February 1989, President Habyarimana established a special commission for refugees' problems and met Uganda government officials.

This position of President Habyarimana and his government prompted the refugees to call for an international conference in Washington in August 1988 in which they rejected this position and reaffirmed their inalienable right to return to their homeland as they were being rejected by the hosting countries.

Application activity 4.3



1. Explain how the lack of political freedom contributed to the collapse of the Second Republic of Rwanda.
2. In what ways did economic problems weaken the Second Republic and lead to its downfall?
3. Explain how ethnic divisions and discrimination played a role in the fall of the Second Republic
4. Why did the 1990–1994 war significantly contribute to the downfall of the Second Republic?

4.4 Causes of Liberation war

Learning activity 4.4



1. Explain why many Rwandans were living in neighbouring countries before 1990?
2. What reasons mentioned in the scenario might have contributed to the outbreak of the 1990 Liberation War?
3. How did the refusal to let refugees return inspire them to fight for their rights?

Because of the policy of denying Banyarwanda in Diaspora their rights to return home, a civil war broke out in 1990 between the Rwandese Patriotic Army (RPA) and the Forces d'Armée Rwandaise (FAR). This was caused by long-term causes and immediate causes.

- **The long exile**

The first group of refugees were registered in 1959 after the unrest marked by violence and massacres against the UNAR members, mainly Tutsi, committed by PARMEHUTU with assistance from Belgian administration. The resistance, which was organized by *Inyenzi* to return home, was in vain and the refugees were desperate to recover their dignity as Rwandans. The poor conditions of living such as lack of employment and good education in host countries, made them think of a strategy to return home. Groups started to form around the themes of return and self-help.

Among the institutions set up to address the challenges of education were the Rwandese Refugees Welfare Foundation (RRWF) in Uganda and College Saint Albert in Kivu and Bujumbura (initiative of refugees themselves). Later these institutions provided a large number of leaders to political movements like the Rwandese Alliance

of National Unity (RANU), which was started in Nairobi in June 1979, and RPF-Inkotanyi in 1987.

RANU had many objectives. It aimed at fighting against ethnic divisions and the ideology of divisionism by the Kigali regime. It also sought to fight against grabbing Rwanda's riches by a small group of people. The other objective was to sensitise Rwandans about their rights. RANU wanted to find an appropriate solution to the refugee problem and to fight the fascist and dictatorial regime of Kigali. The strategy consisted of uniting all Rwandan intellectuals inside the country and in the diaspora in order to restore national unity.

- **Intimidation and killing of opposition politicians**

The regime of Juvénal Habyarimana did not tolerate any opposition. Any person who tried to oppose him suffered long prison terms. Political assassinations were frequent as well. For instance, the murder of the former Chief Editor of Kinyamateka newspaper, Father Sylvio Sindambiwe and Nyiramutarambirwa Felicula, a member of Parliament.

- **Increasing dictatorship in Rwanda**

During the Second Republic, only one political Party, MRND, was allowed as it was stipulated by the 1978 Constitution. All the powers were concentrated in the hands of a small group, members of the President's family and his in-laws, which was called *Akazu*. No single decision could be made without prior approval and blessing of the President and his political party MRND.

- **Participation of Rwandans in other movements of National Liberation**

Many Rwandan refugees had lost hope. They were reluctant to join any political organisation due to past failures of the earlier attempts to regain their home country, spearheaded by *Inyenzi*.

By 1979, some Rwandans, like Fred Gisa Rwigema, had participated in African struggles, especially in Mozambique. In 1982, when the Government of Uganda under President Milton Obote expelled more than 60,000 Rwandans, the Government of Rwanda refused to recognise them as Rwandans.

- **The Military option**

The military option was dictated by the denial of fundamental rights and democracy by the Habyarimana regime, which was denounced by the population. Students abroad were also organising themselves to challenge the Habyarimana regime. Those on scholarships in Europe and Canada, formed organisations such as Association Générale des Etudiants Rwandais (AGER) and Association des Etudiants Rwandais au Burundi (AERB). The refugees resented their continued exile and the indifference of the Rwanda Government towards their plight. All this made the military option inevitable for the Rwanda Patriotic Front (RPF).

On September 30th, 1990, the Rwanda Patriotic Front (RPF) with its military wing, Rwanda Patriotic Army (RPA), took a decision to attack Rwanda and assembled them near Kagitumba. On October 1st, 1990, the first attack was launched.

The reasons for the war, as summarised in the RPF programme, were: to restore national unity among Rwandans, establish true democracy eradicate racism against the Tutsi and sectarianism of the Kigali regime, poor management of State affairs, and

to find a lasting solution to the question of refugees to which the Rwandan government had turned a deaf ear among others.

Application activity 4.4



By 1990, Rwanda was experiencing deep political and social tensions rooted in its history since 1959. Thousands of Rwandans, especially Tutsi, had lived in exile in neighbouring countries such as Uganda and were denied the right to return home despite repeated appeals. Internally, the government of Juvénal Habyarimana maintained a one party system under the MRND, limiting political participation and excluding opposition voices. At the same time, economic difficulties and social inequalities increased dissatisfaction among the population. As peaceful efforts to resolve these issues failed, Rwandan refugees organised themselves under the Rwandan Patriotic Front to demand their rights, including return, equality, and political inclusion. In October 1990, the RPF launched an armed struggle, marking the beginning of the liberation war. As a young Rwandan growing up today, do you think the 1990 Liberation War in Rwanda was necessary? Justify your answer.

4.5 The course of the War of Liberation

Learning activity 4.5



1. Outline the main stages in the course of the 1990 Liberation War in Rwanda.
2. Identify the major consequences of the war on the political and social structure of the country.
3. "Reconciliation is more important than victory after conflict." Discuss this statement in relation to post-war Rwanda.
4. Assess the importance of unity and good governance in preventing future conflicts.



Figure 4.6. Photo Major General Fred Gisa Rwigema, Commander in Chief of RPA.

(Source: https://muhabura.rw/IMG/jpg/1422767217_rwigeman-2.jpg)

The following were the major steps of the Liberation War:

- On October 1st, 1990, the Rwanda Patriotic Front (RPF) and its armed wing (RPA) declared the war of liberation that lasted almost four years. The first attack was in Umutara, but was not successful because of the death of Major General Fred Gisa Rwigema. The RPA was pushed from Umutara after which they changed tactics by launching a guerrilla warfare in the Northern region.
- On January 23rd, 1991, they captured Ruhengeri town and liberated the political prisoners who had been jailed in Ruhengeri prison.
- On March 29th, 1991, the first negotiations between the RPF and the government of Rwanda started at N'sélé in Zaire. Other meetings, had been held in Arusha G'badolité, and Mwanza.
- Regarding the internal political evolution, a coalition was formed on March 14th, 1992 by the main opposition political Parties. It was called *Forces Démocratiques pour le Changement* (Democratic Forces for Change). Its aim was to negotiate peace with RPF.
- On July 12th, 1992, a ceasefire was negotiated and signed in the Arusha Peace Agreement between the RPF and the Habyarimana Government. An Organisation of African Unity force known as '*Groupe d'Observateurs Militaires Neutres*' (GOMN) was to observe the ceasefire.
- On February 8th, 1993, in response to massacres, the RPF launched an offensive that resulted in the capture of a large part of the country, especially in the Northern region. The RPF were approaching the gates of Kigali. However, due to international pressure to resume negotiations, the RPF returned to its former positions around Kinyinya. On the side of Government, troops had to remain in the new positions. The area between the two armies was declared a demilitarised zone.
- On August 4th, 1993, the Arusha Agreement was signed. It was a political compromise for power sharing between the Government, Internal opposition and the RPF, but the 'Broad-based Transitional Government' failed to take off because Habyarimana refused to swear in the new Government and Parliament of which RPF was to be part.
- In December 1993, a United Nations Intervention Force arrived. It was a United Nations Peacekeeping Force known as United Nations Mission for Rwanda (UNAMIR). Its mission was to supervise the implementation of the Arusha agreement of August 4th, 1993.
- On December 28th, 1993, 600 soldiers of the Third battalion of the RPF arrived at the *Conseil National de Développement* (CND) to ensure the security of the RPF future Ministers and Members of Parliament in the new broad-based transition Government.
- On January 5th, 1994, President Habyarimana was sworn in as President in accordance with the Arusha Agreement but blocked the swearing in of other members of the Broad-based Transition Government.
- From April 7th 1994, the country was ignited in several weeks of intense and systematic genocidal massacres, in which over one million Tutsi perished. It was the Rwanda Patriotic Front that stopped genocide.
- On July 19th, 1994 the Government of National Unity was formed.

Application activity 4.5



1. If the RPA had continued using conventional warfare after the death of Fred Gisa Rwigema in October 1990 instead of switching to guerrilla tactics in the Virunga Mountains, analyze how might the timeline and outcome of the liberation struggle have changed.
2. To what extent was the signing of the Arusha Accords (1992–1993) a sign of RPF strength rather than a sign of military exhaustion? Discuss whether a purely military victory without these negotiations would have made post-war national unity harder to achieve.
3. During the final phase of the war (April–July 1994), the RPA had to fight a war to win the country while simultaneously stopping a genocide against the Tutsi. How did this 'double mission' complicate their military strategy compared to other liberation wars you have studied

4.6 The effects of the Liberation War

Learning activity 4.6



1. Imagine it is September 1994, the first day of school after the war and genocide against the Tutsi. You walk into your classroom and notice that half of the desks are empty. Some students have fled the country, many have been killed in the Genocide against the Tutsi, and there are new students who have just arrived from decades of exile in Uganda, Burundi, or Tanzania who do not speak the same language as you." If you were the teacher of this class, what is the very first thing you would do to build a sense of 'oneness' (Unity) among these students?
2. As the new Broad-Based Government of National Unity takes office in July 1994, they discover that the departing genocidal regime looted the National Bank, leaving the country with zero dollars. Simultaneously, the tea and coffee plantations (the country's main income) are overgrown or destroyed, and the workers are either displaced or dead." In a country with no money and no functioning industries, explain how new government of unity overcame the consequences of genocide with this limited resource.
3. Major bridges or telecommunication towers were blown up during the fighting. If a bridge connected two major trading towns, the lack of infrastructure prevented food from reaching a hungry population. By your analysis, to what extent is the physical destruction of infrastructure (roads, bridges, buildings) a bigger obstacle to 'Liberation' than the political collapse of the old government?

RPF-Inkotanyi and its armed wing the Rwandese Patriotic Army (RPA) launched the Liberation War on the 1st October 1990. It ended on July 4th, 1994 with the fall of Kigali and Butare. It had the following effects:

- **Death of Major General Fred Rwigema**

The first effect was the death of Major General Fred Gisa Rwigema the Chairman of RPF and the supreme commander of RPA. This death was a great loss for RPF.

- **Death of other Rwandans**

Many soldiers were killed on both sides and others were wounded. There was also the massacre of Abagogwe from 1991 to 1993 by Habyarimana regime in retaliation for RPA attack. Similar killings were carried out in Kibirira, Bugesera, Kibuye, Murambi and in Umutara.

- **Displacement, loss of property and psychological effects**

There was displacement of people from their properties, trauma, and destruction of properties.

- **Reaction of Rwandans**

For those in exile, they felt time had come to return home and massively joined the RPF and the struggle as the war progressed. Mobilisation to support the war effort was deepened in the region, and recruitment into the RPF was intensified. A lot of money, medicine, food, and clothes were mobilised in support of the war.

Inside Rwanda, people reacted differently. Some people, mainly sympathisers of the RPF who had been treated as second-class citizens, felt that the time had come for their liberation and therefore joined the struggle from neighbouring countries. Others, however, were worried about the reaction of the Habyarimana regime.

- **Call by the Government of Rwanda for support**

Its allies supported the Government of Rwanda. Habyarimana argued that he had been invaded by neighbouring Anglophone Uganda and mobilised his closest allies to assist him militarily and diplomatically. Consequently, France, Belgium and the then Zaire (now DRC) under Mobutu Sese Seko sent troops.

- **Increasing of pressure for democratisation**

While the Habyarimana regime was facing the armed struggle with RPF-Inkotanyi on the local fronts, on the international level, Habyarimana was facing pressure to democratise Rwanda (**La Baule summit**). The regime also faced internal opposition. In June 1991, Habyarimana was forced to accept the multiparty system by signing a new Constitution.

- **Chronology of Rwanda's democratisation process**

- a) In June 1990, at the La Baule Summit in France President François Mitterrand announced that French aid would depend on democratization.
- b) On July 5, 1990, at the MRND Congress, President Habyarimana declared that the country was adopting the multiparty system.
- c) September 1st, 1990, there was a declaration by thirty-three intellectuals claiming the establishment of multipartism in Rwanda.
- d) On September 21, 1990, President Habyarimana established a commission with the task of studying how multipartism could be established in Rwanda.

This commission ended its work and submitted its report in January 1991. Meanwhile, on November 11, 1990, President Habyarimana allowed multipartism and declared the amendment of the Rwandan constitution. In June 1991, the *Conseil National de Développement* (CND) approved the new Constitution. The new Constitution banned political Parties based on ethnicity or regional affiliation, the position of Prime minister, and limited the executive, judicial and legislative branches of Government.

e) Beginning July 1991, new political Parties were legally registered. These included:

- Parti Socialiste Démocratique (PSD),
- Parti Libéral (PL),
- Mouvement Démocratique Républicain (MDR),
- Parti Socialiste Rwandais (PSR),
- Union Démocratique du Peuple Rwandais (UDPR),
- Parti Ecologiste (PECO), and Parti pour la Démocratie Islamique (PDI).

- **The signing of Arusha Peace Agreement**

The Liberation War led to the signing of Arusha Peace Agreement on August 4th, 1993 whose purpose was to obtain a lasting peace. Both parties, the RPF-Inkotanyi and the Rwanda Government agreed to share power. However, the Hutu extremists, who felt left out of the process and threatened by the results, were not satisfied and started to organise a genocide against the Tutsi and killing of moderate Hutu.

- **Decline of the economy**

Because of the war and the pressure on the Habyarimana regime, Rwanda's economy collapsed. Coffee, which was the main source of foreign currency, was not produced. Thus, the country witnessed a hard economic situation. Besides, foreign aid stopped and the Rwandan franc lost its value. The main sectors of the economic collapsed. People became poor and discontented.

Because of the war, the Northern corridor was closed and this led to the stoppage of commercial exchange with Uganda. Moreover, the war increased the military expenditure of the government and this made the country more and more impoverished.

- **Displacement of many people**

More than one million Rwandans were displaced inside the country. These were in great need of shelter, food and other basic needs.

Among the positive effects of the Liberation War, the following deserve to be mentioned:

- There is promotion of National unity. Thanks to the Liberation War, many achievements were made in the national unity, justice, peace and security, and ending of segregation.
- Corruption, favoritism, embezzlement are being fought.
- All reasons for fleeing the country were eliminated and the refugees are encouraged to return home.
- The war helped to establish a true democracy. The people of Rwanda have the right to choose their leaders at all levels.

- The war contributed to the improvement of the image of the country. Rwandans are well known all over the world as a good example of reconciliation, people living together on the same land, victims and criminals, after the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi.
- The country promoted international relations based on mutual respect, cooperation and mutual economic exchange. This helped the country to reduce economic and political dependence on foreign countries.

Application activity 4.6



1. Describe the people's reactions toward the 1990-1994 the Liberation War
2. Describe the life of a refugee and try to find out his feelings
3. Show how the First and Second Republic imposed difficult conditions for individual repatriation of the Rwandan refugees.
4. To what extent did the "ethnic" and regional divisions contribute to the outbreak of the Liberation War?

4.7 The challenges of the Government of Rwanda after the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi

Learning activity 4.7



In a quiet town hall in Kigali, the new leader, RWABIKABU, addressed the survivors of the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi. "Imagine Rwanda today our homes destroyed, families lost, and fear all around. But what kind of Rwanda do we want to build from these ashes?" he asked. "How can we revive hope, rebuild our economy, restore unity, and strengthen resilience?" He encouraged the people to speak, share ideas, and help children return to school, restart farming, and support each other. The community began to discuss ways to rebuild markets, schools, and trust among neighbors. Slowly, hope and determination grew as people realized that the nation's future depended on their collective effort. Even in the darkest times, they imagined a brighter Rwanda together.

Questions

1. What steps would you take to revive hope among Rwandans after the genocide?
2. How can the economy be rebuilt in a community where most people are displaced or traumatized?
3. What strategies could restore unity and trust among neighbors who were once divided?
4. How can resilience be strengthened in a population that has experienced extreme loss and fear?

- **Humanitarian crisis:** Immediately following the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi, Rwanda faced a catastrophic humanitarian crisis. Over **one million people (Tutsi)** had been killed, leaving millions of survivors traumatized and displaced. Many survivors were living in **refugee camps**, forests, and other unsafe areas. Families were torn apart, with children orphaned and many people separated from their relatives. Food, clean water, and basic medical care were extremely scarce, resulting in widespread **malnutrition, disease outbreaks**, and high mortality rates. Hospitals were overwhelmed, as many medical staff had either been killed or had fled the country. The social and psychological toll on survivors was immense, with deep **emotional and mental trauma** affecting both children and adults.
- **Displacement and Refugees:** The genocide forced millions of Rwandans to flee their homes. Many killers from the ancient Regime feared to be brought to justice due to what they have committed, while Tutsi survivors were searching for safety and lost relatives. Refugees crossed into neighboring countries such as Zaire (now the Democratic Republic of Congo), Tanzania, Burundi, and Uganda, creating enormous refugee camps. These camps were often poorly managed, lacked security, and became a source of further humanitarian concern. The displacement disrupted agriculture, trade, and social cohesion, leaving much of the country in economic paralysis.
- **Social and Psychological challenges:** The genocide left deep **psychological scars** on the population. Survivors were not only grieving the loss of loved ones but also coping with the trauma of extreme violence, sexual assault, and betrayal by neighbors or even family members. Communities faced a breakdown in trust, as neighbors who once lived peacefully together had participated in atrocities. The fear and suspicion among people made social reconciliation difficult. **Psychosocial support programs** were urgently needed, but the country lacked sufficient trained counselors and social workers. The mental health crisis affected daily life, education, and community rebuilding.
- **Governance Challenges:** After stopping the genocide against Tutsi, the **RPF-led government** took control of the country. Restoring law and order was one of the government's main priorities. Courts were overwhelmed with genocide-related cases, and there was an urgent need to rebuild governance institutions from scratch. Ensuring security while promoting justice and reconciliation became a delicate balancing act.
- **Health and Sanitation challenge:** The genocide left Rwanda with a **serious health crisis**. Water and sanitation systems were destroyed, leading to outbreaks of cholera, dysentery, and other diseases. Health facilities were few and ill equipped to handle the sheer number of injured and sick. Malnutrition was rampant among children and the elderly. Humanitarian aid from the **United Nations, international NGOs, and other countries** became vital for providing emergency food, medicine, and basic healthcare services. Vaccination campaigns and emergency medical interventions were launched, but the scale of the problem was overwhelming.
- **Suspicion and mistrust challenge:** Since Rwanda's social cohesion had fractured due to the divisive politics that preceded the Genocide, suspicion and mistrust characterized the population. The new government inherited a deeply carried

nation where trust within and between communities had been replaced by fear and betrayal. This posed a serious challenge to the functioning of institutions because not all stakeholders shared the RPF's vision. In spite of all this, the RPF believed that Rwanda was not dead but that it could be reborn and re-built. To achieve that goal, the RPF advocated strongly for unity and reconciliation despite the enormous challenges.

- **Security problems:** Although the RPF had captured power and a transitional government had been put in place, the security situation was still fluid, with former government forces and *Interahamwe* militia still carrying out Genocide against Tutsi in various part of the country. A French buffer area in western Rwanda, known as the *Turquoise Zone*, had become a safe haven for genocidal forces. In addition, infiltrators from refugee camps across the border continued to cross and destabilize the country. The ex-FAR and *interahamwe* were allowed to retain their weapons and to mix with the civilian refugees. Other sympathizers of the former regime, notably the DRC (then Zaire) under President Mobutu Sese Seko, continued to provide support. All these proved to be security challenges for a country that had been hit by one of the worst human tragedies of the 20th century. The Broad-based Transitional Government under RPF leadership had to devise means to address insecurity in the whole country and regain a semblance of normalcy so that Rwandans could begin the task of rebuilding the nation.
- **Resettlement of refugees and Genocide survivors:** The RPF strived to restore Rwanda as a country for all Rwandans and provided a homeland to which millions of Rwandan refugees could return. Tens of thousands of internally displaced people, especially genocide survivors whose homes had been destroyed, were resettled and provided with basic housing facilities. The Transitional Government brought about three million refugees who had been held hostage by fleeing genocidal forces in the DRC and some in Tanzania back home. This humanitarian exercise was largely successful despite the failure of the international community to address their plight in refugee camps. About two million older refugees (from 1959 and subsequent years) were also resettled peacefully across the country.
- **Economic challenges.** The Rwandan economy and political situation before 1994 were marked by economic stagnation and high levels of poverty, mainly attributed to lack of vision, poor economic planning, mismanagement, embezzlement and corruption by the leadership of the time. They emphasised state control of the economy by a clique who benefited from the existing system. As a result, post-Genocide Rwanda faced economic challenges including an unstable macroeconomic environment. For example, in 1994 the economy shrank by 50 per cent and inflation rose to 64 per cent. Between 1985 and 1994, the GDP growth rate was a mere 2.2 per cent against a population growth rate of 3.2 per cent, meaning there was an annual decline of -1 per cent of per capita GDP. This was mainly because the economy was characterized by low productivity in all sectors, but most especially in agriculture, a sector on which more than 90 per cent of the population depended for their livelihood.

Without a visionary leadership to avert the situation, this resulted in a very weak export base coupled with a narrow revenue collection base. This implied that there was lack of internally generated resources to fund social services like

education and health. In addition, there was low private investment and as such, the country lacked a serious and vibrant private sector to drive economic growth. In the public sector too, there was an unskilled labor force. For example, in 1994, at least 79 per cent of civil servants in the country did not have qualifications higher than secondary school. To make matters worse, skilled professionals had been particularly targeted in the Genocide. In brief, the Government of National Unity inherited an economy destroyed by Genocide and over three decades mismanagement.

- **Health challenge:** In the health sector, the picture was equally bleak. This sector had always been weak in Rwanda. Health workers in this sector were few and poorly trained. This was a result of chronically poor human resource development strategies that characterized colonial and post-colonial Rwanda. This situation was exacerbated by the Genocide in which a large number of health workers had participated and consequently fled the country or were killed. The few that had returned from exile settled in Kigali, which had some infrastructures and was also safer to live in.

To mitigate the health crisis, a number of NGOs and the army came in and tried to make a difference, but the task was overwhelming since the number of the injured and the sick was very high. Statistics indicate that immunization coverage for children had dropped to 27 per cent because of war and mismanagement. Malnutrition levels were also very high. Child as well as maternal mortality rates were equally high due to poor health service delivery. The prevalence of water-borne diseases and other conditions related to poor sanitation was among the highest in Africa at that time. Equally worrying was the high infection rate of transmittable diseases, especially HIV and AIDS, which had been made worse during the Genocide where rape was used as a weapon of war. The situation was worsened by a very high fertility rate, coupled with ignorance. Malaria was hyperactive endemic in some parts of the country, especially in the east and southern provinces.

- **Educational challenge:** During the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi, most education infrastructure was destroyed and the human capital decimated. Besides, the poor and discriminatory education policies, coupled with an education system that did not respond to the socio-economic needs of the country, served to perpetuate massive ignorance. Even the few that went to school could not translate their knowledge into productive activities to improve the standard of living. In the eastern part of the country, schools were not only few, but in some areas, they did not exist at all. During the first and second Republics, higher education was not only quantitatively low but also a privilege of the few favored ones. Not even the quota system worked. For instance, between 1963 and 1994, only about 2000 Rwandans had completed university education.
- **Justice.** The Transitional government inherited a broken justice sector. More than 140, 000 Genocide suspects had been arrested, yet there was insufficient prison infrastructure to host them. Their upkeep became a huge challenge in terms of feeding, and provision of medical and other services. To make matters worse, there was an inadequate number of trained lawyers to handle the large number of perpetrators of Genocide and this was also true for other crimes that were being committed in the country.

The laws were also outdated, obscure and inadequate. The justice sector also witnessed unskilled personnel. For example, according to records of the Supreme Court, out of 702 judges in 2003, only 74 possessed a bachelor's degree in law. Nonetheless, justice had to be delivered. And despite the meagre resources that were available, the government had to introduce the needed reforms and new judicial institutions to deal with all these judicial problems.

Application activity 4.7



1. Why is it important for every citizen, not just leaders, to participate in rebuilding the nation?
2. Explain major events that characterized the Rwandan community after the stopping of the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi.
3. Why was forgiveness more important just after the 1994 Genocide perpetrated against the Tutsi in Rwanda.
4. Using relevant examples from post-genocide Rwanda:
 - a) Examine the relationship between two interconnected challenges (e.g., security and resettlement, justice and reconciliation), explaining how they influenced each other
 - b) Assess the potential short-term and long-term consequences if these challenges remained unresolved.
 - c) Identify and explain one significant post-genocide challenge and its broader implications for society.

4.8 The achievements of the Government of Rwanda after 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi

Learning activity 4.8



After the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi, Rwanda faced severe challenges including destroyed infrastructure and broken social cohesion. The government introduced measures to restore unity and rebuild the nation. Community-based justice systems like *Gacaca* Courts helped promote reconciliation and accountability. Development strategies such as Vision 2020 aimed at economic recovery and long-term growth. Efforts were also made to restore security and rebuild state institutions. Refugees were repatriated to support national stability. These combined measures contributed to the country's reconstruction and progress.

Questions

1. Explain the role of *Gacaca* Courts in solving post-genocide challenges.
2. Analyze how development programs like Vision 2020 contributed to national reconstruction.
3. To what extent did the government effectively in promoting unity and stability in Rwanda take the measures? Justify your answer with relevant arguments.

After the genocide against Tutsi, new policies were introduced in order to deal with its consequences and the problems caused by this genocide. These policies were implemented in different periods depending on the priority.

1. Emergency Period (1994–1999)

This period was characterized by extreme distress and national devastation. Rwanda had been reduced to ruins, with mass graves scattered across the country, reflecting the magnitude of the tragedy. It was a time when every citizen was called upon to contribute to the reconstruction of all sectors of national life that had been destroyed by the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi.

From a political perspective, the government faced the urgent task of rebuilding state institutions, guided by the principles of good governance and the restoration of the judicial system. Economically, there was a critical need to rehabilitate essential infrastructure, including water supply systems, electricity, road networks, financial institutions, schools, and hospitals. Virtually all sectors required reconstruction, alongside the resettlement of refugees.

On the socio-cultural level, it became imperative to sensitize the population in response to the profound consequences of the genocide. This involved organizing conferences and community meetings focused on unity, reconciliation, human rights, and good governance, with the aim of restoring social cohesion and national identity.

2. Period of durable Development Programmes (After 1999)

During this period, the government of unity tried to:

- **Safeguard National Security**

In the aftermath of the genocide, Rwanda's security situation remained highly unstable due to unresolved tensions and the lingering effects of conflict. A large portion of the population had been displaced, creating a fragile and volatile environment.

To address this, the government developed military strategies aimed at dismantling armed groups and neutralizing ex-combatants who continued to threaten civilian lives. Insecurity along the western border, largely driven by incursions from Ex-FAR and Interahamwe militias, required decisive intervention. The Government of National Unity (GNU) responded by facilitating the repatriation of refugees from the Democratic Republic of Congo and launching military operations to weaken these destabilizing forces.

- **Promote civic engagement**

Civic engagement is the active participation of citizens in the life of their community and nation to improve public life, influence decisions, and contribute to social and political development.

To achieve this initiative, the Government of Rwanda has established various civic education programs, including *Ingando* (solidarity camps), which later evolved into *Itorero ry'Igihugu*, and the recognition of outstanding achievers.

- **Ingando (solidarity camps)**

Ingando, or solidarity camps, were established as platforms for civic education, bringing together diverse groups such as students, farmers, and civil servants. These programs facilitated discussions on Rwanda's history, citizenship, governance, human rights, and socio-economic development.

Ingando played a vital role in promoting democratic values and patriotism. In November 2007, this initiative was institutionalized under the National Itorero Commission. Currently *Itorero* is a department of Ministry of National Unity & Civic Engagement (MINUBUMWE) with the aim of reinforcing and coordinating spaces for civic education and engagement, promotes Rwandan cultural values through education and recognition of heroic behaviour among citizens, monitors and reinforces unity, historical memory and civic education in the Rwandan community abroad through different sensitization programs.

- The recognition of outstanding achievers

In 1995, the Government of National Unity set up a committee that was given three responsibilities: to establish the mechanism of selecting National Heroes, determine the day of annual celebration of National Heroes, to draft the Law relating with national heroes.

This committee had identified National Heroes in 2001. These National Heroes are in three categories: ***Imanzi, Imena, Ingenzi***; and designated the 1st February each year to be a National Heroes' Day on which the country celebrates the outstanding deeds done by National Heroes.

Later, the Chancellery for Heroes, National Orders and Decorations of Honour was mandated by the 2003 National Constitution as revised in 2015 in its article of 139. It was established by the Law No 13 bis/2009 of 16/06/2009 that determines its responsibilities, structure and functioning as it was revised up to date. Apart from establishing the institution in charge of awarding outstanding achievers, the Government of Rwanda has institutionalized different form and categories of National Orders and decorations of Honour that shall be awarded to Rwandans and foreigners who distinguished themselves with outstanding and exemplary actions.

A National Order is symbol awarded by National authorities to a person for having performed outstanding acts for the public interest. The following are approved national orders:

a. National Liberation Medal: Uruti

Uruti is awarded to Rwandans and foreigners who contributed in Liberation Struggle of 1990-1994.

b. Campaign against Genocide Medal: Umurinzi

Umurinzi is awarded to Rwandan and foreigners who participated in fighting and stopping the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi.

c. National Order of Honour: *Agaciro*

Agaciro is awarded to a Rwandan or foreign head of State or head of Government, or a head of an international organisation or a high-ranking official who has made an especially meritorious contribution to the political, economic, social or cultural advancements in Rwanda or Africa in general or other significant public or private endeavours.

d. National Order of Friendship: *Igihango*

The National Order of Friendship: *Igihango* is awarded to an individual or a group of individuals who has acted in an exemplary manner in the promotion of friendship and cooperation between Rwanda and other countries and has

positively promoted Rwanda or Africa at the international scene.

e. National Order of Performance: *Indashyikirwa*

The National Order of Performance: *Indashyikirwa* is awarded to an individual or a group of individuals who has accomplished remarkable and exemplary acts and innovations in the development of the country.

f. National Order of Culture: *Indangamirwa*

The National Order of Culture *Indangamirwa* is awarded to an individual or a group of individuals, who has accomplished remarkable and exemplary acts, in the promotion of the Rwandan culture.

g. National Order of Bravery: *Indengabaganizi*

The National Order *Indengabaganizi* is awarded to an individual or a group of individuals who, in an exemplary way, have demonstrated outstanding supreme act of self-sacrifice to save the life of one or many people.

National Orders

National Liberation Medal: UMURINZI	Campaign against Genocide Medal: URUTI	National Order of Bravery: INDENGABAGANIZI
National Order of Honor: AGACIRO	National Order of Friendship: IGIHANGO	

	
National order of performance: INDASHYIKIRWA	National Order of Culture: INDANGAMIRWA

Figure 4.7. National Orders

h. Establish the Rule of Law

The establishment of the rule of law was fundamental to rebuilding the nation. A just state ensures that no individual is above the law and that all citizens' rights and freedoms are respected.

Justice, legitimacy, and accountability-implemented through effective institutions-formed the foundation of governance. A strong legal framework not only promotes national unity but also guarantees the protection of fundamental rights, serving as a key indicator of democratic development.

i. Promote democratisation

Democracy in Rwanda has been defined as governance by the people, for the people, and through the people. Sovereignty resides with citizens, who exercise their power through free, transparent, and fair elections.

Since 2000, Rwanda has conducted regular elections at various levels. The Constitution clearly outlines the structure, functions, and limitations of political institutions, while promoting a multiparty system and safeguarding human rights. It explicitly rejects all forms of discrimination, identity-based ideologies, and unconstitutional changes of government.

The 2003 Constitution, revised in 2015, promotes power-sharing and consensus-based governance. Rwanda's Parliament consists of two chambers-the Chamber of Deputies and the Senate-that operate independently but complement each other. The Executive is accountable to Parliament, while the Judiciary remains independent, ensuring checks and balances within the state.

j. Establish core Institutions

To strengthen good governance, the government established key institutions aimed at promoting transparency, accountability, and the fight against corruption. These include the Office of the Ombudsman, the Office of the Auditor General for State Finances, the Rwanda Public Procurement Authority, the Rwanda Revenue Authority, and the Rwanda Governance Board.

These institutions are mandated to combat corruption, injustice, and abuse

of power, ensuring that both public and private sectors adhere to principles of accountability. Rwanda has also ratified major international conventions, including the United Nations Convention against Corruption (UNCAC), reinforcing its commitment to good governance.

k. Promote Imihigo program (Performance Contracts)

Introduced in 2006, Imihigo is a performance-based system rooted in traditional Rwandan culture, where leaders set measurable targets to be achieved within a specified timeframe.

This initiative has significantly improved accountability and accelerated development at local levels, leading to advancements in infrastructure such as schools, health centres, and markets.

l. Promote economic growth and development

The government inherited an economy that had been severely weakened by the genocide. Efforts were made to restore economic stability through structural reforms, including the privatization of state-owned enterprises beginning in 1996.

Strategic development frameworks such as Vision 2020, the Poverty Reduction Strategy Programme (PRSP), and the Economic Development and Poverty Reduction Strategy (EDPRS) were introduced to guide long-term economic growth. These initiatives aimed to diversify the economy and align national development with global goals.

m. Promote and improve education

Prior to 1994, Rwanda's education system had been significantly neglected. Post-genocide reforms focused on expanding access and improving quality. The number of higher education institutions increased, and student enrolment grew substantially.

Primary and secondary education were strengthened through initiatives such as Nine-Year and Twelve-Year Basic Education. Infrastructure development, teacher training, and community involvement in school construction were prioritized.

Institutions such as the Rwanda Education Board (REB) were established to coordinate and improve education services, while technical and vocational training centres were introduced to develop a skilled workforce.

n. Emphasise on environmental protection

Rwanda implemented progressive environmental policies, including the 2006 ban on non-biodegradable plastic bags, to address environmental degradation.

The Rwanda Environment Management Authority (REMA) was established to oversee environmental policies such as reforestation, terracing, and sustainable land use. These efforts have contributed to Rwanda being recognized as one of the cleanest and greenest countries in Africa.

o. Develop urban and rural settlement

The government recognized housing as a fundamental human right and established the Rwanda Housing Authority in 2010 to coordinate urban planning and development.

The *Imidugudu* programme was introduced to organize rural settlements and provide adequate housing, particularly for returning refugees. This initiative also promoted efficient land use and agricultural productivity, contributing to overall national development.

3. Outcomes of these Policies

a. Creation of the Government of National Unity

Referring to the Arusha Peace Agreement, on 18.7.1994, The Government of National Unity was put in place and Mr. Faustin Twagiramungu who was the Prime Minister represented the government programme.

The programme focused on the following points:

- Restoration of peace and security;
- Organization of central and local administration, i.e. préfectures, communes, sectors and cells;
- Restoration and consolidation of national unity;
- Settlement of refugees and returning their property;
- Improvement of living conditions of the people and solving the social
- Problems that resulted from war and Genocide;
- Revival of the country's economy;
- Consolidation of democracy.

In these new transitionnel institutions of July 1994, only Rwanda Patriotic Front (RPF), Mouvement Démocratique Républicain (MDR), Parti Social Démocratique (PSD), Parti Liberal (PL), Parti Démocratique Chrétien (PDC), Parti Social Rwandais (PSR), Union Démocratique Politique Rwanda (UDPR) and Parti Démocratique Islamique (PDI) were officially recognised. MRND was excluded as it has planned and executed genocide against Tutsi. Later, MDR was excluded from accepted political parties because of its divisive ideology. A parliamentary report pointed out that some people wanted to use it for their political agenda.

b. Safeguarding national security

As explained, after the Genocide against the Tutsi, the security in Rwanda was extremely unstable as there were still unhealed wounds from the war. Most of the population was displaced, creating a volatile situation in the country. Military strategies were devised to find solution and eradicate the thousands of military groups and ex-combatants who continued to torment and kill citizens.

The problem of insecurity especially on the western border of the country was caused by the incursions of Ex-FAR and *Interahamwe* militias. To put an end to this destabilisation, the Government of Rwanda proceeded to the repatriation of refugees

from Zaïre, current DRC and military operations aiming at weakening the combatants.

c. Politico-administrative reforms and fight against injustice

From its inception, the Government was supposed to set up administrative structures from the top to the bottom. Due to lack of time to produce the most appropriate administrative framework, it maintained the structure left by the defeated regime namely central government, prefectures (provinces), communes (Districts), sectors and cells

From 2001, Rwanda's decentralization policy was an important innovation. Its objective was to empower and invite the population to participate actively in debates on issues that concerned it directly. It also aimed at encouraging the electorate in the countryside to provide information and explain issues in order to take decisions knowingly. The decentralization of activities went hand in hand with the decentralization of financial, material and human resources.

The first phase (2001-2005) aimed at establishing democratic and community development structures at the district level and was accompanied by a number of legal, institutional and policy reforms, as well as democratic elections for local leaders. However, the decentralisation process faced some challenges because some leaders have to perform volunteer work. In addition, some of them cumulated jobs and this could lead to their inefficiency.

In order to promote consensual democracy, since 2000, free, transparent and peaceful elections have been organised at local levels and Rwanda has put in place a new constitution that clearly defines the main principles as well as performance and limit of political institutions, multiparty system and respect of everybody's right.

The 2003 Constitution accepts that political parties and independent politicians must share almost important political positions in the country. This power sharing was observed not only in the government but also in the Parliament made up of two chambers: the Chamber of Deputies and the Senate.

These two chambers are complementary in nature, but independent of each other. The Executive is overseen by parliament, according to the constitution, while the judiciary power is also independent from the Executive and the Legislative ones.

d. Promotion of unity and reconciliation

The national unity implies the indivisibility of the Rwandan people. All citizens should have an equal opportunity to national economic resources and can claim the same political rights. Rapidly, the Government of National Unity fought and eliminated all constraints of national unity such as "ethnicity" and regionalism. For instance, "ethnic" labels were removed from identity cards.

In the same perspective, the Commission of Unity and Reconciliation urges Rwandans to strive to heal one another's physical and psychological wounds while building future interpersonal trust based on truth telling, repentance and forgiveness. Thus, the Commission educates and mobilises Rwandans on matters related to national unity and reconciliation and undertakes research in the matter of peace, unity and reconciliation to make proposals on measures for eradicating divisions and for reinforcing unity.

In addition, the Commission uses a series of strategies such as solidarity camps where different categories of people meet to discuss issues related to unity and reconciliation and programmes on radios. The Government of National Unity repatriated a big number of refugees that was a fundamental obligation and a bridge to peace, national unity and reconciliation.

In addition to the above efforts, the Government of National Unity introduced several structures and programmes that were meant to correct past errors that led to war and Genocide. These structures include the National Commission of Human Rights, the Gacaca Jurisdictions, *Commission Nationale de Lutte Contre le Génocide* (CNLG) and Rwanda Demobilisation Commission.

Besides, to promote unity among Rwandans new national symbols namely the national anthem, the national flag and the coat of arms were designed to reflect the unity of Rwandans. However, "ethnic" based ideologies propagated by electronic media or in families keep hindering national unity.

e. Remaking justice

The Genocide was carefully planned and executed to annihilate the Tutsi. The Government made it among its highest priorities to apprehend and bring to justice the perpetrators of the Genocide.

Thousands of people were arrested and judged. Some of them were released for lack of evidence and others convicted and sentenced. It is pertinent to the people of Rwanda to feel that no reconciliation is possible without justice. The big number of prisoners and cases due for trial placed severe strain on Rwanda's criminal justice system which had already been crippled by the murder of professionals during the Genocide. The Government of National Unity decided to ease pressure on the criminal justice system by categorising Genocide suspects according to the crimes they were accused of. In this regard, category 1 was composed of the planners and perpetrators of the Genocide. A number of 2,133 people were convicted in the conventional courts. The categories 2-4 where involvement was slightly less serious were convicted in traditional jurisdictions or *Gacaca* courts.

This new process significantly sped up trials and sentencing, which if they had been restricted to conventional courts would take over 200 years to complete. The *Gacaca* courts also had the advantage of involving the community in the trial and sentencing process. The Government believed that involving the population in the trials could also contribute significantly to reconciliation. In fact, testimonies from the general population helped survivors to discover the corpses of the family members killed during the Genocide. Moreover, some perpetrators demanded pardon from the survivors. In some places, perpetrators and survivors were gathered in associations. On the debit side, the *Gacaca* courts were criticised for corrupt judges and lack of lawyers commonly used in modern judicial system.

The Government also made it a priority to strengthen the criminal justice system. Special training was provided to magistrates and judges, while courts around the country were renovated. A national police force was created and charged with civil security matters and criminal investigations.

4. Social Achievements of the Government of Rwanda

a. Assistance to the most vulnerable people

From the social point of view, the Government of National Unity faced with the problem of assisting vulnerable people.

Almost all the Rwandan population that had survived Genocide and war was described as vulnerable. With time, their numbers kept on reducing given the situation which improved politically, socially and economically. The vulnerable people included Rwandan refugees and repatriated displaced people, genocide survivors, single children and orphans, widows, people with disabilities, the poor, HIV/AIDS victims and prisoners. Moreover, between November 1995 and February 1996, Rwanda hosted almost 37, 000 refugees including former Burundi refugees and Kinyarwanda-speaking ones from Zaïre. In 2003, the number of foreign refugees in Rwanda was estimated at 300, 000 persons.

Only 35, 000 refugees remained in Rwanda at the end of 2003. The survivors of Genocide were part of the most important vulnerable groups in the country. The Government handled them as a priority. In 1998, an Assistance Fund for Genocide Survivors, Fonds d'Aide pour les Rescapés du Génocide (FARG) was set up. It was allocated 5% of the national budget.

This budget enabled FARG to solve a big part of its problems experienced by vulnerable surviving children in the fields of primary, secondary and higher education. The fund was also used to pay for health care. FARG also helped vulnerable survivors to construct residential homes in regrouped villages (imidugudu) and/or elsewhere. It was also used to repair their former residences. FARG financed small projects to help survivors fight against poverty.

From 1994, the orphans and single-children received assistance of varied nature. For some of them, houses were constructed; others were trained and given supplies in reception centres. In this way, they received physical and mental health-care, education and social integration facilities. Some of them were able to reunite with members of their families.

The ministries that were dealing with social affairs performed the following services: designing intervention programmes in favour of widows, providing material assistance, conducting a census of raped and pregnant women, etc. On the other hand, women victims of war and genocide set up associations for mutual help. These actions produced tangible results. However, a big number of them still suffered from the after-effects of war and genocide such as traumatism. Among them we can state AVEGA AGAHOZO (Association des Veuves du Génocide du mois d'Avril), BAMPOREREZE, DUHOZANYE, etc

b. Health promotion

Between 1994 and 2003, a particular focus was put on the improvement of health infrastructure given the role that the latter plays in the improvement of health. Some new hospitals were constructed, and old ones were constantly rehabilitated or expanded. Several health centres were also constructed while old ones were repaired gradually. In 1996, the majority of health facilities started to provide both curative and preventive treatment.

National referral hospitals such as King Faisal Hospital, the Centre Hospitalier de Kigali and the University Teaching Hospital of Butare were rehabilitated, re-equipped and made operational. There were 25 district hospitals in the country. Out of 279 health centres and dispensaries, 257 were reopened after rehabilitating them with new equipment.

In 2000, Nyanza Hospital and Kimironko Health Centre were established. In 2001, there were 33 district hospitals and 40 health centres. The above district hospitals were coordinated by 11 regional health officials. Health staff increased qualitatively and quantitatively. The National University of Rwanda (NUR) Faculty of Medicine produced 1,999 general doctors. Nonetheless, the Government resorted to foreign doctors from neighbouring countries and even beyond to solve the problem of inadequate medical personnel. Kigali Health Institute (KHI) also trained several medical assistants at A1 level. The nursing section at secondary school also level produced nurses of A2 level, whereas those in the social section trained and graduated social workers.

The government policy of encouraging the people to participate in health programmes was successful. The Rwandan Sickness Insurance Scheme, La Rwandaise d'Assurance Maladie (RAMA) was established to ensure that government civil servants get proper medical insurance coverage. It started business in 2001.

c. Meritocracy and skills enhancement in education

The colonial and post-colonial administrations left Rwanda with one of the lowest skilled populations in the sub-region. In addition to this, an "ethnic" quota system for entry into secondary schools and the university made access to education limited for sections of the population.

On entering office, the Government of National Unity immediately instituted meritocracy in education system and measures were put in place to address the country's labour incapacity. Since 1994, the number of higher learning institutions kept increasing and were six in 2000. The total number of students receiving higher education rose from 3,000 and was close to 7,000 in 2003. The number of university graduates between 1963 and 1994 was 2,160. Between 1995 and 2000, a period of just five years, the Government of Rwanda produced over 2,000 university graduates.

A former military college in the heart of Kigali was transformed into a modern Institute of Science and Technology. The new Kigali Institute of Science and Technology (KIST) was established in 1997 to provide technical, skill-based training to 2,500 full and part-time students.

The institute also hosted the African virtual University and conducted business and entrepreneurship courses. Licenses and facilitation were granted to other institutions and colleges to make more training opportunities available to the population.

Similarly, from 1994 to 2000, the number of primary schools increased more than one and a half times. The number of qualified teachers rose by 53% between 1994 and 2000. More resources were made available to build new schools and to rehabilitate old ones. In addition, Government introduced universal primary education, established education support institutions such as the National Curriculum Development Centre, the General Inspectorate of Education and Examinations Board.

The National Examination Council was introduced to ensure fairness, transparency and uniformity in standards

d. Promotion of gender equality

Women had suffered due to war and the Genocide. One of the Government and civil society priorities were to strengthen capacity-building programmes for women in all fields. In this regard, the Rwandan legislation that was disadvantaging women was amended in order to give equal opportunities to both men and women. The Government set up the National Commission for Women's Rights that played an important role in revising the law and culture. Articles that disadvantaged women were removed. Similarly, women organizations became very active. Hence, an association called PROFEMMES/ *Twese Hamwe* trained women and empowered them to take up roles in decision-making organs, justice etc....

In addition, laws on inheritance were reformulated. Furthermore, the gender factor was integrated in all national policies on Rwanda's long-term development.

In political domain, the Government encouraged women to get involved in decision-making organs. This started from the first electoral campaigns of 1999, 2001 and 2003. For example, during the 2001 elections organized by district and sector committees, almost 25% of the women were elected.

All categories of the Rwandan population took part in the process of drafting the Rwandan constitution of 2003. This facilitated the inclusion of the gender factor in the constitution. The 2003 Constitution of the Republic of Rwanda stipulates that women shall occupy at least 30% of the decision-making organs in the country. The results of the 2003 elections showed that Rwanda was among the first world countries with the most outstanding percentage of women in the National Assembly.

5.Economic achievements

a. Enhancing economic growth and development

Due to War and the Genocide, the country's infrastructure was destroyed. Between July 1994 and 2000, the Government of National Unity put in place an emergency programme of reconstruction. In this regard, policies and programmes of economic recovery and social welfare were put in place. For instance, the Government designed first a programme of national reconciliation and another one of rehabilitation and development. The latter was presented during Geneva donors' conference in January 1995. Its aims were the restoration of the macro-economic framework of the country, capacity building, reinforcing the participation of local investors and integration of refugees and displaced people. In addition, the Government had to restore favourable conditions for economic and social activities.

Almost 600 million US dollars was received by Rwanda for the period 1995-1996 thanks to the Geneva donors' conference. The international financial contribution served not only to rehabilitate and repair the basic infrastructures but also to increase agricultural activities. It also improved Rwanda's balance of payments. During the second conference held in June 1996, Rwanda received 500 million US dollars for the second recovery programme called Rehabilitation and recovery programme (1995-1998). The third programme presented to the World Bank and International Monetary

Fund (IMF) was a structural adjustment. It intended to stabilise the country's macro-economic performance to improve the balance of payments, controlling inflation, etc.

In June 1998, IMF (International Monetary Fund) approved Rwanda's application to achieve Reinforced Structural Adjustment Facility. In 1999, this 3 years programme was transformed into a 'Facility for Poverty Reduction and Growth' (FPRG). It was supported with funds worth 413.3 million USD. Thus, Rwanda embarked on its economic and social construction.

Even if some programmes and policies were conceived, it was from 2000 that the Government of Rwanda started formulating long-term policies. They included Vision 2020 and the Strategic Plan for the Reduction of poverty (EDPRS) which was published in June 2000. These two strategic programmes demonstrated remarkable dynamism because they inspired subsequent policies which were designed in all government sectors.

The Government immediately set out to create fiscal stability and economic growth. Inflation was brought down from 64% in 1994 to fewer than 5% from 1998 up to 2000. In 1994, annual fiscal revenues were zero while in 2002 they stood at nearly 70 billion of Rwandan Francs (frw). The economy grew steadily at an average of 11%, while gross domestic incomes grew at an average of 14.3% per annum since 1995. The process of privatisation of government enterprises started in 1996. Many enterprises were put up for privatisation and shares were sold to local or foreign investors. The government made it a priority to diversify Rwanda's economic base.

The Government of National Unity was committed to rebuilding, expanding and improving the infrastructure of the country in order to facilitate economic growth. Since 2003 new roads have been built and others have been reconstructed to improve the road system.

Other efforts related to promote health conditions in residential houses increased the availability of water and electricity. Up to 2001, only 2.4% of the homes were connected to water supplied by ELECTROGAZ as opposed to 38.1% homesteads that got water from natural wells. The poorest people fetched water from rivers. The average distance between homes and water sources was 703 meters in 2001.

As for electricity, the number of ELECTROGAZ customers increased. It rose from 2% of the population in 1994 to 6% in 2002. In addition, there was a significant difference in living standards between rural and urban dwellers.

b. Agriculture and animal husbandry

Ever since it took over power in July 1994, the Government of National Unity focused its attention on boosting agricultural production. It sensitised the population to embark on agriculture as soon as peace and security were achieved. It distributed seeds, basic tools, pesticides, etc. to boost agriculture.

To curb the problem of famine and guarantee food security, government priority identified the cultivation of the following crops: maize, rice, sorghum, beans and, Irish potatoes.

Rwanda's economy heavily depended on the export of coffee and tea. The evolution of quantitative production of coffee from 1994 to 2003 was achieved unevenly. The new

export crops on which the Government focused its attention included flowers which started fetching foreign exchange to the Rwandan economy. In short, agricultural production increased from 1994. Between 1995 and 2005, it multiplied twofold.

In the field of animal husbandry, government action since 1994 was bent on the following: increasing the reproduction of animals in all regions of the country, reopening of veterinary laboratories and research institutions in animal technology, provision of veterinary medicines and the sensitization of farmers to ensure an increase in animal production. In 1994 and 2003, the number of domestic animals increased by almost five. Quantitatively, animal husbandry also improved because big-sized animals and the number of crossbreed animals increased though generally, a lot of improvement was still needed.

The achievements of the government of Rwanda in promoting unity and reconciliation, strengthening civic education, and establishing the *Agaciro* Development Fund have been instrumental in rebuilding the nation after the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi. These efforts have not only restored peace and stability but also laid a strong foundation for sustainable development. Today, Rwanda stands as a model of recovery and transformation. The continued commitment of both the government and citizens to these initiatives ensures a brighter and more united future for the country.

Application activity 4.8



1. Explain how Girinka program contribute to the both economic and social reconstruction of Rwanda?
2. To what extent did the integration of former combatants into the national army (RDF) promote national stability?
3. Why did the government prioritize the "Digital Transformation" of its services via the Irembo platform?
4. Analyze the impact of Rwanda's gender equality policies on the country's development.

4.9 End of unit assessment



Section A. Knowledge and Understanding

1. Enumerate three major causes of the downfall of the Second Republic (1973–1994).
2. State three primary objectives of the Rwanda Patriotic Front (RPF-Inkotanyi) during the Liberation War.
3. Identify three key challenges the Government of National Unity faced immediately after July 1994.

Section B. Skills

1. Compare the 1st and 2nd Republics in terms of their approach to national unity. How did their policies lead to the same eventual failure?
2. Analyze the strategic significance of the 1993 Arusha Accords. Why did they fail to prevent the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi?
3. Examine how Rwanda's "Home-Grown Solutions" (like Gacaca and Umuganda) have solved problems that Western-style models might not have addressed.

Section C. Attitudes and values

1. Based on the history of the Liberation War, why is the value of "Patriotism" considered as a cornerstone for Rwanda's current stability?
2. How does the study of the failures of the first and second Republics influence your personal commitment to "Inclusivity" and "Non-discrimination"?
3. In your opinion, which achievement of the post-genocide government has most contributed to "Self-Reliance" (Kwigira) among the youth? Justify your view.

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UNIT 5

GENOCIDE DENIAL AND IDEOLOGY IN RWANDA AND ABROAD



Key Unit Competence:

Analyse the 1994 Genocide perpetrated against Tutsi ideology and its denial in Rwanda and abroad with a commitment to Never Again.

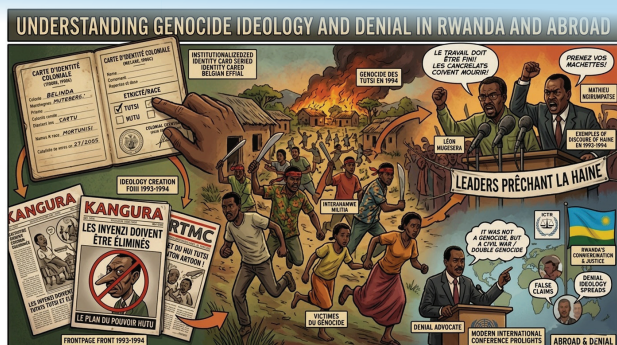


Figure 5.1. Genocide denial and ideology in Rwanda and abroad

Learning objectives

At the end of this unit you should be able to:

Knowledge and understanding

1

- Explain the 1994 Genocide against Tutsi ideology;
- Describe the forms of the 1994 genocide against Tutsi denial in Rwanda and abroad;
- Describe the strategies to fight 1994 genocide against Tutsi ideology and denial in Rwanda and abroad.

Skills

2

- Analyze the 1994 Genocide against Tutsi ideology
- Assess the forms of the 1994 genocide against Tutsi denial
- Examine various channels of 1994 genocide against Tutsi ideology and denial in Rwanda and abroad.
- Assess strategies to fight 1994 genocide against Tutsi ideology and denial in Rwanda and abroad.
- Tutsi ideology and denial in Rwanda and abroad.
- Assess strategies to fight 1994 genocide against Tutsi ideology and denial in Rwanda and abroad.

Attitudes and values

3

- Judge the 1994 Genocide against Tutsi ideology
- Acknowledge the forms of the 1994 genocide against Tutsi denial
- Acknowledge various channels of 1994 genocide against Tutsi ideology and denial in Rwanda and abroad.
- Appreciate strategies to fight 1994 genocide against Tutsi ideology and denial in Rwanda and abroad.
- Identify various channels of 1994 genocide against Tutsi ideology and denial in Rwanda and abroad.
- Appreciate strategies to fight 1994 genocide against Tutsi ideology and denial in Rwanda and abroad.

Introduction

In 1994, a genocide was perpetrated against the Tutsi. Before, during and after that genocide, its perpetrators set up ways of denying it. Even the international community hesitated to consider the massive killing of the Tutsi as genocide.

Three forms of the denial of genocide against the Tutsi have been identified: literal genocide denial, interpretative and implicatory genocide denial. Literal genocide denial consisted of refusal to accept that Rwanda genocide had taken place. The interpretative genocide denial aims at saying that in Rwanda there had been a double genocide. The implicatory genocide denial supports the opinion that the Rwanda Patriotic Army also participated in the genocide.

Genocide denial and genocide ideology are unbearable. The government of Rwanda set up different strategies to combat it including law n°18/2008 of 23/07/2008 relating to the punishment of the crime of genocide ideology. At the international level, different conferences were organised and the problem of genocide, its denial and ideology were examined in order to search for ways of fighting them.

The unit covers the historical arc of genocide ideology from its origins to its modern manifestations. The scope includes:

- **Historical Foundations:** The colonial roots of ethnic classification and the institutionalization of discrimination.
- **Mechanisms of Hate:** The role of media (RTL, Kangura) and political leadership in mobilizing the masses.
- **The Global Context:** How genocide ideology spread outside Rwanda before 1994 and how denial persists in the international community today.
- **Forms of Denial:** Identifying the common «arguments» used by deniers (e.g., «double genocide» theory, claims of spontaneity, or revisionism).
- **Justice and Prevention:** The role of international and national laws in punishing denial and preserving memory.

Key Words and Concepts: Genocide Ideology, dehumanization, Genocide denial, revisionism, incitement, Hutu Power,

Introductory activity 5



Ineza is a History teacher in Senior Five at Groupe Scolaire Nyamata. At the beginning of a lesson, she presented a short video and testimonies about the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi, after presentation one student claimed that some of the information was exaggerated while others shared what they had seen on social media and heard from different people. She then guided the class to discuss how genocide ideology was formed, how denial appears in different forms, the channels through which such ideas spread in Rwanda and abroad, and the strategies used to fight them.

Questions

1. If you had been one of her students, how would you explain the ideology behind the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi.
2. Identify forms of its denial, and describe the channels through which they spread?
3. What you think can be done to effectively fight genocide ideology and denial both in Rwanda and abroad.

5.1 The 1994 Genocide against Tutsi ideology and denial in Rwanda and abroad

Learning activity 5.1



During a class discussion at a secondary school in Kigali, a student named Eric shared a story he had seen on social media claiming that the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi was exaggerated. Another student, Aline, strongly disagreed and explained that such statements are examples of genocide denial. Their teacher then guided the class to reflect on how genocide ideology was created and spread before 1994, and how similar ideas can still circulate today through media, conversations, and online platforms. The class also discussed efforts made by the government of Rwanda and the international community to fight against genocide ideology and denial through education, laws, and remembrance activities.

Questions:

1. Explain the meaning of the following concepts: "genocide", "ideology" and "genocide denial"
2. Based on the story, what is meant by the ideology of the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi?
3. Identify the form of genocide denial presented in Eric's statement.
4. What channels are shown in the scenario through which genocide ideology and denial can spread?

5. Why is Aline's response important in fighting genocide denial?
6. Suggest other possible channels through which genocide ideology and denial may spread in Rwanda and abroad.
7. What strategies are highlighted in the scenario to combat genocide ideology and denial?
8. Propose additional measures that can be taken to fight against genocide ideology and denial.

5.1.1 Definition of Concepts of "genocide", "ideology", "genocide ideology" and "genocide denial"

The term "**genocide**" derives from two words: A Greek word '*genos*' meaning origin or species, and a Latin verb '*caedere*', meaning to kill.

It was first, used by Raphael Lemkin, a Polish born American lawyer who taught law at the University of Yale in the 1940s. He used this term 'genocide' uniquely to make it different from other crimes of mass killings. Generally, it is the mass extermination of a whole group of people, an attempt to wipe them out of existence.

Internationally and legally, the definition of the term «Genocide» adopted by the UN Convention, has remained substantially the same since it was initially formulated on 9th December 1948. The article 2 of the Convention on the Prevention and Punishment of the Crime of Genocide defines "genocide" as any of the following acts committed with intent to destroy, in whole or in part a national, ethnical, racial or religious group. These acts were followed by a series of characteristics of the crime of genocide, representing serious violations of the right to life and the physical or mental integrity of members of the group such as:

- Killing members of the group;
- Causing serious bodily or mental harm to members of the group;
- Deliberately inflicting on the group conditions of life calculated to bring about its physical destruction in whole or in part;
- Imposing measures intended to prevent births with the group;
- Forcibly transferring of the group to another group.

The **Convention on the Prevention and Punishment of the Crime of Genocide** makes punishable not only genocide itself but also conspiracy, direct and public incitement, attempts to commit genocide, and complicity in genocide. The defining feature of genocide is the **intent to destroy**, in whole or in part, a national, ethnic, racial, or religious group.

The Convention also authorizes States that have ratified it to cooperate in preventing and punishing the crime of genocide. Genocide generally involves two phases: the destruction of the identity and existence of the targeted group, followed by the imposition of the identity, culture, or control of the oppressor.

Genocide is the mass extermination of a whole group of people, an attempt to wipe them out of existence. It is the specific intention to destroy an identified group, either "in whole or in part", that distinguishes the crime of genocide from a crime against humanity. Thus, these acts were perpetrated against the Tutsi in Rwanda in 1994. This is why it is called the Genocide against the Tutsi in Rwanda. They were also perpetrated against the Jews by the Nazi (Holocaust/Shoah) in Germany empire. Genocide is an international crime that is usually planned and supported by those in authority.

a) Definition of the concept "ideology"

An ideology is an organised collection of ideas. The word ideology was used in the late 18th century to define a "science of ideas". An ideology is a comprehensive vision, or a set of ideas proposed by the dominant class to all members of a society. The main purpose behind an ideology is to introduce change in society through a normative thought process. Ideologies tend to be abstract thoughts applied to reality and, thus, make this concept unique to politics. Ideologies are very common in the world of politics and have been used; for example, to provide guidance and to persuade.

b) Definition of the term "genocide denial" in Rwanda

Genocide denial is an attempt to deny or minimise statements of the scale and severity of an incidence of genocide for instance the denial of the 1994 genocide against Tutsi and the holocaust.

Where there is near universal agreement that genocide occurred, genocide denial is usually considered as a form of illegitimate historical revisionism. However, in circumstances where the generally accepted facts do not clearly support the occurrence of genocide, the use of the term may be an argument by those who argue that genocide occurred.

Some ways used to deny the 1994 genocide against the Tutsi

- The minimisation of genocide in any behaviour exhibited publicly and intentionally in order to reduce the weight or consequences of the genocide against the Tutsi.
- Minimising how the genocide was committed.
- Altering the truth about the genocide against the Tutsi in order to hide the truth from the people.
- Asserting that there were two genocides in Rwanda: one committed against the Tutsi and the other against Hutu or saying there had been acts of mutual killing, etc.

5.1.2 Genocidal ideology in post-independence Rwanda

After regaining independence on 1/7/1962 until July 1994, the PARMEHUTU political party leadership (led by Kayibanda and MNRD led by Juvenal Habyarimana) encouraged Hutu hatred and divisionism towards the Tutsi. They denied their basic human rights including right to their country, education, job opportunities, etc.

The genocidal ideology identified the two antagonist groups like "Us" and "Them" or "You" and after proceeded by the nomination or qualification of those two groups. The genocidal ideology in Rwanda is based on ideas, attitude and practices of discrimination

and hatred against the Tutsi. It has been implemented and disseminated by the political leaders since 1959. The Tutsi most important manifestation was persecution, killing, public hatred messages, loss of property, exclusion from political and administrative systems, discrimination in many sectors like education, forced exile, physical and psychological violence, etc.

Since independence, the Tutsi have been identified as "enemies" of the Hutu. In 1960's, the first president of the Republic, Grégoire Kayibanda, used the hatred speeches to qualify the danger of the Tutsi to the Hutu due to the attacks of Inyenzi (groups of refugees) from outside of Rwanda. From 1990 with the attack of Rwanda Patriotic Front (RPF-Inkotanyi), the ideological speeches pointed out again the "double treat presented by the Tutsi (of internal and of external)".

Between 1990 and 1994, the Tutsi were qualified as the "enemy", "outsiders" and "suspected" complots. From those qualifications and propaganda, many Newspapers and Radios, called upon all Hutu, "to kill all Tutsi before they were killed".

Besides the presentation of the threats against the Tutsi, another factor was the dehumanisation or qualification of enemy not as humankind but as an animal like rats, snakes or cockroaches. The aim incites public reactions against the Tutsi who were considered as a "common enemy". This shows that genocide crime before being an act of physical destruction of the enemy, the genocidal ideology begins by developing ideas of exterminating the 'group enemy'.

Discriminatory leadership

Under the two Republics (1962-1994), social inequality was maintained and encouraged by exclusion, favouritism and regionalism. It was under the Second Republic that the policy of "division, exclusion" and regionalism balance" was reinforced. The social promotion was not based on meritocracy; a choice that has generated negative effects on the development of the country and the relationship among Rwandans.

The prefectures of Gisenyi and Ruhengeri monopolized more positions of responsibility in the public administration. The "quotas system" was adopted in 1970's as a solution to social injustice. However, this policy led to the exclusion and discrimination of the Tutsi from schools and services. It deprived the Tutsi the right to education and employment.

Finally, the governments of the first and second republics had systematically ignored the problem of refugees who were roaming around in the neighbouring countries since 1959. The reaction of the government was that the country was too overpopulated to receive more. It was this repeated refusal that made the Rwandese refugees in the neighbouring countries to organize themselves into a politico-military structure, named Rwandese Patriotic Front (RPF – Inkotanyi) and opted return by force.

Application activity 5.1



1. Identify three actions that constitute genocide according to the 1948 UN Convention.
2. From the case study, identify three examples of genocidal ideology.
3. Explain why the statement, "The 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi was just a civil war in which everyone killed each other equally," is considered an example of genocide denial.
4. Describe three discriminatory practices that promoted genocidal ideology in post-independence Rwanda (1962–1994).
5. Explain how hate speech and dehumanization contributed to the preparation of the Genocide against the Tutsi.
6. Suggest three ways young people can help prevent genocide ideology and genocide denial in their communities and schools.

5.2 Forms of the 1994 genocide against Tutsi denial

Learning activity 5.2



Recognising and Preventing genocide ideology

Scenario

During a community meeting, a local political leader repeatedly refers to a certain ethnic group as "outsiders" who are responsible for the country's economic problems. Some radio presenters and social media users begin repeating these messages, while others claim that past atrocities against this group never happened or were only part of a civil war. As these messages spread, some community members start discriminating against the targeted group, while others remain silent because they fear speaking out.

Questions

1. **Identify** the forms of genocide ideology or genocide denial shown in the scenario. Give evidence from the scenario to support your answer.
2. **Explain** how the language used by the political leader and the media can contribute to the spread of genocide ideology.
3. **Suggest** four actions that citizens, community leaders, and the government should take to prevent the situation from developing into violence or genocide.
4. **Evaluate** why promoting good governance, equality, responsible leadership, and respect for human rights is essential in preventing genocide ideology and genocide denial.

In 1994, the Hutu extremists in Rwanda's government then in power, planned, organised for and guided through public institutions genocide against the Tutsi and Hutu opposed to the genocide plan. Simultaneously, they also organised how after committing it they could deny it as it happens in all the cases of genocide. This is the last stage (8th) in the process of genocide. To deny here means to deny something that was collectively organised and involved targeted, deliberate killings of specific groups of unarmed civilians identified on the basis of origin, and usually targeting those with suspect political loyalties and their relatives.

The 1994 genocide against the Tutsi was committed according to 'home-made' Rwandan plans already underway by as early as 1992 as it has been suggested by the historical and legal record, of the International Criminal Tribunal for Rwanda and of numerous studies. Since 1994, the genocide denial has taken three main forms: Literal genocide denial, interpretative and implicatory genocide denial. In the case of the 1994 genocide against Tutsi, all these three forms of genocide denial are more or less linked to one another.

Literal genocide denial involves negating the facts of genocide, silencing talk of genocidal plans and killings. Literal denial becomes harder to sustain once evidence emerges that genocide plans were made and executed right across Rwanda. Following this, interpretative genocide denial reframes or relabels, the events of the genocide, viewing them as part and parcel of civil war, rather than genocide. Subsequently, implicatory genocide denial becomes prevalent, and involves explicit counter-accusations that genocide was planned by those previously viewed as saving the victims. The Rwandan Patriotic Front (RPF) government is thus accused of planning genocide, not only in Rwanda but also in eastern Congo, now Democratic Republic of Congo (DRC). A double genocide thesis is part of both the interpretative and implicatory forms of genocide denial. All the three forms of denial tend to reinforce two parallel and mutually incompatible accounts of the 1994 genocide against the Tutsi, of the past, and tend to further polarise political and public opinion, reinforcing divisions over the past, present and future direction of the country.

Banal denial

This kind of denial is manifested through the films in which French soldiers seen rescuing, Belgian or French missionaries refuse to do so towards the thousands of Tutsi that were being killed. These powerful film sequences convey one key quality of everyday denial in the sense that rescuing the expatriates while abandoning the Tutsi to their killers constitutes one of the very flagrant aspects of the genocide denial.

Some researchers like Freud have demonstrated that some forms of silence or **fantasy** serve to protect an individual's ego from deep-rooted fears and memories, including from memories of trauma. Denial in this every day, individual sense signals the failure to accept reality, but also has a certain logic since it makes escape during a psychologically impossible situation possible. Some interpersonal forms of denial thus appear normal psychological responses to abnormal situations.

The soldier's turning up the music is an example of **banal** denial; his being under orders to save only non-Rwandans, and white expatriates in particular, is something else; it is collective denial.

In a wider sense, the term 'denial' refers to something society wide, something

organised. In collective forms of denial, like genocide denial, individual, more **banal** responses through denial may also be instrumentalised.

Another scholar, Cohen, focuses rather on how to analyse social and collectively organised forms of denial, of which genocide denial is a prime example. He suggests that when entire societies, including governments, and social groups, move to ignore past atrocities, to minimise the significance of human suffering, then this constitutes collective denial, and can even involve official denial by the state.

Collective genocide denial has serious long-term consequences for criminal justice which cannot be equated with more **banal** forms of individual denial, analysed by Freud as coping mechanisms. Whilst genocide denial has both individual and collective manifestations even before the genocide became reality, denial of its true purpose can be shown to be part and parcel of the logic of extremist Hutu power political ideology, at least from 1990, and perhaps even from the time of the first attacks on the Tutsi in 1959, with Belgian assistance.

Through a set of historical spirals of conflicting claims about which group is the original, real or ultimate victim, these three broad forms of genocide denial can however be roughly equated with three broad phases of recent Rwandan history.

Literal denial

Although literal denial was predominant in the early post-genocide years in Rwanda, it has not yet disappeared. Literal denial involves either the full intention to deceive or forms of self-deception that result in disbelief, silence or claiming not to know.

Knowledge may be directly denied, sometimes even in the face of clear evidence to the contrary. Silence, indifference and treating evidence as if it does not merit serious consideration, are all strategies of literal genocide denial.

Literal genocide denial was mainly confined to the private sphere during the early post-genocide years. It still appears in some research, in internet blogs, and among the lawyers of those accused of genocide at the International Criminal Tribunal for Rwanda.



The head office of International Criminal Tribunal for Rwanda in Arusha.

(Source: <https://unictr.irmct.org/en/tribunal>)

Interpretative denial

Arguably, this becomes the dominant form of genocide denial in post-genocide Rwanda. Interpretative genocide denial involves re-categorising evidence that is established, and goes beyond negating, ignoring or silencing talk of genocide. Higher moral goals are often invoked in cases of interpretative denial, such as: revolutionary struggle, ethnic purity, western civilisation', or in the case of Rwanda, legitimate self-defence and a striving for ethnic-based self determination.

Interpretative genocide denial involves use of euphemisms, and the relativising of atrocities by one's own side as an understandable response to the threat of the 'other side.' Like literal genocide denial, interpretative genocide denial can form part of international scholarly **discourse**, or be part of public popular opinion. In the media, the most common expression of interpretative denial was to present the genocide of Tutsi as simply part of a wider 'civil war' of all against all, rather than a targeted genocide.

Implicatory denial

This third form of genocide denial consists of retaliatory counteraccusations, and explicit justification for one's position, through anticipatory counter-accusation against the other party. Implicatory genocide denial has been aimed at restoring a sense of self-worth among those accused of genocide crimes. By claiming, for example, that the Rwanda Patriotic Front really started the genocide themselves, implicatory genocide denial tries to prove that if genocide was committed, it was not by those accused but by the 'other side' in a civil war.

The aim is also to exonerate all atrocities and lay the blame on others. In implicatory denial, the other side is always guilty of lies, propaganda, ideology, disinformation or prejudice, and thus of triggering the genocide.

Those accusing the RPF in this way seek to exonerate themselves from any responsibility for genocide themselves. Implicatory denial has arisen mainly since 2003, and mainly through legal institutions in France and Spain, and on internet sites of the political opposition to the Rwanda Patriotic Front. In more details, each of these three basic forms of genocide denial can be presented.

Literal denial 1994–1998

At first, silence was the most common form of literal genocide denial. Silence remains salient well after the initial post-genocide years, sometimes in a surprising crude fashion. At a conference organised at the Peace Palace in The Hague, on Peace and Stability in the Great Lakes Region, silence of this kind was evident.

Up to the late 1994s, during scholarly conferences, in various academic journals, in the media, and elsewhere, the events of April to July 1994 were still called a civil war, massacres or other terms that avoided use of the word "genocide". Those who termed it genocide were still in a minority at that time, and were even claimed to be propagating a genocide myth.

Transitional government members mostly stuck to the literal denial narrative of the April–July 1994 period. They even claimed to have done nothing wrong, and that most of those killed were Hutu, killed by the 'ethnic' enemy, the Rwanda Patriotic Army.

This literal genocide denial was in line with the ideology that Hutu power ideologies represented the heroic little men against a cunning enemy, the Tutsi, who it was claimed were determined to slaughter every last Hutu man, woman and child. Killings were presented as mostly spontaneous, to centuries of feudal oppression by Tutsi overlords. Literal denial was evident during the early years of the International Criminal Tribunal for Rwanda, in the accounts used by defence lawyers. Genocide was thus transformed into something else—killings based on mutual and long-standing ethnic hatred, or ancient rivalries of clans and castes. The fact that genocide had been planned well in advance was denied, and so it could be claimed that the killings were just killings, and not a deliberate genocide of a minority, the Tutsi.

In 1997 one organisation, called Africa Direct, organised a conference in London entitled 'The Great Genocide Debate'. The programme and presenters suggested that since there were massacres on 'all sides' in Rwanda in 1994, this was a civil war and not genocide. Aidan Campbell, in the now defunct Trotskyist magazine, *Living Marxism*, claimed this too.

At the same time Luc de Temmerman, the Belgian defence lawyer of some leading genocide suspects at the International Criminal Tribunal for Rwanda, simply claimed: "...there was no genocide. It was a situation of mass killings in a state of war, everyone was killing their enemies".

This civil war thesis was common in the media too, especially in the early post-genocide years. The situation changed when the former minister Jean Kambanda set a historical precedent being the first accused person to acknowledge and affirm his guilt for the crime of genocide before an international criminal tribunal. He therefore became the first political leader to take responsibility for the deliberate planning of genocide, and for its implementation.

Although he much later appealed, this was a turning point and marked an end to widespread individual literal denial among perpetrators, who would now find it much harder to sustain silence in the face of such a senior administrators' admissions of responsibility. As head of the provisional government, his guilty plea departed from the prevalence of literal genocide denial among the others appearing at the International Criminal Tribunal for Rwanda at that time.

Through the International Criminal Tribunal for Rwanda, a broadly-shared legal and academic consensus emerged that genocide had indeed taken place in Rwanda, and was targeted against the Tutsi population and those who supported them. The International Criminal Tribunal for Rwanda proceedings, from each region of the country, witness and expert testimony soon filtered into academic research, and literal genocide denial started to be challenged and gradually gave way to more subtle, interpretative forms of genocide denial after 1998 or so. Since then, it was obvious to most impartial observers, to most legal experts and to emerging historians of the genocide period to conclude that what happened in Rwanda in 1994 was the intent to destroy the Tutsi as a people.

The historical evidence of genocide was thus overwhelming, and the one-sided killings of April 7–July 1994 within Rwanda started to be widely referred to as genocide.

In response, a gradual shift took place from literal to more interpretative forms of genocide denial. These started with the familiar argument that this was not one-sided

genocide but two- sided civil war, an argument later developed into the so-called double genocide thesis.

Interpretative denial 1998–2003

Civil war in Rwanda as elsewhere provides a convenient cover for one-sided genocide to be planned and implemented. In the case of Rwanda, the evidence is that the machinery of genocide was geared around targeted killings well before 7 April 1994, when killings started, triggered by the shooting down of the president's plane.

Interpretative denial involves distancing, and sometimes even victim-blaming, as in this statement to an African Rights researcher: "It wasn't genocide, but rather a civil war. The people defended themselves. It was bad luck if you were Tutsi because it meant certain death, and therefore you were eliminated".

Several key elements of interpretative denial appear in this single statement. First, the speaker regards genocide as simply part of war and claims those who died were not targeted but were simply unlucky.

The general effect of his words is to suggest that perpetrators were not responsible for the outcome of the killings of the unfortunate victims. Interpretative genocide denial can thus appear to render victims responsible for their own deaths.

The statement shows how literal denial says it was not genocide. For instance, Rene Lemarchand has claimed that the genocide against the Tutsi was a retributive genocide, a punishment for past atrocities committed by the Tutsi elsewhere. However, in that case, he is viewing motivations for genocide as somehow genuine causes.

The double genocide thesis goes further than the civil war argument, and moves from interpretative towards more implicatory forms of genocide denial. The double genocide thesis is not supported by empirical evidence about patterns of killings inside Rwanda between April and July 1994. Verwimp's study, for example, confirms that killings in Rwanda during this period fitted with the definition of genocide as an organised, systematic attempt to eliminate a specific and targeted population.

Interpreting data in order to 'prove' the double genocide thesis is part of interpretative genocide denial, therefore. And such accusations of double genocide started even before the genocide began. In fact, there is no doubt that genocide denial has been a political weapon of perpetrators even before the genocide against the Tutsi took place in 1994. Legal instruments alone are not enough to tackle genocide denial, and yet such instruments also can be instrumentalised in a highly polarised political climate when open criticism and implicatory denial may, from some angles, look surprisingly similar. Some scholars suggest that marked social conflicts between classes and castes were not invented by European colonisers, and were already firmly embedded into Rwanda's pre-colonial social fabric.

Implicatory denial: 2003 onwards

Implicatory denial explicitly accuses the other of being behind the genocide all along and thus seeks to lay the blame on others instead of those already accused of genocide. Implicatory denial turns around the existing legal and political accusations of victims, prosecutors and researchers, and suggests that those who claimed to end the genocide and to support victims of genocide are in reality perpetrators of genocide themselves.

The general message is that things are not always what they seem, a message conveyed by theories that the Rwanda Patriotic Front was involved in a conspiracy at the start of the genocide. At an individual level, a perpetrator engaged in this kind of implicatory denial claims the survivors associations only exist to persecute the Hutu in general, and the prisoners in particular.

Implicatory denial thus involves accusing victims in some cases, and the Rwanda Patriotic Front government in other cases, of being the real perpetrators behind the scenes.

Application activity 5.2



1. A student claims that the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi was only a civil war. Identify the form of genocide denial reflected in this statement and explain why it is incorrect.
2. Compare the three forms of genocide denial literal, interpretative, and implicatory denial. Give one example of each form based on the content you have studied.
3. Analyse how genocide denial can affect national unity, reconciliation, and the prevention of future atrocities in Rwanda.
4. Imagine you are invited to speak at a youth forum on preventing genocide denial. Explain four actions that young people can take to challenge genocide denial and promote historical truth.
5. Read the following statement: *"There were two genocides in Rwanda in 1994, and both sides were equally responsible."* Explain why this statement is considered a form of genocide denial. Support your answer with two arguments based on historical evidence

5.3 Channels of Genocide ideology and Genocide denial

Learning activity 5.3



During a community workshop in Kigali, participants were shown examples of how harmful ideas about the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi are spread. One facilitator explained that these ideas are spread through newspapers, radio programs, social media platforms, and even informal conversations in communities. Some attendees shared that they had seen posts on social media claiming that the genocide was exaggerated, while others mentioned that rumors in neighborhoods sometimes portrayed Tutsi as "outsiders" or "enemies." The facilitator emphasized that these channels not only spread genocide ideology but also facilitate denial and distortion of facts. The workshop then focused on ways to identify these channels and respond appropriately.

Questions

1. Identify at least four channels through which genocide ideology and denial are spread according to the scenario.
2. Explain how social media can be used to spread genocide denial.
3. Evaluate how do informal conversations in communities contribute to the propagation of genocide ideology?
4. Discuss why it is important to recognize the different channels of genocide ideology and denial?
5. Suggest practical steps that individuals and communities can take to counter the spread of genocide ideology and denial through these channels.

Channels of genocide ideology

- **Education.** In Rwanda, education played the major role in development of and instilling genocide ideology especially through the teaching of History of Rwanda in primary and secondary schools after independence.

Divisions and violence between Hutu and Tutsi students are the results of a deep indoctrination of representations drawn through the channel of education.

- **Political speech.** As a privileged channel for mobilizing identity tendencies by political authorities, a political speech bears different contents such as listing measures to take, formulation of projects to be executed, interpretation of events, etc. Mainly, it plays a major role during difficult times (social and political crises). It was mostly used in the First Republic by President Gregoire Kayibanda to recall referential values of Hutu during the celebration of independence, and identify the responsible for the failure. He expressed despise and hatred vis-à-vis Tutsi. By 1990, following the attack of RPF, Juvenal Habyarimana's speeches constantly mobilized the maximum support of Hutu to chase out Tutsi by all means. In addition, one may remember the deadly speech of Leon Mugesera (Member of MRND party) at Kabaya-Gisenyi in 1990s when he called Tutsi "Abyssinians" who might go back home by Nyabarongo River.

- **Political, Social and economic development movements**

These are movements or actions regrouping a given number of individuals who commit to run determined activities for individual or common interest. In politics, they are formed and organized by the government to implement formulated ideologies or policies. Their members are regularly trained to the cause and are requested to hold meetings periodically to evaluate their actions and debate on the tasks ahead.

- **Family**

It will be recalled that the first family lesson makes the most remarkable impact in child's life. In addition, the acquisition of culture begins at home. Most families in Rwanda have lived different experiences in the past history of Rwanda under two

former Republics. They are witness of political speeches full of hatred, listened to them, even put into actions as state policies dictated the trend. Having been so long indoctrinated, some parents retold their past memories reflecting the genocide ideology to their children. As being not mature enough to assess the given information, children embrace the ideology.

In a family, parents contribute the biggest share in children's education: initiating children into good manners, teaching politeness, discouraging the bad habits, supervising them and assisting them where necessary. In Rwanda today, some parents won by genocide ideology or having been involved in genocide, jailed for that purpose still hold on informally interpreting to their children at home or in the neighborhood their preferable views on genocide against Tutsi. This has been seen very often during the mourning times where young people send phone calls or messages to some Radio Stations trivializing the genocide. Nowadays, one cannot imagine where a student, a child born after 1994 could have got such a behavior unless from her/his parents at home and the neighborhood.

- **Press (media)**

It should be noted that apart from the role of education described above, between 1990-1994, the press/media such as RTLM, newspapers like Kangura, la Medaille Nyiramacibiri, etc.. achieved a remarkable task in broadcasting genocide ideological information on the causes and effects of the war. It was centered around the "Dual Hutu-Tutsi", fixing the origins of Hutu-Tutsi dual in past history and associating it with positive behavior for one camp (side) and negative one for the other. Additional to general economic difficulties, the war crystallized then passions and pushed on to seek a scapegoat who was eventually a Tutsi.

Genocide denial is seen through the international press. For example, Pierre Péan, a French journalist, who asserts the double genocide in Rwanda in his publications and Press Conference where he shows that Tutsi are the root cause of their killings. This was explained in his book published in 2005, « Noires fureurs, blancs menteurs. Rwanda, 1990-1994 ». Another Author, Charles Onana, from Cameroon, who wrote in his book, « Les secrets du génocide rwandais »

Works of Robin Philpot, Canadian journalist, in his book " Ça ne s'est pas passé comme ça à Kigali", saying that what is being reported on Genocide against the Tutsi in Rwanda is not true. Another one who denies Genocide in her publications is Jane Corbin of BBC in her documentary film "Rwanda's untold story" who collaborated with genocide deniers to produce a misleading tool for permanent enemies of Rwanda and false accusations to the high authorities of Rwanda for having caused Genocide. Among genocide deniers, we may include Journalists of BBC Gahuzamiryango who repeatedly disseminate genocide denial interviews through their Kinyarwanda Kirundi program.

- **Authors and Researchers**

Authors and Researchers like Filip Reyntjens, A Belgian Professor, Permanent advisor of Juvenal Habyarimana, who even participated in the "ethnic-based" 1978 Constitution drawing up under Juvenal Habyarimana regime. Another genocide denier is Bernard Lugan, a French, who denies the role of France in the Genocide against Tutsi and asserts that in Rwanda happened a double genocide.

- **Manipulation of the number of victims (Minimization)**

There are so many other pseudo-researchers who deny genocide by manipulating the number of victims of genocide and including a great number of killed Hutu. These include Allan Stam and Christian Davenport, Professors in one USA universities. When denying genocide, they end up with giving 200,000 as a number of Tutsi killed during the genocide instead of over one million victims.

- **Law Specialists (Lawyers)**

Genocide denial is also seen through reports of Law specialists who assisted the genocide perpetrators in Arusha International Criminal Court for Rwanda. For example, Carl Peter Erlinder, Lawyer at Arusha, wrote so many reports explaining that there was no planned genocide, and even genocide did not happen in Rwanda.

- **International justice**

In denying genocide against the Tutsi, it accuses Rwandan authorities for having masterminded genocide hence making not guilty genocidaires themselves. For instance, the arrest warrants formulated by French justice and that of Spain against some of High authorities of Rwanda. This was used as a political instrument for hiding their role in genocide in Rwanda. Here also comes International Criminal Court based in Arusha which is reluctant to pronounce its position by freeing or reducing penalties of genocidaires in Arusha (Cases of Bagosora, Zigiranyirazo, Mugenzi, Ndindirimana, etc.).

- **Some of French political figureheads**

To hide the role of their government in genocide in Rwanda, French authorities namely Francois Mitterrand (defunct), Alain Juppé, Hubert Védrine, Bernard Debré and Dominique de Villepin glorify the good image of France ("Operation Turquoise") during the genocide and insist on the happening of double genocide in Rwanda.

- **Genocidaires abroad and their friends holding genocide legacy**

These include: genocidaires, their friends, political refugees and prisoners jailed in different countries such as Augustin Ndirabatware who wrote the book, "RWANDA, Le faite du mensonge et de l'injustice" and Ferdinand Nahimana, who wrote the books, "Rwanda: les virages ratés" and "Rwanda l'élite Hutu accusée".

Application activity 5.3



1. In your view, which channels are most commonly used to spread genocide ideology and denial, and why do you think they are effective?
2. How does social media influence the spread of genocide denial, and what can be done to address this challenge?
3. Why is it important for society to recognize and critically examine the different channels through which genocide ideology is communicated?

5.4. Strategies to fight 1994 genocide against Tutsi ideology and denial in Rwanda and abroad

Learning activity 5.4



1. Discuss the role played by education and awareness in preventing genocide ideology and denial?
2. Analyse how can media and communication be used to counter hate speech and misinformation related to the genocide?
3. Explain why legal measures are important in fighting genocide denial both in Rwanda and internationally?
4. In what ways can individuals and countries promote remembrance, support survivors, and strengthen international cooperation to prevent genocide ideology?

1. At national level

To prevent the spread of genocide ideology and denial of the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi in Rwanda, several key strategies are used.

e. Legal Measures

Rwanda has laws that criminalize genocide ideology and denial. Internationally, institutions like the United Nations support accountability and condemn denial through conventions and resolutions.

The law related to the punishment of the crime of genocide ideology has to be applied not only to punish but also to discourage all the persons in Rwanda found guilty with the crime of genocide ideology.

Apart from punishing, a campaign of sensitisation has to be led to educate the Rwandans about

f. Education and awareness.

Promoting accurate teaching of history through schools, universities, and public programs helps people understand the causes, facts, and consequences of the genocide and reject denial.

g. Research and documentation

Supporting scholars, archives, and institutions to document evidence ensures that facts remain accessible and verifiable, making denial harder to sustain.

h. Commemoration and memory preservation

Annual remembrance events such as Kwibuka, memorial sites, and survivor testimonies help preserve truth and honor victims, countering attempts to distort history.

The decent conservation of existent genocide memorials of the genocide against the Tutsi and the construction of others will constitute permanent evidence to challenge the revisionists of the genocide against Tutsi.

the evils of the genocide ideology and denial and the negative impact on the policy of the unity and reconciliation, the pillar of the development of the country.

i. Community engagement and dialogue

Encouraging unity, reconciliation, and open discussions within communities helps dismantle prejudice and misinformation.

j. Media regulation and responsible communication

Monitoring and addressing hate speech in traditional and digital media helps prevent the spread of harmful propaganda and denial narratives.

2. At African level

Before discussing strategies to fight genocide ideology and denial, it is important to understand the real or perceived causes of genocide. These causes often provide the basis for extremists to spread genocide ideology within society. Genocide ideology consists of ideas rooted in fear, hatred, and the desire for power, especially in societies with historical divisions. Although scholars debate whether genocide itself is an ideology, it is widely recognized as a dangerous set of beliefs that can lead to mass violence. Genocide ultimately involves deliberately targeting and destroying a group that is portrayed as an enemy.

Genocide ideology begins by identifying, labeling, and stigmatizing a group as the "other," separating them from the rest of society. Political leaders often initiate this process and spread it through speeches, education, media, and propaganda. The targeted group is falsely portrayed as dangerous, untrustworthy, or a threat to society. This dehumanization is used to justify discrimination, exclusion, and eventually violence.

Genocide ideology develops through the separation of "us" from "them" based on ethnic, racial, religious, or political differences. This separation may lead to discrimination, internment, exile, or other forms of persecution. Political leaders often reinforce division by using derogatory labels and portraying certain groups as enemies or threats. Such language dehumanizes the targeted group and encourages hostility against them. As these divisions deepen, genocide ideology becomes more firmly

established and can pave the way for mass violence.

The early warning signs of genocide ideology are constantly evolving as extremists create new ways to identify, stigmatize, and dehumanize targeted groups. Once a group is fully dehumanized, violence against them is more easily justified and carried out without guilt or remorse. Many African societies have experienced or can recognize these warning signs from their own histories or those of other countries.

Genocide ideology promotes the belief that “us” is superior to the “other,” portraying the targeted group as inferior and undeserving of equal dignity and respect. This raises the need for laws and other measures to prevent political leaders from using hate speech and divisive propaganda that can incite discrimination and violence.

Genocide ideology becomes dominant when the targeted group is silenced through fear and intimidation. Throughout history, the state has often played a central role in genocide, either by actively participating, supporting, or failing to prevent it. Because genocide requires extensive resources, power, and organization, it is unlikely to occur without state involvement or the state’s failure to fulfill its legal responsibility to protect people.

The primary responsibility of the state is to protect all citizens equally without discrimination. Genocide occurs either when the state actively commits mass atrocities or when it fails to protect its population. However, individuals can also bear responsibility, as shown by the active role of the well-organized and politically mobilized Interahamwe militia during the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi in Rwanda.

The law should establish effective measures to prevent genocide by addressing the conditions that lead to mass violence and by responding promptly to early warning signs of discrimination. Good governance also requires states to adopt and follow best practices for genocide prevention, with effective sanctions for those that fail to comply.

For Africa, if the experiences of Rwanda, Darfur, Liberia, Sierra Leone, Democratic Republic of the Congo or Somalia are anything to go by, then Africa has a long way to go notwithstanding that the law has a definition for genocide.

African societies should promote peaceful coexistence and reject violence among communities. At the community level, feelings of victimhood, marginalization, discrimination, and unequal access to opportunities can fuel division and conflict. Therefore, the state must address these grievances fairly and effectively to prevent the spread of genocide ideology and violence.

Leaders in politics, the media, religion, culture, and civil society should promote unity, discourage hate speech, and foster peaceful dialogue. Responsible leadership plays a vital role in preventing genocide, combating discrimination, and strengthening lasting peace.

Countries should promote good governance, fight corruption, and adopt legal, political, and cultural measures that strengthen unity and uphold human dignity. Since ethnic divisions remain a challenge in many African societies due to historical and colonial influences, governments should promote inclusion, equality, and fair opportunities for all citizens.

The decline of socialist ideals, the effects of globalization and privatization, and the weakening of traditional African values have contributed to inequality and made it more difficult to respond effectively to genocide ideology. These changes have reduced the emphasis on social equity and collective responsibility.

In some societies, excessive focus on individual interests, combined with political exclusion and unequal access to power, has encouraged division, power struggles, election manipulation, and the marginalization of certain groups. Such practices deepen ethnic and political tensions.

The continued monopolization of state power can lead to repression, resistance, and the politicization of ethnic identity. The use of dehumanizing language such as calling people "cockroaches," "pigs," or other insulting names should be recognized as an early warning sign of genocide ideology and potential mass violence.

Dehumanizing language and the classification of certain groups as the "other" are early warning signs of genocide. If such behavior is ignored, it can gradually develop into a full-fledged genocide ideology.

Courts should interpret and apply laws in ways that promote social justice, equality, and the fair distribution of resources. For example the human rights jurisprudence read together with the jurisprudence developed at the International Criminal Tribunal for Rwanda, International Criminal Tribunal for ex-Yugoslavia and Special Court for Sierra Leone, the Strong legal systems can help prevent discrimination and counter the spread of genocidal ideologies.

Good governance, equal treatment of all citizens, and fair representation of all communities in state institutions are essential for preventing division and conflict. Leaders should promote national unity, respect all citizens equally, and place loyalty to the nation above ethnic or political interests.

Good governance, equal treatment of citizens, and fair representation of all communities in public institutions help prevent segregation and genocide ideology. National loyalty should be based on citizenship rather than ethnic or political affiliation, and leaders should govern with fairness and respect for all.

The misuse of the justice system to unfairly target political opponents or particular groups weakens the fight against genocide ideology. Governments should ensure that justice is impartial, evidence-based, and free from discrimination.

Countries should promote understanding and application of the jurisprudence of the International Criminal Tribunal for Rwanda (ICTR). Learning from the ICTR's decisions can strengthen national efforts to recognize early warning signs and prevent the spread of genocide ideology.

Countries should establish strong constitutional and legal mechanisms that serve as early warning systems to detect and prevent genocide ideology and other crimes against humanity. Independent institutions, supported by citizens and regional bodies such as the African Union, should be able to identify and respond to discrimination and the targeting of vulnerable groups.

The judiciary should have adequate powers to prevent actions that may lead to hatred, violence, or mass atrocities. Governments should also educate citizens about the dangers of abuse of power and the role that state officials can play in promoting or preventing such crimes.

African countries should apply international legal lessons from cases such as Rwanda, Sudan, the Democratic Republic of the Congo, and Sierra Leone to strengthen national laws and policies. Measures such as banning hate speech, preventing discrimination, ensuring equitable resource distribution, and promoting social inclusion are essential to making the commitment of **"Never Again"** a reality.

3. At International level

Rwandan and foreign scholars have also to write to combat genocide ideology and denial spread in different written documents like the media of different types, books, and internet.

After the Second World War the international community recognised the dangers of these practices and adopted laws to prevent the development of a genocide ideology. However, after Europe's **pogroms**, genocides and holocausts against each other and against the people they had colonised, they adopted the 1948 Genocide Convention but not much appeared to have changed as is demonstrated by mass killings in the former Yugoslavia.

Countries and organizations collaborate to track, expose, and challenge genocide denial globally, especially within diaspora communities. The increase of Social Media Platforms which became a new platform for the commission and propagation of genocide denial.

We are witnessing a spike in genocide denial driven by the young generation, mostly offspring of genocide perpetrators, fugitives and ideologues. This is worrying but not surprising. Most are in Europe and U.S; they take advantage of their systems under the pretext of freedom of speech, spread propaganda denying genocide against the Tutsi.

Brief: Preventing the spread of genocide ideology and genocide denial requires coordinated action at national, African, and international levels. Strong legal measures, quality education, international cooperation, accurate historical documentation, responsible media, survivor support, and the promotion of human rights and peaceful coexistence are essential to preserving the truth about the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi and ensuring that such atrocities never happen again.

Application activity 5.4



1. **Identify** the warning signs of genocide ideology and genocide denial described in the scenario.
2. **Explain** how education, historical research, memorials, and commemoration can help prevent genocide ideology and genocide denial.
3. **Describe** four strategies that governments can implement at the national level to combat genocide ideology and denial.
4. **Discuss** the role of the African Union, national governments, courts, media, and civil society in preventing genocide ideology and promoting peaceful coexistence across Africa.
5. **Analyse** how the international community can help prevent genocide ideology and denial through international law, cooperation, responsible use of social media, and support for historical truth.
6. **Propose** six practical actions that students and young people can take in their schools and communities to promote unity, reject hate speech and misinformation, preserve the memory of the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi, and contribute to the principle of **"Never Again."**

5.5 End of unit assessment



Section A. Knowledge and Understanding

1. Explain the following concepts: genocide, ideology, genocide ideology, and genocide denial.
2. Identify main characteristics of genocidal ideology that developed in Rwanda before the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi.
3. Describe three main forms of genocide denial: literal denial, interpretative denial, and implicative denial.

Section B. Skills

1. Analyse how political speeches, media, education, and family influence contributed to the spread of genocide ideology before the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi.
2. Compare the three forms of genocide denial and provide examples showing how each form attempts to distort the history of the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi.
3. Evaluate the role of education, research, commemoration, media responsibility, and legal measures in preventing genocide ideology and denial in Rwanda and abroad.

Section C. Attitudes and values

1. Explain why respecting human dignity, equality, and human rights is important in preventing genocide ideology and discrimination.
2. Discuss how young people can contribute to fighting genocide ideology and denial in schools, communities, and online spaces.
3. Demonstrate the importance of promoting unity, tolerance, responsible citizenship, and the culture of "Never Again" in preventing future genocides.

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UNIT 6

NATIONAL AND INTERNATIONAL JUDICIAL SYSTEMS AND INSTRUMENTS

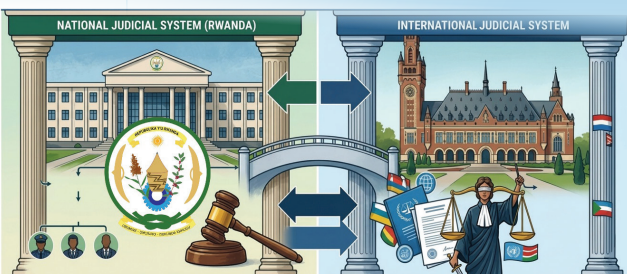


Figure 6.1. National and international judicial systems and instruments



Key Unit Competence:

Analyse the national, international judicial systems and instruments, and the way in which justice has been denied in the Rwandan society with a purpose of eradicating a culture of impunity.

Learning objectives

At the end of this unit you should be able to:

Knowledge and understanding

1

- Explain the concepts of the judicial system and judicial instrument;
- Identify the national and international judicial systems and instruments;
- Describe the structure and organization of the national and international judicial systems and instruments;
- Identify the ways in which the justice has been denied and delayed in Rwanda other societies.

Skills

2

- Analyze the concepts of the judicial systems and judicial instrument;
- Interpret the national and international judicial systems and instruments;
- Evaluate the structure and organization of the national and international judicial systems and instruments and examine their significance;
- Analyze the ways in which the justice has been denied and delayed in Rwanda and other societies.

Attitudes and values

3

- Appreciate the national and international judicial systems and instruments to develop the sense of good governance.
- Value the national and international judicial systems and instruments
- Recognize the structure and organization of the national and international judicial systems and instruments.
- Appreciate the different ways in which the justice in Rwanda has been delayed and denied.

Introduction

This unit explores the mechanisms through which justice is administered both within Rwanda and on the global stage. Its purpose is to equip students with a clear understanding of the hierarchy and functions of the Rwandan judiciary while examining how international legal bodies work to resolve interstate disputes and punish global crimes.

The unit covers the structure of national courts, the specific legal instruments (laws and treaties) that govern them, and the collaborative relationship between domestic justice and international institutions like the ICJ and ICC.

Key Concepts: Judiciary, jurisdiction, National Instruments, International Instruments, Restorative Justice, Sovereignty, Impunity.

Introductory activity 6



1. Explain why Rwanda has different levels of courts (Primary, Intermediate, High Court, Supreme Court) and imagine what would happen to the quality of justice if every single case from a small land dispute to a major crime was sent directly to the Supreme Court.
2. A carpenter uses a hammer and a saw as tools. Explain the “tools” or instruments a judge uses to make a fair decision, and how these tools are not the same in Kigali as they are at the International Criminal Court in The Hague.
3. Rwanda’s Gacaca courts were unique in the world. Show the difference between a court that only aims to punish a criminal and a system that aims to “restore” or “heal” a community? Which is more effective for a developing nation? Explain your answer.

6.1 Concept of judicial system and instrument Judicial system

Learning activity 6.1



It is late 1994. The Rwandan judicial system is “broken”: most judges and lawyers were killed or fled, and prisons are severely overcrowded with over 120,000 detainees. Experts estimate that using only conventional courts, it would take over 200 years to try everyone. If you were a leader at the time, would you prioritize punishment (retributive justice) or rebuilding the community (restorative justice)?

Questions

1. Explain your answer and why is it difficult to do both at once.
2. To speed up the process, suspects were divided into four categories. Explain why it was important to try “Category 1” (planners and rapists) in national or international courts rather than community courts.
3. The ICTR had a massive budget (millions of dollars) but tried only 93 individuals in 18 years. In contrast, Gacaca tried nearly 2 million cases with much less money. Which system do you think was more “effective” for the average Rwandan survivor?

A system is a complex whole formed from related parts. i.e a combination of related parts organized into a complex whole. i.e a social numbering heading, sections and subheadings plus activities system (Encarta Dictionary, 2007);

Judicial relates to judges. i.e. relating or belonging to a body of judges or Judicial system is the system of law courts that administer justice and constitute the judicial branch of government. It is also the branch of government that is endowed with the authority to interpret and apply the law, adjudicate legal disputes, and otherwise administer justice, (Hamilton, 2005).

Under the doctrine of separation of powers, the judicial system (the judiciary) generally does not make law (this is the responsibility of the legislature) or enforce law (this is the responsibility of the Executive), but rather interprets law and applies it to the facts of each case. It is the branch of the state often tasked with ensuring equal justice under the law (Fabri, 2000).

The judicial system usually consists of a Court of final appeal (called the "Supreme Court" or Constitutional court) together with lower courts.

In some countries and jurisdictions, the branch of judicial system is expanded to include additional professionals and institutions such as prosecutors, state lawyers, ombudsmen, public notaries, judicial police service and legal aid officers. All of these institutions are sometimes governed by the same judicial administration that governs courts, and in some cases, the administration of the judicial branch is also the administering authority for private legal professions such as lawyers and private notary offices.

Judicial instrument to the system that administers justice or relating to court judgments, i.e. relating to judges in performance of their duties or to judgment in a court of law.

Instrument (Law) is a legal document instituting a legal act (Encarta Dictionary, 2007).

Judicial instrument refers, in this way, to any legal instrument (legal document) recorded with and authenticated by a public office or employee. To carry weight, any such instrument, must be genuine and authentic. Legal instruments consequently must bear the name, title, and seal of the official that issued them, and should be written in the presence of witnesses who attested to them, (Jennings, 1995).

Legal instrument is a legal term of art that is used for any formally executed written document that can be formally attributed to its author, records and formally expresses a legally enforceable act, process, or contractual duty, obligation, or right, and therefore evidences that act, process, or agreement.

Examples include a certificate, deed, bond, contract, will, legislative act, notarial act, court writ or process, or any law passed by a competent legislative body in municipal (domestic) or international law.

6.1.1 National judicial systems and instruments

After the High Council of the judiciary, there is the Supreme Court as the coordinating organ of justice in Rwanda. It was instituted for the first time by the constitution of January 28th, 1962. It was composed of five members appointed by the president of the Republic.

It was also composed of five sections: Department of Courts and Tribunals, the Court of Appeals, the Constitutional Court, the Council of State and the Audit Office.

According to the constitution of December 28th, 1978, the Supreme Court with five sections was replaced by four high jurisdictions which were separated from each other. These included the Court of Appeals, the Constitutional Court (composed of the Court of Appeals and the Council of State) and the Audit Office.

During the post-genocide period (from 1994 to 2003) the Fundamental Law established the Supreme Court which consisted of five sections: the Department of Courts and Tribunals, the Court of Appeals, the Constitutional Court, the Council of State and the Auditor's Office.

With the April 18, 2000 reform to the Fundamental Law, it was provided with the sixth section named Department of "Gacaca jurisdictions". Apart from the Supreme Court, there is a High Court with the chamber of international crimes, the chamber of Nyanza in southern province, the chamber of Rusizi in western province, the chamber of Rwamagana in the eastern province and the chamber of Musanze in Northern Province. There are intermediate and primary courts in the districts of Nyarugenge, Gasabo, Nyagatare, Ngoma, Muhanga, Huye, Nyamagabe, Rusizi, Karongi, Rubavu, Gicumbi and Musanze.

The specialised courts include the Commercial High Court at Nyamirambo with its branches at Musanze and Huye, and the military courts.

Application activity 6.1



The ICC only steps in if a national judicial system is "unwilling or unable" to carry out the investigation. Does Rwanda's current judicial structure (Supreme Court, High Court, etc.) prove it is "able"? Justify your answer using the concept of Judicial Capacity.

1. If Rwanda hands the official over to the ICC, does it strengthen or weaken its National Sovereignty? Propose a "middle-ground" solution where both the national and international systems cooperate.
2. Drawing from Rwanda's history, argue whether Restorative Justice (healing the community) or Punitive Justice (punishing the individual via a global court) is more important in this specific case.

6.2 International Judicial Systems and Instruments

Learning activity 6.2



1. A sitting Head of State is accused of committing war crimes during an internal rebellion. The International Criminal Court (ICC) issues an arrest warrant, but the leader is currently attending a diplomatic summit in a neighbouring country that is a member of the ICC.

If the neighbouring country refuses to arrest the leader, citing “diplomatic immunity,” which legal principle should prevail: the sovereign immunity of a world leader or the mandate of international justice? Identify the long-term consequences for the ICC’s credibility if they cannot enforce the warrant?

2. Following a brutal conflict, an international tribunal is established to prosecute war crimes. However, the tribunal only investigates and charges members of the losing side, despite documented reports of human rights violations committed by the coalition that won the war.

Can an international judicial body be considered truly “impartial” if its existence depends on the political will (and funding) of powerful nations? How does the perception of “victor’s justice” affect the reconciliation process in the affected region?

6.2.1 International judicial system

The international judicial system refers to a combination of courts, tribunals, judges, magistrates and other adjudicators interpreting and applying the international law in the name of all nations to solve world disputes.

The International judicial system is mainly dominated by international courts (these are formed by treaties among nations or under the authority of an international organization such as the United Nations-especially since 1945) and include ad hoc tribunals and permanent institutions but exclude any courts arising purely under national authority.

The court covers a wide range of judicial activity. Chapter XIV of the United Nations Charter authorizes the UN Security Council to enforce the court’s rulings.

However, such enforcement is subject to the veto power of the five permanent members of the council. The International Criminal Court (ICC) is an intergovernmental organization and international tribunal that sits in The Hague in the Netherlands. The ICC has the jurisdiction to prosecute individuals for the international crimes of genocide, crimes against humanity, and war crimes.



Figure 6.2. International judicial system

The ICC is intended to complement existing national judicial systems and it may therefore only exercise its jurisdiction when certain conditions are met, such as when national courts are unwilling or unable to prosecute criminals or when the United Nations Security Council or individual states refer investigations to the court.

The ICC began functioning on 1st July 2002, the date that the Rome Official logo of ICC Statute entered into force.

The Rome Statute is a multilateral treaty, which serves, as the ICC's foundational and governing document. The states that become party to the Rome Statute are member states of the ICC. Currently, 124 states are party to the Rome Statute and therefore members of the ICC.

The establishment of an international tribunal to judge political leaders accused of international crimes was first proposed during the Paris Peace Conference in 1919 following the First World War by the Commission of Responsibilities.

The issue was addressed again at a conference held in Geneva under the auspices of the League of Nations in 1937. This resulted in the conclusion of the first convention stipulating the establishment of a permanent international court to try acts of international terrorism.

The convention was signed by 13 states, but none ratified it and it never entered into force.

Following the Second World War, the allied powers established two ad hoc tribunals to prosecute axis power leaders accused of war crimes.

The International Military Tribunal, which sat in Nuremberg, prosecuted German leaders while the International Military Tribunal for the Far East in Tokyo prosecuted Japanese leaders. In 1948, the United Nations General Assembly first recognized the need for a permanent international court to deal with atrocities of the kind prosecuted after the Second World War. At the request of the General Assembly, the International Law Commission (ILC) drafted two statutes by the early 1950s. These were abandoned during the Cold War that made the establishment of an international criminal court politically unrealistic.

In 1994, the ILC presented its final draft statute for the International Criminal Court to the General Assembly and recommended that a conference be convened to negotiate a treaty that would serve as the Court's statute.

To consider major substantive issues in the draft statute, the General Assembly established the ad Hoc Committee on the Establishment of an International Criminal Court, which met twice in 1995. After considering the committee's report, the General Assembly created the Preparatory Committee on the Establishment of the ICC to prepare a consolidated draft text.

From 1996 to 1998, six sessions of the Preparatory Committee were held at the United Nations headquarters in New York City, during which NGOs provided input and attended meetings under the umbrella organization of the Coalition for an ICC (CICC). In January 1998, the Bureau and coordinators of the Preparatory Committee convened for an Inter-Sessional meeting in Zutphen in the Netherlands to technically consolidate and restructure the draft articles into a draft.

Finally, the General Assembly convened a conference in Rome in June 1998, with the aim of finalizing the treaty to serve as the court's statute.

On 17 July 1998, the Rome Statute of the International Criminal Court was adopted by a vote of 120 to 7, with 21 countries abstaining. The seven countries that voted against the treaty were China, Iraq, Israel, Libya, Qatar, the United States, and Yemen. Following 60 ratifications, the Rome

Statute entered into force on 1 July 2002 and the International Criminal Court was formally established. The Assembly of States Parties elected the first bench of 18 judges in February 2003. They were sworn in at the inaugural session of the court on 11 March 2003.

The court issued its first arrest warrants on 8 July 2005, and the first pretrial hearings were held in 2006. The court issued its first judgment in 2012 when it found Congolese rebel leader Thomas Lubanga Dyilo guilty of war crimes related to using child soldiers.

6.2.2 International judicial instrument

An International judicial instrument is any international legal instrument (legal document) recorded with and authenticated by international bodies in the respect of the international law. The international legal instrument obliges all states to enact, implement and monitor legislation agreed upon by all states parties.

International judicial instruments include Charters, Constitutions, Treaties (agreement, protocol, covenant, convention, pact, or exchange of letters), Universal declarations, recommendations, etc.

Application activity 6.2



1. A neighbouring country is recovering from a conflict involving widespread human rights violations. The local court system is currently too weak to handle high-level perpetrators fairly. Based on the principle of complementarity, explain under what specific conditions the International Criminal Court (ICC) would intervene. In your opinion, would this intervention help or hinder the long-term sovereignty of that nation? Justify your answer.
2. A dispute has arisen between two countries over the boundaries of their territorial waters, where a major oil reserve was recently discovered. Identify the most appropriate international judicial instrument or body to resolve this dispute and write a brief "memo" to the Ministry of Foreign Affairs outlining why this specific body is the best choice compared to a bilateral negotiation.
3. Research a past landmark case from the International Criminal Tribunal for Rwanda (ICTR) or the International Court of Justice (ICJ). Evaluate the effectiveness of ICTR and show how the "instrument" used achieved its goal of providing justice or maintaining peace. Suggest one way the international community could have improved the enforcement of that specific judgment to ensure better "real-world" results.

6.3 Structure and Organization of the International Judicial Systems

Learning activity 6.3



1. The International Court of Justice (ICJ) and the International Criminal Court (ICC) are both located in The Hague, but they have very different “targets.” Who are the primary parties that can be brought before each court?
2. How does the structure of the International Criminal Court (ICC) ensure that investigations remain independent from the judges who decide the final verdict?
3. If the United Nations (UN) is not a world government, where does a body like the International Court of Justice (ICJ) get its authority to make rulings that countries must follow?
4. Why is the Registry considered the “backbone” of the International Criminal Court’s organization, even though it doesn’t involve judges or lawyers?

Since 1945, the United Nations has dominated the international legal system and the structures were established as part of that organization.

By a resolution by United Nations on 18 April 1946 (Adoption of UN charter and Statute of the ICJ, 1945), International Court of Justice replaced the Permanent Court of International Justice, often called the World Court, attached to the League of Nations that that existed from 1922 to 1946.

It is the chief judicial organ of the United Nations. Its structure involves:

- **Presidency, Chambers and Committees, Judges adhoc and the Registry.**

The ICJ is composed of fifteen judges elected to nine-year terms by the U General Assembly and the UN Security Council from a list of people nominated by the national groups in the Permanent Court of Arbitration.

The election process is set out in Articles 4–19 of the ICJ statute. Five judges are elected every three years to ensure continuity within the court. Should a judge die in office, the practice has generally been to elect a judge in a special election to complete the term. No two judges may be nationals of the same country.

According to Article 9, the membership of the court is supposed to represent the “main forms of civilization and of the principal legal systems of the world”. Essentially, that has meant common law, civil law and socialist law (now post-communist law).

There is an informal understanding that the seats will be distributed by geographic regions so that there are five seats for western countries, three for African states (including one judge of Francophone civil law, one of Anglophone common law and one Arab), two for eastern European states, three for Asian states and two for Latin American and Caribbean states.

The five permanent members of the United Nations Security Council (France, Russia, China, the United Kingdom, and the United States) always have a judge on the court,

thereby occupying three of the western seats, one of the Asian seats and one of the eastern European seats. The exception was China, which did not have a judge on the court from 1967 to 1985 because it did not put forward a candidate.

Article 6 of the statute provides that all judges should be “elected regardless of their nationality among persons of high moral character who are either qualified for the highest judicial office in their home states or known as lawyers with sufficient competence in international law.

Judicial independence is dealt with specifically in articles 16–18. Judges of the ICJ are not able to hold any other post or act as counsel. In practice, members of the court have their own interpretation of these rules and allow them to be involved in outside arbitration, hold professional posts as long as there is no conflict of interest.

A judge can be dismissed only by a unanimous vote of the other members of the court. Despite these provisions, the independence of ICJ judges has been questioned.

For example, during the Nicaragua Case, the United States issued a communiqué suggesting that it could not present sensitive material to the court because of the presence of judges from eastern bloc states.

Judges may deliver joint judgments or give their own separate opinions. Decisions and advisory opinions are by majority. In the event of an equal division, the President's vote becomes decisive. Judges may also deliver separate dissenting opinions.

Generally, the court sits as full bench, but in the last fifteen years, it has on occasion sat as a chamber. Articles 26–29 of the statute allow the court to form smaller chambers, usually of 3 or 5 judges, to hear cases. Two types of chambers are provided for in article 26. These are chambers for special categories of cases, and ad hoc chambers to hear particular disputes.

In 1993, a special chamber was established, under Article 26 (1) of the ICJ statute, to deal specifically with environmental matters.

All members of the UN are automatically parties to the Statute of the International Court of Justice. The jurisdiction of the ICJ in “contentious disputes” between States is subject to the principle of consent. The ICJ also has advisory jurisdiction.

The UN Security Council and the UN General Assembly may request advisory opinions on any legal question. The UN General Assembly may also authorize other UN organs or specialized agencies to request advisory opinions on legal questions arising within the scope of their activities.

- **Organization of the International Criminal Court**

The ICC is governed by an assembly of states parties, which is made up of the states that are party to the Rome Statute. The assembly elects officials of the court, approves its budget, and adopts amendments to the Rome Statute. The court itself, however, is composed of four organs:

The presidency, the judicial divisions, the Office of the Prosecutor, and the registry. The presidency is responsible for the proper administration of the court (apart from the Office of the Prosecutor). It comprises the president and the first and second vice-presidents—three judges of the court who are elected to the presidency by their

fellow judges for a maximum of two three-year terms.

The judicial divisions consist of the 18 judges of the court, organized into three chambers; the pre-trial chamber, trial chamber and appeals chamber that carry out the judicial functions of the court. The Assembly of States Parties elects judges to the court. They serve nine-year terms and are not generally eligible for re-election.

All judges must be nationals of states party to the Rome Statute, and no two judges may be nationals of the same state. They must be “persons of high moral character, impartiality and integrity who possess the qualifications required in their respective states for appointment to the highest judicial offices”.

The Office of the Prosecutor is responsible for conducting investigations and prosecutions. The chief prosecutor, who is assisted by one or more deputy prosecutors, heads it.

The Rome Statute provides that the Office of the Prosecutor shall act independently. No member of the office may seek or act on instructions from any external source, such as states, international organizations, nongovernmental organizations or individuals.

The Registry is responsible for the non-judicial aspects of the administration and servicing of the court. This includes, among other things, the administration of legal aid matters, court management, victims and witnesses’ matters, defense counsel, detention unit, and the traditional services provided by administrations in international organizations, such as finance, translation, building management, procurement and personnel.

The registrar, who is elected by the judges to a five-year term, heads the Registry.

Application activity 6.3



1. Historically, justice in Rwanda was often denied through “divisionism” and the manipulation of the judicial system by previous regimes (e.g., the ethnic quota systems in education and public service). Compare the Gacaca Court system (post-1994) with the pre-1994 formal judicial system. Analyze how the Gacaca system specifically addressed the “delay” of justice caused by the massive number of suspects after the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi. Did this traditional approach succeed where a purely international or formal system might have failed? Provide two pieces of evidence to support your answer.
2. You are representing a group of citizens who feel that their legal case has been “delayed” for over five years in a modern court system, echoing the historical grievances of justice denied in Rwanda’s past. Identify three specific “ways” justice was historically delayed in Rwanda (such as corruption, lack of qualified staff, or political interference). For each, propose a modern judicial reform or “instrument” that could prevent these same delays today and explain how you would measure if your proposed reform is actually working.

3. A international legal critic claims that “International Courts are too slow to be useful for developing nations like Rwanda.” Evaluate this statement by looking at the International Criminal Tribunal for Rwanda (ICTR). Discuss how the distance of the court (Arusha, Tanzania) and the length of trials contributed to the feeling that justice was being “delayed” for survivors. If you were to redesign an international tribunal today, what one structural change would you make to ensure justice is delivered more “meaningfully” to the victims in their home country?

6.4 Ways in which justice has been denied and delayed in Rwanda

Learning activity 6.4



1. How does the “culture of impunity” from 1962 contribute to the eventual execution of the 1994 Genocide?
2. If the government had not introduced Gacaca, what would have been the long-term impact on the Rwandan economy and social reconciliation?
3. Why is the “right to a fair trial” considered a fundamental judicial instrument, and how was it violated during the First Republic?

6.4.1 The institutionalization of impunity (1962–1994)

During the First and Second Republics, justice was not merely delayed; it was systematically denied through a state-sponsored culture of impunity. Impunity occurs when perpetrators of crimes are exempt from punishment, often because of their political affiliations or the state’s ideology.

A. The First Republic (1962–1973): Administrative Injustice

Under President Grégoire Kayibanda, the legal system was used as a tool of exclusion rather than protection.

- **Targeted Killings and Confiscation:** In December 1963, following an Inyenzi attack, the government retaliated against innocent Tutsi civilians. In Gikongoro alone, over 15,000 were massacred. No judicial inquiries were launched, and no arrests were made. This signaled to the public that killing Tutsis carried no legal consequence.
- **Execution of political opposition:** The execution of 27 leaders from UNAR and RADER in Ruhengeri without trial remains a landmark case of the denial of the right to a fair trial. By bypassing the courts, the executive branch effectively paralyzed the judiciary.

B. The Second Republic (1973–1994): judicial silence

Under Juvénal Habyarimana, discrimination was formalized through the “Policy of Ethnic and Regional Balance.”

- **Educational and professional purges:** In 1973, Tutsis were systematically chased from schools and civil service jobs. The courts, which should have protected citizens against labor discrimination and the violation of the right to education, remained silent.
- **Pre-Genocide massacres (1990–1993):** As the Liberation War began, the state tested the machinery of genocide. International human rights groups documented attacks against the Bagogwe in the North, the Bahima in Mutara, and Tutsis in Bugesera and Kibuye. However, the Rwandan national prosecution service refused to indict the soldiers and *Interahamwe* leaders responsible, reinforcing the idea that “state enemies” had no legal rights.

6.4.2 Post-1994: the crisis of “delayed justice”

After the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi, the new government faced a judicial vacuum. Justice was delayed not by a lack of will, but by a total collapse of national infrastructure.

A. The structural collapse of the judiciary

- **Human Resource Deficit:** The genocide targeted the intelligentsia. Most judges, lawyers, and registrars were either killed or had fled the country. In 1994, there were fewer than 50 practicing lawyers left in the entire country.
- **Physical infrastructure:** Courtrooms were destroyed, and archives containing land titles and criminal records were burnt. The “instrument” of justice (the court) physically did not exist.

B. The legal vacuum: *Nullum crimen sine lege*

A fundamental principle of justice is *nullum crimen sine lege* (no crime without a law). In 1994, Rwanda’s penal code did not have specific provisions for the “crime of genocide,” even though it had signed the 1948 UN Genocide Convention.

- **The 1996 Organic Law:** It took until 1996 for the government to adopt the “Organic Law on the Organization of Prosecutions for Offenses Constituting the Crime of Genocide.” This delay meant thousands of suspects remained in pre-trial detention without clear charges for years.

C. The Paradox of Numbers

By the late 1990s, over **120,000 suspects** were crowded into Rwandan prisons.

- **The “Two-Hundred-Year” Problem:** Legal experts estimated that using the standard “Ordinary Court” system, it would take more than **200 years** to try every suspect fairly. This was a classic case of “justice delayed is justice denied” for both the survivors (who saw no closure) and the accused (who remained in prison without trial).

6.4.3 Innovative Solutions: The Gacaca Transition

To address the delay, Rwanda had to innovate. The re-introduction of **Gacaca Courts** in 2005 (based on the Organic Law No. 40/2000) was a direct response to the failure of the ordinary judicial system to provide timely justice. The main goal was to achieve truth-telling, accelerate trials, and promote national unity. *Gacaca* processed over 1.9 million cases in a decade, a feat impossible for international or ordinary national courts.

Application activity 6.4



1. Compare the "Denial of Justice" during the First and Second Republics with the "Delay of Justice" immediately following the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi. What is the fundamental difference in the cause of these two problems?
2. Analyse how the execution of political leaders in Ruhengeri in 1963 without a trial violate the principle of "Equality before the Law"?
3. Legal experts in the late 1990s estimated it would take over 200 years to try all genocide suspects in ordinary courts. If the government had accepted this delay instead of creating Gacaca. Explain how this have affected the "Right to a Fair Trial" for the accused?
4. In the context of the "Culture of Impunity" that prevailed before 1994, why was the confession and plea-guilt procedure in the Gacaca courts considered a revolutionary judicial tool?

6.5 End of unit assessment



Section A. Knowledge and Understanding

1. Define the term "Judicial Instrument" and provide one example each for a national and international context.
2. Outline the hierarchy of the ordinary court system in Rwanda from the lowest to the highest level.
3. Identify three structural organs of the International Criminal Court (ICC).

Section B. Skills

1. A dispute arises between two neighbouring countries over the ownership of a border river. Analyse which international judicial body should handle this case and justify why.
2. Compare the "Ordinary Court" system with the "Gacaca Court" system in terms of their ability to handle the post-1994 judicial backlog.
3. Use the principle of "Complementarity" to explain when the International Criminal Court (ICC) is allowed to intervene in a national matter.

Section C. Attitudes and values

1. Evaluate the impact of the "culture of impunity" during the First and Second Republics on the social fabric of Rwanda.
2. Why is "Judicial Independence" considering a vital value for a democratic society? Justify your answer using examples of "Justice Denied" in Rwanda's history.
3. In your opinion, which is more important for a country recovering from conflict: Retributive Justice (punishment) or Restorative Justice (healing and reconciliation)? Justify your choice.

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UNIT 7 THE NATIONAL DUTIES AND OBLIGATIONS



Figure 7.1. The national duties and obligations



Key Unit Competence:

Analyse the national duties and obligations for a trained responsible citizen.

Learning objectives

At the end of this unit you should be able to:

Knowledge and understanding

1

- Describe the national duties and obligations (Itorero, Community policing, Imihigo, Umuganda).
- Explain the structure of the national duties and obligations in the nation building.
- Explain the role played by the national duties and obligations in the development of the country.
- Identify the contributions of the Rwandan citizens and non-citizens toward Itorero, Community policing, Imihigo and Umuganda.
- Explain the challenges faced during the implementation of the national duties and obligations.

Skills

2

- Analyze the national duties and obligations (Itorero, Community policing, Imihigo, Umuganda).
- Describe the structure of the national duties and obligations for nation building.
- Examine the role played by Itorero, Community policing, Imihigo and Umuganda towards the development of the country since their commencement.
- Analyze the contribution of the Rwandan citizens and non-citizens towards the national duties and obligations (Itorero, Community; Imihigo and Umuganda)
- Evaluate the challenges faced during the implementation of the national duties and obligations

Attitudes and values

3

- Appreciate the national duties and obligations (Itorero, Community policing, Imihigo, Umuganda)
- Judge the structure of the national duties and obligations for nation building.
- Value the importance of national duties and obligations so as help develop the spirit of hard work and self- reliance.
- Acknowledge the contribution of the national duties and obligations to the development of the country to cultivate love of one's nation.
- Judge the challenges faced during the implementation of the national duties and obligations.

Introduction

The primary purpose of this unit is to instill a sense of patriotism and civic responsibility in Senior 5 students. It aims to transform students into active "*Intore*" (exemplary citizens) who understand that the development, security, and dignity of Rwanda are shared responsibilities. By studying this unit, students move beyond theoretical knowledge to practical engagement in the country's "Home Grown Solutions."

This unit covers the historical and cultural foundations of national service in Rwanda. It explores the practical implementation of civic duties, including the concept of *Itorero*, National Service (*Urugerero*), Community Engagement, the Rights-Responsibilities Balance.

Key Words and Concepts

To master this unit, students must grasp these core terms: ***Intore*, *Urugerero*, *Umuganda*, *Imihigo*, Patriotism, Civic Education, and Community Policing.**

Introductory activity 7



"Imagine a vibrant village called Ubuntu. Recently, the village has faced three major challenges: a bridge collapsed after a heavy rain, there has been a rise in petty theft at the local market, and many elderly residents have homes that need urgent repair. The government has a small budget, but it is not enough to hire private companies to fix everything at once."

Questions

1. Discuss Why is it better for the villagers to fix the bridge themselves rather than waiting months for a contractor?
2. If you were a Senior 5 student living in Ubuntu, propose an activity that you would lead, and what values would you need to succeed?

7.1 Itorero ry'Igihugu

Learning activity 7.1



1. Traditionally, Itorero was a space for training warriors (Intore) in military skills and rhetoric. In today's peaceful Rwanda, explain what to be an Intore means and explain how the definition of 'heroism' or 'defending the country' has shifted from physical combat to socio-economic development.
2. The Urugerero phase involves students participating in community development projects. If a student completes their national service but does not change their daily behavior toward their neighbors, has the Itorero failed? Differentiate between performing a <national duty> and actually internalizing <Rwandan values>.
3. One of the core objectives of Itorero is to equip Rwandans with the capacity to solve their own problems. Explain how can a country be truly independent if its citizens do not practice the values of volunteerism and selflessness. How does Itorero reduce Rwanda's dependence on external aid at the community level?»
4. Itorero focuses heavily on <Rwandanness' over divisive ethnic affiliations. Explain how the specific cultural elements taught in Itorero, such as the Kinyarwanda language, traditional dance, and national taboos (Kirazira), act as a 'shield' against the ideology of genocide that you studied in the previous section.

In precolonial Rwanda, the Itorero was a cultural school. It was also the channel through which the nation conveyed messages on national culture to the people. This included information on language, patriotism, social relations, sports, dances and songs, and defence of the nation.

It also played the role of a national forum for grooming leaders. Itorero trainees would delve deeply in discussions relating to national programmes and Rwanda's cultural values with the aim of reaching a common vision and instilling in themselves the virtues of humility, good conduct, and common understanding of what the country would expect of them, and the role of interdependence in the building of healthy socio-economic relations.

Today, the Itorero is a Rwandan civic education institution which teaches Rwandese to preserve their culture by believing in national unity, social solidarity, patriotism, integrity, bravery, tolerance, and the dos and don'ts of the society. Through Itorero Rwandans are also informed of government policies and programmes. This strengthens ownership of government programmes and promotes the role of the population in their implementation.

7.1.1 Historical background of Itorero ry'Igihugu

Itorero ry'Igihugu was a school in which a sense of patriotism, voluntarism and commitment to service was developed. Its activities included, military training, sports, and artistic expression that reflected patience, patriotism, heroism, and keeping

secrets, recitals and music. Consequently, young people grew up with a good understanding and attachment to their culture.

It was also through *Itorero ry'Igihugu* that future leaders were trained. They were taught cultural taboos, virtues of hard work, voluntarism, mutual aid and collaboration with others. It was through the activities of *Itorero ry'Igihugu* that Rwanda as a nation expanded and developed. *Itorero* was for boys. Girls were educated in *urubohero* where they learned to perform household activities like the art of making mats.

During colonial rule these institutions were suppressed, and replaced by schools which exclusively focused on the cultural aspects of music and dancing. The suppression of institutions such as *Itorero ry'Igihugu*, which brought Rwandans together in a non-discriminatory manner, led to the development of divisions that partly led to the 1994 genocide against the Tutsi.

Between May 1998 and March 1999, the consultative meetings in *Urugwiro* recommended the revival of cultural values to promote good behaviors of citizens. It is in this spirit that the Rwanda government decided to draw from the Rwandan culture some home grown solutions to address challenges in governance, the economy and social welfare.

The idea of re-establishing *Itorero ry'Igihugu* was adopted during the leadership retreat that took place in Akagera in February 2007. It is in this perspective that the cabinet meeting of 12th November 2007 decided to revive *Itorero ry'Igihugu* and use it to instill a new mindset among Rwandans for speedy achievement of the development goals enshrined in Vision 2020.

Itorero ry'Igihugu was later revived at the official launch presided upon by His Excellency the President of the Republic of Rwanda on 16/11/2007 in the parliament buildings.

7.1.2 Rationale behind *Itorero ry'Igihugu*

Before colonialism, *Itorero ry'Igihugu* functioned as a school in which Rwandans would be mentored in Rwandan culture, and the values and taboos involved. This encouraged mutual respect, social cohesion, national unity, patriotism, integrity, harmony and other virtues.

These teachings were intended to help the young people to understand and uphold their culture. *Intore*, would be mainly trained in debating matters of national interest and in Rwandan cultural values.

Itorero ry'Igihugu has the objective of training self-respecting citizens who are identified by their national values, and are eager to quickly embrace innovations that have positive impact on their social welfare.

Itorero ry'Igihugu also aims at cultivating visionary, patriotic, and exemplary leaders who promote the well-being of people at all levels of governance.

A culture of selflessness and volunteerism is also being revived and entrenched among Rwandans. The mediation committees, *Gacaca's* people of integrity, community health counselors, the National Youth Council members, Women Council members and counselors at various administrative levels constitute groups of volunteers in the service of the nation.

What the *Itorero ry'igihugu* teaches is unique because it is based on principles and values of Rwandan culture. On the other hand, *Urugerero* (National Service) has much in common with what takes place in other countries.

Participating in *Itorero* is the obligation of every Rwandan, regardless of status and social group. Participants include children from the age of seven years and the youth from 18 to 35 years. For the latter age group, participating in *Urugerero* is obligatory.

7.1.3 Specific objectives of *Itorero ry'Igihugu*

The specific objectives of *Itorero ry'Igihugu* are to:

- Equip Rwandans with the capacity to analyze their problems in order to find solutions;
- Promote the Kinyarwanda language;
- Mentor Rwandans in collective action, team spirit and promotion of innovation and performance contracts;
- Mentor Rwandans to understand and participate in the implementation of national programmes;
- Educate Rwandans to be physically fit, clean in their homes, protect the environment, strengthen democracy, engage in constructive debate, enforce the law, and fight corruption and violence;
- Educate Rwandans in building and promoting the culture of peace based on mutual trust, respect, humility, respect of human rights, and protection against discrimination and genocide ideology;
- Educate Rwandans to be efficient in service delivery, courageous, and to deliver goods and efficient services.

a. Vision

Rwandans should:

- Have a shared mindset and values to promote their unity and patriotism;
- Be aware of the goals of the country, ways to achieve them and their contribution in implementing them;
- Be self-confident in solving their problems;
- Have a shared vision to strive for self-development and pride to develop their country.

b. Mission

To mentor Intore with:

- Values based on Rwandan culture;
- Motivation for positive change;
- A desire to promote opportunities for development using Rwandan cultural values; identify taboos that inhibit the development of the country; fight violence and corruption; eradicate the culture of impunity; strengthen the culture of

peace, tolerance, unity and reconciliation; and eradicate genocide ideology and all its roots;

- Respect for dignity (*ishema*) and the heroic aspects (*ibigwi*) of Rwandan culture and Rwanda's national values;
- Speed and respect for time: A country in hurry;
- Customer service mentality: Constant improvement and anticipation;
- Quality of delivery: High standards, spirit of excellence, efficiency;
- Completion or aiming at results: we finish what we start;
- Self-respect: National pride.

c. Rwanda's national taboos

These are some of national taboos:

- Inattention to results: status and ego;
- Avoidance of accountability: missed deadlines;
- Lack of commitment: ambiguity;
- Fear of conflict: artificial harmony;
- Lack of trust: invulnerability.

7.1.4 The revival of *Itorero ry'Igihugu*

The idea of revival of *Itorero ry'Igihugu* came from National Leadership decision in Akagera Hotel on February 26th, 2007. From that time, all activities related to *Itorero* were operating under the National Unity and Reconciliation Commission.

From November 16th, 2007, *Itorero ry'Igihugu* was launched by His Excellency President Paul Kagame at *Amahoro* stadium. Each district's regiment presented their performance contract at that colorful ceremony which was marked by cultural festivals. Each district's *Intore* regiment publicly announced its identification name.

At the national level, all the 30 district *intore* regiments constitute one national *Itorero*, but each district regiment has its Identification Name. Each district regiment may have an affiliate sub-division that can also carry a different identification name.

In 2013, the National *Itorero* Commission (NIC) was formalized by law No 41/2013 of 16.3.2013, which determined its mission, organization and functioning.

In order to enable each *Intore* to benefit and experience change of mindset, each group chooses its identification name and sets objectives it must achieve. Those projected objectives must be achieved during or after training, and this is confirmed by the performance contracts that have to be accomplished. With this obligation in mind, each individual also sets personal objective that in turn contributes to the success of the corporate objectives.

The number of *Intore* who have been trained at the village level is 814,587. Those mentored at the national level carry out mentoring in villages, schools, and at work places. In total, 1,098, 599 Rwandans have been mentored.

In September 2021, the National Itorero Commission was phased out as an independent commission and its responsibilities and functions were into the newly created Ministry of National Unity and Civic Engagement (MINUBUMWE).

7.2 Urugerero (National Service)

Learning activity 7.2



1. Imagine your village has a high number of children dropping out of school because they lack basic materials, and a nearby bridge used by students is broken. Your **Urugerero** unit has no budget or external funding. Using the principle of Self-Reliance (Kwigira), how would you organize your fellow **Intore** to solve these two problems using only local resources? Which problem would you prioritize first, and how does this act of service strengthen the bond between the youth and the elders in that community?»
2. Some people argue that **Urugerero** should only consist of physical labor, like building houses for the vulnerable or planting trees (environmental protection). Others argue it should focus on "Intellectual Service," such as teaching literacy or sensitizing people about health. If you had to choose, which form of service (physical labor or intellectual sensitization) has a more lasting impact on Rwanda's goal of 'Vision 2050'? Explain your answer and analyze if **Urugerero** can be successful if it only changes the physical landscape but doesn't change the mindset (Imihigo) of the people performing it.
3. During your **Urugerero** service, you encounter a peer who is talented and hardworking but refuses to participate in traditional activities like **Gutarama** (cultural evening) or learning about **Kirazira** (taboos), claiming these are "outdated" traditions. Explain how you would convince this peer that Rwandan cultural values are the 'foundation' of our national security and development. In what ways does practicing Rwandanness (Ubanyarwanda) during national service prevent the return of the 'divisionism' that led to the genocide in the past?

As a part of *Itorero* activities, the plans to implement *Urugerero* (National Service) started toward the end of 2012 and the actual implementation started in 2013. Despite this short time however, *Urugerero* program has started to yield impressive results. Students who completed secondary school in 2012 went through *Itorero* mentorship between 30/11 and 17/12/ 2012.

Upon completion of the prescribed course, participants were given certificates. Later, they had to join *Urugerero* where they participated in various activities designed to promote social cohesion, community wellness and national development.

Intore mentored at that time totaled to 40,730. Among them, 19,285 were female, while 21,445 were male. However, those who joined *Urugerero* were 37,660, with 18,675 female participants. According to the policy of *Itorero ry' Igihugu*, volunteerism refers to any unpaid communal work, voluntarily undertaken in the service of the nation. Volunteerism is reflected in various community works such as *Umuganda*, *Ubudehe* and contributions to a common cause.

Other voluntary activities are from community mediators, various councils, community health workers, Community Policing Committees/CPCs, and Red Cross volunteers. Actual *Urugerero* activities started on 17/1/2013, but they were officially launched on 22/1/2013. The activities included general community sensitization, collection of essential data base, and community work in support of vulnerable groups.

The pioneer group of *Urugerero* achieved the following:

- Sensitizing Rwandans on the eradication of genocide and its ideology and encouraging them to participate in activities organized to commemorate the genocide committed against Tutsi in 1994.
- Sensitizing the community on the importance of mutual health insurance, adult literacy, fighting against drug abuse, legalizing marriages especially for families that are cohabitating, and environmental protection. Organizing meetings at village levels
- Educating the community on Rwandan cultural values, unity, patriotism, and development.
- Educating the population on personal hygiene and cleanliness of their environment.
- Some groups of *Intore* in *Urugerero* opted to demonstrate how speedy and exceptional service could be rendered while working with various public offices. This was done in health centers, cell offices, and District offices, especially in the issuing of documents, data entry in computers and customer care.

Activities relating to manual community work include vegetable gardening for family consumption, construction of shelters for vulnerable families, participation in the construction of cell offices and landscaping of their compounds.

In environmental protection, *Intore* constructed terraces and planted trees as a measure of preventing soil erosion.

Activities relating to the promotion of the volunteer services in National Development Programmes: In Rwandan culture, "volunteerism" means rendering a sacrificial and selfless service out of love either to a national cause or to a needy neighbour.

Below, we look at the outcome, outputs and activities relating to fraternity, national identity and participation in national programmes through *Urugerero*.

Application activity 7.2



Create a Community service proposal that you would present to the Village Council. Your proposal must include:

- The Identification: Choose one real-life problem currently affecting your neighborhood.
- The Values: Explain which Rwandan values (learned in Itotero) will guide your team while solving this problem.
- The Action Plan (The Urugerero Element): Design a 3-month volunteer schedule. What specific activities will the youth perform? How will you mobilize others to join you without requiring a large budget?
- Impact Analysis: Predict how this project will change the community's mindset or well-being by the end of the year.

Questions

1. How does your plan demonstrate the "Self-reliance" (*Kwigira*) principle?
2. How will you handle a situation where some community members are reluctant to participate?

7.3 Umuganda (community work)

Learning activity 7.3



1. If the primary goal of Umuganda was simply to clean the streets, we could hire a private company to do it. Explain why the government insist that neighbors must do the work together and how does physical labor shared between people who may have historical grievances help in the process of 'Unity and Reconciliation.
2. Every month, millions of sequence-hours of labor are contributed through Umuganda. If you were to calculate the monetary value of a school wing or a road built during Umuganda, analyze how this directly impacts Rwanda's national budget and its goal of self-reliance? What would happen to these projects if Umuganda were abolished tomorrow?
3. The second part of Umuganda is the community meeting (Inama). Why is this meeting often considered more important than the physical work itself? Analyze how this space does allow a regular citizen to participate in governance and decision-making at the village level.
4. Some people view Umuganda as a 'mandatory chore' or a loss of a Saturday morning. Explain how you would argue that participating in Umuganda is actually an exercise of patriotism rather than just a legal obligation. In what ways does skipping Umuganda weaken the 'social contract' between a citizen and their community?

As part of efforts to reconstruct Rwanda and nurture a shared national identity, the government of Rwanda drew on aspects of Rwandan culture and traditional practices to enrich and adapt its development programs to the country's needs and context. The result is a set of home-grown solutions from culturally owned practices translated into sustainable development programs. One of these home-grown solutions is Umuganda.

Modern day Umuganda can be described as community work. On the last Saturday of each month, communities come together to do a variety of public works. This often includes infrastructure development and environmental protection. Rwandans between 18 and 65 years of age are obliged to participate in Umuganda. Expatriates living in Rwanda are encouraged to take part. Today close to 80 per cent of Rwandans take part in monthly community work.

As part of Vision 2020 development program, the government implemented Umuganda a community service policy. It was designed to help supplement the national budget in construction and the repair of basic infrastructure. The work done is organized by community members and is done voluntarily and without pay. The projects completed through Umuganda include, the construction of schools, feeder roads, road repair, terracing, reforestation, home construction for vulnerable people, erosion control, and water canals.



Figure 7.2. People doing umuganda activities. (Source: www.rwandapedia.rw)

The goals of *Umuganda*:

- Supplement national resources by doing specific activities;
- Instill a culture of collective effort in the population;
- Resolve problems faced by the population using locally available resources;
- Restore the dignity of manual labor.

Planning for *Umuganda* is done in council meetings at the cell level. It is the responsibility of local leaders as well as national leaders to mobilize the population to participate in *Umuganda*. Community members meet and agree on the date (usually a weekend) and the activity.

Participation in *Umuganda* is compulsory for all able-bodied citizens. This policy is expected to lead to a more cohesive society as all the members come together to complete a project that benefits the community.

The word *Umuganda* can be translated as 'coming together for common purpose to achieve an outcome'. In traditional Rwandan culture, members of the community would call upon their family, friends and neighbors to help them complete a difficult task.

Achievements of Umuganda

Successful projects include the building of schools, medical centers and hydroelectric plants as well as rehabilitating wetlands and creating highly productive agricultural plots. The value of *Umuganda* to the country's development since 2007 has been estimated at more than US \$60 million. Professionals in the public and private sectors also contribute to *umuganda*.

They include engineers, medics, IT specialists, and statisticians, among others. The military personnel also participate in social activities like the building of schools and hospitals. This inspires the population to be very active as well.

Umuganda value has increased from Rwf12 billion in 2012 to Rwf17 billion in 2015 and Rwf19 billion in 2016. With the increase in monetary activities, *Umuganda* has seen Rwandans build over 400 offices of micro finance institutions commonly known as *Umurenge Sacco*, and 11,000 classrooms for the country's 'twelve-year basic education' which has increased school enrolment to over 95 per cent of children in Primary Schools.

Application activity 7.3



Attendance at Umuganda in your local cell has been declining, and the community feels the activities (mostly cleaning roads) are becoming repetitive. As a Senior 5 student who understands National Duties and Responsibilities, you have been appointed to the Community Development Committee to modernize the next Umuganda session to make it more impactful and engaging.

Working in "Village Task Forces", your goal is to Design an Innovative Umuganda Project Proposal. Your proposal must move beyond simple cleaning and address a complex socio-economic need.

Questions

1. Identify a specific, non-obvious need in your community (e.g., repairing a bridge for school children, creating a community kitchen garden for the elderly, or a "skills-exchange" station during the post-work meeting).
2. List what local materials and "human capital" (skills like masonry, nursing, or teaching) can be used without requesting government funds.
3. Outline a 15-minute educational "flash talk" you would deliver to the community after the work is done. What specific duty or responsibility will you remind them of?
4. Analysis of Sustainability: Explain how the community will maintain the result of this work once the Saturday morning session is over.

7.4. Imihigo

Learning activity 7.4



1. A District Mayor signs an Imihigo to build 50 new classrooms and provide clean water to 100% of the residents within one year. However, halfway through the year, a natural disaster occurs, and the budget must be diverted to emergency relief.

If the Mayor fails to meet the original targets, should they be penalized? How does the principle of Imihigo handle <unforeseen circumstances> while still maintaining accountability? Is it better to set <safe> easy targets or <ambitious> difficult ones?»

2. In the race to be ranked #1 in the national Imihigo evaluation, a local leader rushes the construction of a community market. The market is finished ahead of schedule, but the roof is weak, and the traders find it too small for their needs.

If an Imihigo target is <checked off> on paper but doesn't actually improve the lives of the citizens, has the leader truly fulfilled their contract? How can the Evaluation Stage of Imihigo be improved to ensure that <quality> and <citizen satisfaction> are valued as much as <completion>?

3. You are a Senior 5 student. You realize that your grades in History and Citizenship are dropping, and you are often late for school. You decide to apply the cultural practice of Guhigura (setting a personal performance goal).

If you were to write a personal Imihigo for this term, what three specific, measurable targets would you set? How does declaring these goals publicly to your teacher or parents change your level of commitment compared to just keeping the goal in your head?

Imihigo is the plural Kinyarwanda word of Umuhigo, which means to vow to deliver. Imihigo also includes the concept of Guhiganwa, which means to compete.

Imihigo describes the pre-colonial cultural practice in Rwanda where an individual sets targets or goals to be achieved within a specific period. The person must complete these objectives by following guiding principles and be determined to overcome any possible challenges that arise.

Imihigo is one of the homegrown solutions. In 2000, a shift in the responsibilities at all levels of government because of a decentralization programme required a new approach to monitoring and evaluation.

Local levels of government were now responsible for implementing development programmes that meant that the central government and people of Rwanda needed a way to ensure accountability.

In 2006, Imihigo (also known as performance contracts) was introduced to address this need. Since its introduction, Imihigo has been credited with improving accountability and quickening the pace of citizen centered development activities and programmes.

The practice of Imihigo has now been extended to ministries, embassies and public service staff.

In the application of Imihigo, the districts are responsible for implementing programmes under this broad agenda while central government assumes the task of planning and facilitation. Planning ensures that the national objectives of growth and poverty reduction are achieved.

The decentralization policy is also designed to deepen and sustain grassroots based democratic governance. It promotes equitable local development by enhancing participation and strengthening the local government system, while maintaining effective functional and mutually accountable linkages between central and local governments.

This entails enhancing participation, promoting the culture of accountability, and fast-tracking and sustaining equitable local development as a mechanism to enhance local fiscal autonomy.

It also means employment and poverty reduction and enhancing effectiveness and efficiency in the planning, monitoring, and delivery of services. The principle of subsidiary underpins the decentralization policy, which is designed to ensure transparency and accountability for local service delivery through participation in planning. This also applies to civil society, faith-based organizations, the private sector, and development partners.

7.4.1 Impact of Imihigo

Rwanda has made tremendous progress in socio-economic advancement in the last decade. Over the Economic Development and Poverty Reduction Strategy (EDPRS) 1 period, the average real GDP (Gross Domestic Product) growth rate was 8.2 per cent and poverty was reduced from 56.7 per cent to 44.9 per cent between 2006 and 2011.

Access to education and health services has become universal with 96 per cent of school-aged children now enrolled in primary schools, and 90 per cent coverage of health insurance.

These achievements illustrate the impact of development policies on the framework of a vision resting on homegrown solutions. This diverse set of instruments embraces participation and consensus based on culture and national identity, as guiding principles.

Within the commitment of evidence-based policymaking, the impact, scope and documentation of Homegrown Initiatives/ Solutions (HGI/S) is systematically pursued. It is against this background that the Rwanda Governance Board (RGB) was mandated by the cabinet meeting held on 4th November 2011 to conduct monitoring, research and policy dialogues on the homegrown initiatives and solutions.

One of the most prominent HGI/S has been the Imihigo, or performance contract policy in public administration reform. Imihigo has been implemented since 2006 as a tool to accelerate national development. Over the years, the practice has evolved into a tool for effective planning, implementation, performance evaluation and accountability for all public institutions and staff.

More specifically, findings from Imihigo are used to inform the government of Rwanda about the following:

- **Performance:** Provide feedback on the delivery of outputs and the impact on the beneficiaries.
- **Accountability:** Whether public spending is addressing the appropriate priorities and making a difference in the lives of citizens.
- **Knowledge:** Increasing knowledge about what policies and programmes work, enabling the government at central and local levels to build an evidence base for future policy development and the identification of ways to improve effectiveness.
- **Decision-making:** Providing evidence to enable policy-makers, planners and finance departments to agree on the need for intervention.
- **Co-ordination:** Identifying key stakeholders expected to be involved in specific areas/programmes /projects, extent of participation and coordinated.
- **Beneficiaries' satisfaction:** The extent to which beneficiaries are happy with government interventions and the level of consultation.

7.4.2 challenges of *Imihigo*

- **Problems of measurements**

There is no standard for measuring the value of Umuganda. The first issue has to do with the output on increasing the value and participation in Umuganda. For instance, some districts measure its value based on the number of people participating on the day multiplied by the daily labor (mostly farming) rate applicable in that district. Other districts attempt to estimate the financial cost of achievements on the day of Umuganda. In both cases Umuganda lasts only three hours. A key defect in the first approach is that calculations are based on a full day's work rate when Umuganda only lasts an average of three hours. The output can be overestimated.

- **Budget versus needs**

There is a clear discrepancy between allocated budget and the magnitude of citizen needs at the local administrative level. Harmonizing citizen's needs with the available budget is the key challenge. While there are always several competing needs for a limited budget, appropriate apportionment implies that the limited resources should respond to the most pressing demands.

- **Competing agendas**

There are competing agendas between the central and local government. Urgent assignments from line ministries and other central government agencies interfere with local planning. Despite efforts for joint planning meetings between the central and local levels, unplanned for requests from the central government consume local resources (finances and time) particularly when the demands are not accompanied with implementing funds. In some instances, money to implement an inserted item will be promised but not delivered when it comes to the implementation phase or local authorities are told to insert items and are then told to get resources from private sources.

- **Low ownership of Imihigo**

Imihigo should be based on the needs of citizens at the local level and national development priorities. However, *Imihigo* ownership is relatively low among the intended beneficiaries. There is a "dependency syndrome" where citizens depend on government to provide them with free or subsidized goods. Citizens also compete for lower categories of *Ubudehe* in order to become eligible for free healthcare and Vision 2020 Umurenge Programme (VUP). These programmes are responsible for low ownership of *Imihigo*.

- **Understaffing and low capacity**

Lack of staff, insufficient financial means, lack of data base to facilitate planning, monitoring, and evaluation and heavy workload constitute major challenges in local governments. Staff without the required skills occupy many districts' posts. There are also challenges in staff recruitment and low staff retention in sectors and the cells. These shortages affect the implementation of *Imihigo*. District staff is overloaded and they may not have enough time to implement *Imihigo* targets. Local government staff also lack skills in monitoring and evaluation. This is necessary for *Imihigo* to be effective.

- **Delays in funds disbursement**

Some of the key challenges to *Imihigo* are delays in funds disbursement, be it from the central government or from development partners. Delays in funds disbursement are the most important factor affecting service delivery at local government level, equally important as insufficient staff.

Two related issues make it difficult to implement *Imihigo* targets in a timely manner. First, there is a discrepancy between the fiscal year and the period of *Imihigo* signing. This challenge comes from the relationship with stakeholders most of whom use the calendar which starts in January against the district's fiscal year which starts in July.

As a result, time is lost before *Imihigo* can be effectively implemented. More specifically, *Imihigo* are usually signed 2-3 months after the fiscal year has started. This means that almost a quarter is lost.

7.4.3 Issues in implementation of *Imihigo*

There exist some issues in the implementation of *Imihigo*:

- The lag between the passing of the budget and the *Imihigo* translates to a loss of the first quarter in implementation;
- Most *Imihigo* are implemented in the last quarter due to either delays in the transfer of financial resources to the districts or delays on the part of the district to request for disbursement;
- Shifting priorities take away resources (time, finances) from implementing *Imihigo*;
- Some targets are included in *Imihigo* without adequate control of the sources of funds for implementation;
- In some situations, *Imihigo* without proper local contextualization are difficult to implement. A good example was when the evaluators found farmers in some

hilly parts of the country using land tillers on terraces in efforts that were clearly designed to reach the target of agricultural mechanization. The tool was not appropriate for the terrain;

- Some targets were not achieved due to a third party such as those in charge of water, electricity and road construction where delays in implementation were related to lack of control over the operations of Energy, Water and Sanitation Authority (EWSA) and Rwanda Transport Development Agency (RTDA);
- There are challenges in establishing measurement standards from one district to another. An output that requires building households for the vulnerable may have a house value ranging between 2m and 15 million. There is an assumption that an implemented item meets requisite standards and yet these may not be in place. Guidance from the central government for standard setting should be strengthened as well as a team for quality assurance to ensure implemented items meet the quality standards;
- Some achievements were inflated. A good example is an output for building a house claimed to be 60 per cent complete when a site visit would place it at a far less percentage;
- There are challenges in common planning for district trans-boundary items such as feeder road construction;
- Understaffing and high turnover at the local administration level calls for improved capacity building and need to improve the environment for service delivery.

Application activity 7.4



1. The school administration has decided to adopt the national Imihigo (Performance Contract) model to improve student performance and school welfare. As a Senior 5 student, you are required to transition from being a passive student to an active «Contractor» (Umuhigo) who contributes to the development of your school and your own future. You will work individually to draft a Personal Performance Contract (Imihigo) for the current term, followed by a task to design a Class-Level Umuhigo.
2. Draft a one-page contract containing three SMART (Specific, Measurable, Achievable, Relevant, and Time-bound) targeting academic performance, discipline or values.
3. Act as the District Evaluation Team. You must swap contracts and “audit” them based on: Feasibility of Imihigo, Resource Alignment and evidence.

7.5 Community Policing

Learning activity 7.5



1. In traditional policing, the police arrive after a crime has been committed to make an arrest. In Community Policing, the goal is to prevent the crime before it happens. Explain how sharing information about 'suspicious activities' does with local leaders or the RNP (Rwanda National Police) change the relationship between a citizen and a police officer. Does it make the citizen a 'spy' or a 'protector' of his or her own neighborhood?

As youth in your village notices that a local shop is selling illegal drugs to students. Instead of ignoring it, they report it to the Community Policing Committee.

2. Explain why it is often more effective for a neighbour or a youth volunteer to identify security threats than for a patrolling police car to do so. How does this 'bottom-up' approach to security strengthen the social trust needed for a country to develop quickly?
3. Community policing relies on the cooperation of the public. If the community begins to fear the police or feels they are being treated unfairly, the flow of information stops. How does transparency and professional conduct by the police act as the foundation for Community Policing?

When **Rwanda National Police** (RNP) was established in 2000, it adopted the community policing strategy to build ties and work closely with members of the community to fight crime. Since then, the department for community policy has reduced crime throughout the country. The department is run on a philosophy that promotes proactive partnerships with the public to address public safety issues such as social disorder and insecurity.

Traditionally, the police respond to crime after it occurs. On top of that, the police cannot be everywhere at all times and, therefore, relies on routine patrols, rapid response to calls for service, arrests and follow-up investigations.

Community policing, therefore, was adopted to encourage citizens to participate in crime solving. It is focused on the prevention of crime and disorder, by collaborating with the public to increase police visibility in all communities to solve, prevent and reduce crime.

Community policing enables the police to engage citizens in reporting incidents or to use volunteers to provide timely reports that help in anticrime operations.

Before and during the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi, citizens were always scared and full of mistrust for law enforcing agencies.

Politicians to intimidate citizens used Law enforcers and this gave them a bad reputation because citizens saw them as part of the problem, rather than protectors.

This negative view of the police had to be quickly addressed by providing services professionally and being open and approachable.

This strategy has improved police response to crime, because community members now provide many reports. This shows that they trust the police.

Unlike the previous law enforcers who served the criminal desires of a genocidal regime, the police now serve the citizens professionally and ensure that they have a say in the security of their communities.

The Rwanda Governance Scorecard produced by the Rwanda Governance Board in 2016, presented results from a nationwide survey, which indicated that 92 per cent of the citizens trust the Police. This is an indicator of professional services, discipline and partnership.

It is when the community and the police work together for their common good that citizens will trust the police. Once the citizens trust the officers, they will provide them with information to help prevent or solve crimes and to arrest criminals.

This has enabled the police to serve communities better and to fulfill its mission of making the people living in Rwanda feel safe and secure.

7.5.1 The day-to-day activities of community policing initiatives

Conducting investigations has always been paramount in police missions. For this reason, the police have used community policing to build strong investigative activities countrywide to get credible information from citizens.

The police also work with groups such as Community Policing Committees (CPCs), Youth Volunteers in Crime Prevention, as well as individual citizens in general.

CPCs were introduced in 2007 and they are made up of ordinary citizens chosen by the community. They operate in cells and sectors to collect information that helps in crime prevention. They also sensitize residents about the need to overcome crime.

The Youth Volunteers in Crime Prevention is an organization that has over 7,000 young men and women spread throughout the country. They aim at promoting security and participating in crime prevention. They have been influential in aiding Police operations and in sensitizing fellow youth against crime.

On a regular basis, they collaborate with Police District Community Liaison Officers (DCLOS) to respond to information about criminality and to lay strategies for approaching the challenges in society. The DCLOs are heavily involved in community issues in order to make policing more effective.

The police also work together with motorists' associations to ensure that road safety is respected. They also link with the business community to protect the country against economic crimes.

7.5.2 Community policing programs

The police have an understanding with authorities of all the 30 districts of Rwanda.

One of their mandates under this agreement is to ensure that all strategies, including that of community policing, are operational. The police also work with the Ombudsman's office, prosecution and other public entities to ensure that cases are documented and information on justice is properly shared. Through such initiatives, citizens gain more trust in the ability of the police to maintain law and order and to follow up on the

information they provide with professionalism.

Community policing helps the police to address problems such as drug abuse, human trafficking and gender-based violence. Every district faces its unique challenges, but through community policing the police identify the root causes of these challenges and find solutions.

In cases involving drug abuse and gender-based violence, police get information from responsible members of society and use it in operations to raid homes.

The issue of human trafficking is not intense in Rwanda, but the police is always aware of this threat. Citizens across the country volunteer information whenever such cases occur and police acts immediately to rescue victims. On top of that, the police reach out to citizens during social events like *Umuganda* and sensitization campaigns to discuss crime prevention. During these events, real problems are dissected and solutions are found.

Application activity 7.5



1. Crime and disorder are not just a job for the police; they are a responsibility of every citizen. Your school or local neighborhood has noticed an increase in small scale issues (e.g., cell phone snatching, noise pollution, or school truancy). As a Senior 5 student, you are appointed to the Community Policing Committee (CPC) to design a proactive safety strategy that focuses on prevention rather than just punishment.
2. Conduct a "Safety Audit" of your school environment or a nearby trading center and produce a Community Safety Proposal.

Your proposal must include:

- The Risk Map: Identify three «hotspots» or behaviors that currently compromise safety. Why are these happening? (e.g., poor lighting at the gate, lack of awareness about drug abuse, or unoccupied youth).

Show your own analysis on the following:

- "What if your friend is the one breaking the law! Analyse how does community policing balance friendship with national duty."
- Explain how do we ensure that our safety plan doesn't turn into 'vigilantism' (taking the law into our own hands).

7.6 The challenges faced during the implementation of the national duties and obligations

Learning activity 7.6



1. A local leader is under high pressure to meet his Imihigo target of building 10 kilometers of community roads using Umuganda labour before the end of the fiscal year. To meet the deadline, he asks the citizens to work faster and skip the technical step of compacting the soil properly. Three months later, the heavy rains wash away half of the road. In this scenario, did the leader and the citizens fulfil their national duty? Why does the pressure of 'Performance Contracts' (Imihigo) sometimes lead to a waste of national resources?"
2. Participation in Umuganda and Itorero is often higher in rural villages than in the center of Kigali City. Analyse why the 'Opportunity Cost' of time makes implementing national duties more challenging in an urban economy. How can we make these duties feel relevant to a busy professional in the city?"
3. During a village meeting for Itorero, a youth volunteer notices that three neighbours are not participating: one has a physical disability, one is a foreign businessperson who just moved to Rwanda, and one is a very poor mother who says she cannot leave her children alone to attend. How can the village leader ensure that these 'National Obligations' are inclusive? If these three people do not participate in the physical work, have they failed in their duty to the nation?"

While Rwanda's homegrown solutions like *Umuganda*, *Itorero*, and *Imihigo* have been instrumental in national transformation, their implementation is not without obstacles. Understanding these challenges is the first step toward finding sustainable solutions.

❖ Resource and Logistical Constraints

The scale of national duties often outpaces the available resources.

- **Limited Tooling and Materials:** In programs like *Umuganda* or *Urugerero*, youth may be ready to work, but a lack of specialized equipment (like heavy machinery) or building materials (cement, iron sheets) can stall projects.
- **Budgetary Gaps:** Although the labor is voluntary, the administration of these programs (transport, feeding for volunteers in remote areas, and coordination) requires a budget that local sectors sometimes struggle to provide.

❖ The Mindset Gap (The Challenge of Individualism)

A significant hurdle is shifting the mindset from "What can the government do for me?" to "What can I do for my country?"

- **Passive Participation:** Some citizens may attend *Umuganda* physically but remain passive, viewing it as a legal requirement rather than a civic opportunity. This reduces the quality of the work performed.
- **Urbanization and Time Poverty:** In rapidly developing urban areas like Kigali, professionals often find it difficult to balance demanding jobs with the time required for community service, leading to lower participation rates in cities compared to rural villages.

❖ Monitoring, Evaluation, and Accountability

For national duties like *Imihigo* (Performance Contracts) to work, they must be accurately measured.

- **Data Accuracy:** There is a risk of “inflated reporting,” where local leaders might report 100% completion of a goal to look good to their superiors, even if the quality of the work is poor.
- **Follow-up:** Ensuring that a tree planted during a youth campaign survives for five years requires consistent monitoring, which is more difficult than the initial act of planting.

❖ Inclusive Participation Hurdles

As we discussed in previous lessons, making service truly inclusive is a technical challenge.

- **Physical Barriers:** Many national service sites are not yet fully adapted for people with severe physical disabilities, which can lead to these citizens feeling excluded from the “active” part of national development.
- **Language and Communication:** In diverse communities, ensuring that the goals of *Itorero* or *Community Policing* are clearly communicated to everyone (including non-Kinyarwanda speakers or those with hearing impairments) requires specialized resources.

❖ Socio-Economic Pressures

For the most vulnerable citizens, giving time can be difficult.

- **Opportunity Cost:** For a family living in extreme poverty, spending half a day at *Umuganda* might mean losing a half-day’s wages needed for food. Balancing the duty to the nation with the duty to survive is a real tension for some households.

Application activity 7.6



1. If a local leader starts imposing fines on people who do not attend *Umuganda*, does this strengthen or weaken the spirit of *Agaciro* (Dignity)? Analyse the long-term impact on community patriotism.”
2. “Youth volunteers in *Urugerero* successfully build a bridge connecting two cells. However, two years later, the bridge collapses because no one was assigned to maintain it. Who is responsible for this failure, and how does this highlight a challenge in the implementation of national duties?”
3. Imagine a university-educated professional in a city who believes that *Umuganda* is only for ‘manual laborers’ and prefers to pay a small fee to avoid going. How does this attitude threaten national unity, and how would you convince them that their ‘Human Capital’ is needed regardless of their status?
4. During *Urugerero*, 200 energetic youth arrive in a village to plant trees, but the sector office only has 20 shovels and not enough water to keep the seedlings alive during the first week. How does this ‘Logistical Gap’ affect the morale of the youth, and what ‘Home-Grown’ solution could solve it.

7.7 End of unit assessment



Section A. Knowledge and Understanding

1. Explain the term "Home-Grown Solutions" and provide three specific examples currently practiced in Rwanda.
2. Identify the primary differences between the "Civilian/Development" archetype of national service and the "Military" archetype.
3. Explain the role of the "Green Vests" (Youth Volunteers) in Rwanda's security framework.

Section B. Skills

1. Compare the "Ndi Umunyarwanda" approach to national identity with Nigeria's NYSC model. Which is more focused on "geographic exchange" and why?
2. A village faces a severe soil erosion problem that threatens the local school. If you have no budget but 100 Urugerero youth, explain how you would solve this.
3. Analyse how the "peer-to-peer" approach used by youth volunteers is more effective than a top-down speech in reducing school dropout rates.

Section C. Attitudes and values

1. Explain why is "Integrity" (*Ubutore*) essential when local leaders report on their *Imihigo* targets. What happens to the nation if reporting is dishonest?
2. Is it fair for a nation to require both men and women to participate in national service? Justify your answer using the value of "Inclusive Development."
3. How does participating in a difficult task, like building a house for a vulnerable neighbour, change a young person's sense of "Patriotism"?

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UNIT 8

DIFFERENT TYPES OF NATIONAL SERVICE IN VARIOUS SOCIETIES

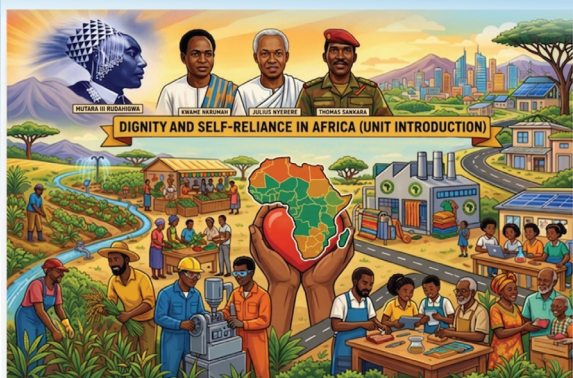


Figure 8.1. Different types of national service in various societies



Key Unit Competence:

Explain the different types of national service in Rwanda and other countries with a nature of patriotism.

Learning objectives

By the end of this unit you should be able to:

Knowledge and understanding

1

- Explain the concept of the national service;
- Explain different types of national service and their roles;
- Describe the differences and similarities of the different national service;
- Identify the contribution of the youth in the national service;
- Explain the role of national service in nation building.

Skills

2

- Analyze the concept of the national service in reference to Rwanda in particular;
- Examine the different types of national services;
- Examine the differences and similarities of the different national service;
- Assess the contribution of the youth in the national service;
- Examine the role of the national service in the nation building.

Attitudes and values

3

- Appreciate the concept of the national service in reference to Rwanda in particular;
- Recognize different types of national service to develop a spirit of patriotism;
- Acknowledge the differences and similarities of different national service in Rwanda;
- Appreciate the contribution of the youth in the national service;
- Value the role of the national service in nation building.

Introduction

National service is a period of service to the state, typically rendered by young citizens. While often associated with the military, many modern societies have expanded this to include social, environmental, and economic development. This unit compares various international approaches to understand how national service is tailored to meet a country's specific history and needs.

The primary goal of this unit is to help students analyze the different models of national service and their impact on society. It aims to foster a sense of patriotism and civic responsibility and identify how national service contributes to socio-economic transformation without forgetting to encourage critical thinking regarding the balance between individual liberty and national duty.

Introductory activity 8



1. Think about the last time we all worked together to clean our school compound or organize a school event. Explain why the school didn't just hire someone to do it, and what we have gained as a group by doing it ourselves.
2. Explain why some countries make one of these mandatory while others make them optional.
3. We know about service in our own country, but why do you think a country like Israel or South Korea requires almost every young person to join the army, while a country like Ghana focuses his or her service on teaching and healthcare? Explain what does this tell us about their national challenges.

8.1 Definition of the concept of national service in Rwanda and other countries

Learning activity 8.1



Scenario:

During a citizenship education lesson, students compare national service programmes in Rwanda and other countries. They learn that national service aims to develop responsible citizens, promote patriotism, strengthen social unity, and encourage young people to contribute to national development. The teacher asks learners to discuss how different countries organize national service according to their historical, social, and development needs.

Questions:

1. Explain the meaning of national service and describe its main purposes in Rwanda and other countries.
2. Compare the philosophy and values of national service in Rwanda with those of another country of your choice.

Discuss how national service contributes to building responsible citizens, promoting unity, and supporting national development.

National service is a system of either compulsory or voluntary government service, usually military service. This term of “national service” comes from the National Service (Armed Forces) Act of 1939 enacted by the Parliament of the United Kingdom on September 3, 1939.

Through this service, many young people spent one or more years performing national duties in the army or in civil service. It can be also defined as an organized activity in which people serve the community in ways that contribute to social, economic and political transformation at no financial rewards.

In Rwanda, national service is known today as volunteerism and practiced through *Urugerero*. International Labour Organisation as “unpaid, non-compulsory work defines the term volunteerism that is, the time individuals give without pay to activities performed either through an organization directly for others outside their own household.”

In Rwandan context, volunteerism is referred to as *Ubwitange* or *Ubukorerabushake*, which literally means a “free will action”, performed out of self-motivation and passion.

According to the adopted Itorero strategy, volunteerism is defined as “the practice of people working for a particular cause without payment for their time and services. It is the desire to under taken by choice and free will a task or work for the benefit of the wider] community beyond the volunteer’s immediate family and friends”.

Application activity 8.1



In some Western countries, national service is 100% voluntary (like the US Peace Corps), while in others, it is a legal requirement for graduation or employment. If National Service is a choice (voluntary), does it lose its power to unite the entire nation? Conversely, if it is forced (mandatory), does it stop being an act of ‘patriotism’ and instead become just another government ‘tax’ on a young person’s time? Explain your opinion.

8.2 The Concept and philosophy of national Service in Rwanda and other countries

Learning activity 8.2



A heavy rainstorm has washed away the only bridge connecting a small village to the local hospital and market. The government has limited funds and many other bridges to fix.

If you were the local leader, explain how you would use the concept of National Service to solve this and why it is better for the community to help each other to solve their own problem rather than waiting for outside aid.

- **Definition:** Understanding national service as a system of compulsory or voluntary involvement in state programs.
- **Rationale:** Why countries implement it (e.g., fostering patriotism, reducing youth unemployment, national defense, or disaster response).

- **Mandatory vs. Voluntary:** Comparing systems where service is a legal requirement (conscription) versus those where it is a choice.

1. Models of Military-Based National Service

- **The Israeli Model (IDF):** Focusing on how universal conscription (for both men and women) is used for national survival and as a «melting pot» for social integration.
- **The South Korean Model:** Examining long-term mandatory military service as a response to regional security threats.

2. Models of Social and Development-Based Service

- **The Nigerian Model (NYSC):** Studying the National Youth Service Corps designed to promote national unity by posting graduates to states other than their own to bridge ethnic and cultural divides.
- **The American Model (Peace Corps/AmeriCorps):** Examining voluntary service focused on international development or domestic social issues like education and poverty.

3. Comparative Analysis with Rwanda's Urugerero

- **Home-Grown vs. Borrowed:** Evaluating how Rwanda's *Urugerero* differs from these models by being rooted in pre-colonial culture (*Itorero*) rather than just modern military or western civic models.
- **Impact Assessment:** Comparing the outcomes of these various systems in terms of Patriotism, Social Cohesion, and Economic Growth.

Key Words & Concepts: Mandatory/Compulsory Service, Civic Engagement, Social Cohesion, Patriotism, Socio-Economic Development.

Application activity 8.2



1. Identify the main purpose of national service in certain country .
2. Explain two benefits and two challenges of national service.
3. Compare Rwanda's Urugerero with the Nigerian NYSC. How do both programs contribute to national unity and social cohesion?

8.3 Differences and similarities of different national service

Learning activity 8.3



1. Explain why does a country like Rwanda focus on building houses, while a country like South Korea focuses on guarding borders. (Connects to real-life context and history).
2. In some countries, everyone must go. In others, you choose to go. Which one feels more like a "duty"?

8.3.1 Compulsory national service

Compulsory national service (or military national service) typically requires all male citizens to enrol for one or two years, usually at the age of 18 (later for university level students). To large extent, compulsory military service is known as conscription.

Conscription is compulsory enlistment of people in a national service, most often a military service. Conscription dates back to Antiquity and continues in some countries to the present day under various names. The modern system of near universal national conscription for young men dates to the French Revolution in the 1780s, where it became the basis of a very large and powerful military.

Most European nations later imitated the same system in peacetime so that men at a certain age would serve from one up to eight years on active service and then transfer to the reserve force.

Conscription usually involves individuals who are deemed fit for military service. However, some governments have established universal military service in which all men or all people of a certain age are conscripted.

Most governments use conscription at some time, usually when the voluntary enlistment soldiers fail to meet military needs. Most of them only conscript men; a few countries also conscript both men and women for example, China, North Korea, Israel, Eritrea, Taiwan, Malaysia, Libya and Peru.

8.3.2 Alternative civilian service

It is a form of national service performed in lieu of conscription for various reasons, such as conscientious objection, inadequate health or political reasons. It is service to a government made by a civilian, particularly such service as an option for conscripted persons who are conscientious objectors and to military service.

Civilian service is usually performed in the service of non-profit governmental bodies or other institutions. For example, in Germany (before conscription was abolished), those in civilian service worked extensively in healthcare facilities and retirement homes, while other countries have a wider variety of possible placements.

The common synonyms for the term are "alternative service", civilian service, and non – military service and substitute service as well.

Application activity 8.3



1. In Rwanda, *Urugerero* is often focused on social economic development. If Rwanda changed this to be only military training, how would that affect the country's goal of "Self-Reliance" (*Kwigira*)?
2. Imagine a country facing a massive environmental crisis (like rapid deforestation). Between a Military-style national service (strict, disciplined) and a Civilian-style national service (community-led, flexible), which model would be more effective at planting 1 million trees in a month? Defend your choice.

8.4 National service in Rwanda and in other countries

Learning activity 8.3



1. If you were finishing Senior 6 today, which activity from any of the stations do you think would make you feel most proud of being a Rwandan? Why?
2. Explain how we can ensure that a student with a physical disability feels just as valued in Urugerero as a student who is an athlete.

8.4.1 Recent institutionalization of national service in Rwanda

National Service - "*Urugerero* Programme" is provided for in Article 48 of the Constitution of the Republic of Rwanda of 2003 revised in 2015. *Urugerero* activities actually started on January 17, 2013 and it was officially launched in Rwanda on January 22, 2013 in Rwamagana, Eastern Province by the then Right Honourable Prime Minister Dr. Pierre Damien Habumuremyi.

The Ministry of National Unity and Civic Engagement (MINUBUMWE) organises various activities under *Urugerero*, whose outcomes are paramount to national development.

Adoption of national service was inspired by the concept of *ubwitange* (volunteerism) that was practiced by Rwandans in building the country. This commitment led ancient Rwanda to great achievements such as the expansion of the kingdom.

The *Urugerero* programme aims at developing programmes that enhance the current efforts put in place to accelerate growth in all sectors of the economy by adding a formalized voluntary service component. The rationale of the volunteerism policy Educate Rwandans on the culture of volunteerism through activities of national development is to:

- i. Provide a framework where people are able to make effective use of their special skills and access unexploited potential which is an additional contribution to national development;
- ii. Build satisfaction among volunteers for their role in volunteer work for increasing national production skills development associated with the volunteering activities.
- iii. Provide an appropriate institutional framework for effective management, coordination and use of existing and future volunteer activities and resources.
- iv. Provide a mechanism through which volunteer services can be recorded and accorded national recognition.

Volunteerism in Rwanda is currently exhibited through provision of services to the community such as: *Umuganda*, *Ubudehe*, *Umusanzu* (Communal self-help activities based on solidarity), *Abunzi*, local government councils (*Njyanama*), *Gacaca* judges, electoral commission agents, and community health workers (*abajyanama b'ubuzima*) among others that do not involve any salary payment in return and done out of free will for the purpose of benefiting the whole community.

The Government of Rwanda has adopted national service based on a combined model

(voluntary and compulsory). Initially, National service was compulsory for the group between 18 and 35 years. People in that age category were officially considered as part of the youth. Today, the youth age category is between 15 and 30. Other categories of the population will be allowed to participate on a voluntary basis depending on their time, professional background and identified priorities.

The National Service programmes are based on national priorities that are identified before the commencement of the service. Strategic choices namely vision, goal, objectives to respond to the identified challenges are described to guide all the programming processes of the *Itorero* programmes. A motto for the *Urugero* has been proposed which states "Selfless service to the Nation".

At the end of the service period, participants join in their respective sites to debrief on their experiences and lessons to inform planning for the following intake. A closing ceremony is organized for them and during the ceremony; they receive certificates of participation highlighting their contribution and experience acquired in their placements. Exemplary participants are also recognised at this ceremony.

There are voluntary interventions in various sectors which the Government of Rwanda has used volunteerism in such sectors like local governance, justice, health and electoral processes. This Policy is aimed at providing guidance on the management, rights, responsibilities and roles for both the volunteer and the volunteering organizations.

8.4.2 National service in other countries

Most countries have chosen the national service as an alternative way to involve their population in nation building. The Countries which are described in this section were chosen randomly; at least one country from each continent as an example.

- National service in the United Kingdom (UK)

At the beginning in 1939, the national service enforced full conscription of all males between 18 and 41 who were residents in the UK. It continued in a modified form in peacetime by the National Service Act 1948. This Act of Parliament extended the British conscription of the Second World War long after the wartime needs for it had expired, in form of "National Service".

The need for national service in the United Kingdom was inspired by the wartime due to the need of more armed forces. The first phase of voluntary recruitment was from 1916 to 1920 during the First World War and the second period from 1939 to 1960.

However, persons who were exempted from national service included the following: medically unfit as well as the blind, disabled persons, and those with mental disorders, British subjects from outside Britain who had lived in the country for less than two years, students, persons employed by the government of any country of the British Empire except the United Kingdom, clergy of any denomination, married women, women who had one or more children 14 years old or younger living with them, conscientious objectors, people working in reserved occupations like baking, farming, medicine and engineering.

The National Service Act 1948 was applied to all healthy young men who were not registered as conscientious objectors. It did not affect the exemption from service of registered as conscientious objectors or the procedure for registration.

The period of serving in national service in the United Kingdom varied due to national interest. By 1946, the period of national service was 6 months and this period was increased to 12 months in 1949. From this time, men who completed the service remained on the reserve list for the number of years in the age-range (four years) which started being counted from the moment they finished serving.

However, men on the reserve list could only be called for periods of up to 20 days (previous acts allowed the period to be indefinite), and could not be called more than three times. In 1950, due to the British involvement in the Korean War, the national service period was extended to two years. To compensate this long period, the reserve period was reduced by six months.

In the United Kingdom, the national service was ended gradually from 1960. In November 1960, the last men entered in service and the last national service men left the armed forces in May 1963.

- **National service in Israel**

In Israel, the national service is known under the conscription. This conscription is for all Israeli citizens over the age of 18 years old who are Jewish and the Arab citizens of Israel (Druze or Circassia) are not conscripted. The normal length of compulsory service is two years and eight months for men (with some roles requiring an additional four months of service), and two years for women.

The Israeli Defence Service Law regulates the duties and exceptions. According to the Defence Service Law, the enlistment to the Israeli Defence Forces (IDF) is mandatory for all Israeli citizens who have turned 18 years old.

After the foundation of the State of Israel, the Defence Service Law passed in 1949 gave the Israeli Defence Forces the authority to enlist any citizen. Under this law, the period of service for men was 30 months and for women 18 months (although in accordance with a temporary order from January 10, 1968, six additional months were added to the mandatory service, 36 months for men and 24 months for women respectively).

The draft requirement applies to any citizen or permanent resident who has reached the age of 18, and in accordance with the law, the individuals who are exempt from the draft are dismissed for various reasons, such as incapability, medical problems and military personnel needs. Exemption from military service in Israel is given based on the following criteria: being expatriates, having medical or psychological reasons, marriage, pregnancy or parenthood (for women only), religious Israeli Druze citizens, Arab citizens of Israel and some young people are exempted for holding a criminal record.

In addition, the security minister may exempt certain people from an army service in the IDF, for reasons related to the volume of the military forces or reserve forces, or for reasons related to educational needs, settlement needs, security needs, economy needs, family needs and various other reasons.

Furthermore, for those who cannot or do not wish to serve in the Israel Defence Forces, there is an alternative voluntary civilian national service called Sherut Leumi. It is a volunteer programme in Israel for young women between the ages of 18 and 21 years; though some men also participate, who cite religious reasons for opting out of the

requirement to serve in the Israel Defence Forces. It is also a popular way for young Jewish volunteers from abroad to spend time in Israel. Volunteers are matched with charitable organizations, like hospitals or orphanages, and live together in a dorm-like setting. They serve for one to two years and are paid a minimal salary.

- **National Service in Ghana**

In Ghana, especially the students who graduate from accredited tertiary institutions perform the national service. They are required to do a one-year national service in the country. The National Service Secretariat is the Government of Ghana agency mandated to formulate policies and structures for national service.

Every year, several tens of thousands of graduates from Ghanaian tertiary institutions are posted to various sectors as service personnel. The service is done irrespective of the type of sponsorship the individual may have received or the country in which the tertiary course was pursued. The personnel upon posting to an establishment is subjected to the rules and regulations that govern it. The service personnel are paid monthly allowances approved by the Ministry of Finance in Ghana.

All personnel are entitled to a month's annual terminal leave for the year that spans their service. The month leave is usually given in August to all personnel. The female service personnel may apply for a three-month maternity leave. When this leave is granted, the personnel are to serve for three extra months to make up for the period of service lost. The personnel who are granted maternity leaves are not paid during the time of their leave.

The candidates for national service may on application be exempted from service by the National Service Board on production of valid documentary evidence due to the following conditions: an individual who has undertaken national service at an earlier date and a graduate who is 40 years old or more. By the end of national service, a service person shall be issued with a Certificate of National Service after the successful completion of the service.

- **National Service in Nigeria**

In Nigeria, the national service is known as the National Youth Service Corps (NYSC). It is an organization set up by the Nigerian government to involve the country's graduates in the development of the country. The programme was started in the aftermath of the Nigerian civil war, the Biafra War, in the 1970s. Particularly, there is no military conscription, however, since 1973; the graduates of universities and later polytechnics have been required to take part in the National Youth Service Corps programme for one year.

The National Youth Service Corps in Nigeria aims at:

- Inculcating discipline in Nigerian youths by instilling in them a tradition of industry at work, and of patriotic and loyal service to Nigeria in any situation they may find themselves;
- Raising the moral tone of the Nigerian youths by giving them the opportunity to learn about higher ideals of national achievement, social and cultural improvement;
- Developing in the Nigerian youths the attitudes of mind, acquired through shared experience and suitable training which will make them more amenable to mobilization in the national interest;

- Enabling Nigerian youths acquire the spirit of self-reliance by encouraging them to develop skills for self-employment to contribute to the accelerated growth of the national economy;
- Developing common ties among the Nigerian youths and promote national unity and integration
- Removing prejudices, eliminating ignorance and confirm at first hand the many similarities among Nigerians of all ethnic groups;
- Developing a sense of corporate existence and common destiny of the people of Nigeria.

Nigerian graduates are ineligible for employment in governmental establishments (and few private establishments) until they have completed the mandatory one-year service. Graduates who are exempted from the service include those above the age of thirty (30) and those with physical disability. Therefore, completing the service entitles one to employment.

The National Youth Service Corps' members are posted to cities far from their city of origin. They are expected to mix with people of other tribes, social and family backgrounds, to learn the culture of the indigenes in the place they are posted to. This action is aimed at bringing about unity in the country and to help youths appreciate other ethnic groups. There is an "orientation" period of approximately three weeks spent in a military controlled boot "camp" away from family and friends. There, they are militarily trained and receive instruction according to their studies in secondary schools. There is also a "passing out ceremony" at the end of the year and primary assignment followed by one month of vacation.

• National Service in Singapore

In Singapore, the National Service is a constitutional requirement for all male Singaporean citizens and second-generation permanent residents to undergo a period of compulsory service in the uniformed services. Depending on physical and medical fitness, they serve a two-year period as National Servicemen Full time, in either the Singapore Armed Forces, Singapore Police Force or the Singapore Civil Defence Force.

On March 14, 1967, the National Service (Amendment) Act was passed making National Service compulsory for all 18 years old male Singapore citizens and permanent residents. The establishment of National Service was a reaction to the necessity to build a substantial military force to defend Singapore because, by the independence, the country had only about 1,000 soldiers. Singapore adopted a conscription model drawing on elements from the Israel and Swiss national conscription schemes. Some 9,000 male youths became the first batch of young men to be called up for National Service for establishment of the Singapore armed forces.

The period of National service is two years. Complete national service exemptions are rare. It can be granted due to permanent disabilities or severe medical conditions to be graded by Medical Board and other exceptional case-by-case basis.

Those who are liable to serve national service as a national duty to the country but refuse is charged under the Enlistment Act. If convicted, they face up to both three years' imprisonment and a fine of S\$10,000 (equivalent to 14,000,000Rwf).

When a National Serviceman completes his full-time service, he is considered to be "operationally ready", and is thereafter known as an Operationally Ready National Serviceman. In common parlance, the term "Reservist" is used, a vestige of the older nomenclature preceding the current terminology. National Servicemen are the equivalent of other countries' reservists.

- **National Service in Brazil**

National service in Brazil is known as Conscription, it is mandatory for every male who has 18 – 45 years old, and it normally lasts for twelve months. Some are allowed six-month service terms but are expected to complete high school at the same time. These are called "Tiros de Guerra," or "shooting schools," which are for high school boys in medium-sized interior towns, run by army sergeants.

In case of a war, the period of conscription may be altered, according to the demands. Seventeen-year-olds are allowed to undergo military service, as volunteers. Conscription Brazil is regulated by the Military Service Law, created on August 17, 1964. Then, according to Article 143 of the 1988 constitution, military service is obligatory for men, but conscientious objection is allowed. Women and clergymen are exempted from compulsory military service.

The conscript system in Brazil is predominantly a means of providing basic military training to a sizable group of young men who then return to civilian life and are retained on the reserve rolls until age forty-five. The army recognizes that it provides a public service by teaching large numbers of conscripts' basic skills that can be valuable to the overall economy when the young men return to civilian life.

Application activity 8.4



1. Match each country to its "Service Archetype" (Military, Civilian, or Hybrid/Blended) and identify its primary goal.

Country	Key Feature of National Service	Archetype	Primary Goal
Rwanda	Urugerero: Youth engage in community development (building, literacy)	Civilian/Development	Self-reliance (Kwigira)
Israel	Compulsory for men (3 years) and women (2 years).	Military	National Security
Nigeria	NYSC: Graduates serve in a different state to promote unity.	Civilian/Social	National Integration
Singapore	Mandatory for all male citizens to ensure "Total Defense."	Military	Strategic Deterrence
Ghana	NSS: 12-month mandatory posting for tertiary graduates.	Civilian/Economic	Labor Productivity
Brazil	Mandatory 12-month military service for 18-year-old males.	Military	Defense Readiness
UK	Historic (1949–1963) peace time conscription for men	Historical Military	Post-war Stability

2. In Ghana and Nigeria, service is tied to finishing university. In Rwanda, *Urugerero* is often for those finishing secondary school. Analyze how the timing of service changes its impact on the nation's economy.
3. Israel requires both men and women to serve, while Brazil only requires men. By analyzing, explain which model you think is more "inclusive and productive."

8.5 The contribution of youth in the national service

Learning activity 8.5



1. Identify specific activities in your village/sector where youth have contributed to building houses for the poor or planting trees and explain your feelings after successfully finishing this work.
2. Focusing on *Urugerero*, explain how can youth contribute to economic development without expecting a salary.
3. Analyse how the active participation of youth in national development helps secure Rwanda's future.

In most countries, the youth represent the future of their countries; therefore, they have a vital role to play in the development of each country through participating in national service. The training and participation of the youth contribute to the increase of national army, where some become soldiers permanently or part time after accomplishing military trainings.

The youth is the work force provider because they participate in national service by offering their physical force in order to accomplish national service goals like construction of houses for the poor families, repairing the roads, construction of vegetable gardens for family consumption. In environmental protection, the youth in national service construct terraces and plant trees in order to fight against soil erosion.

As earlier stated, in Rwanda, the youth at *Urugerero* have contributed in making data collection. Most data collected were about the number of illiterate people in their area of operations, the cases of school dropout and children of school going age who are not yet in school, of local population who have not yet registered for health insurance (*mutuelle*), number of family living in illegal marriage and vulnerable groups.

Through *Urugerero*, the graduates of senior six secondary schools also perform different national duties in line with the Government's notion of self-reliance and dignity. The most activities the students are engaged in include awareness campaigns on development projects, HIV/AIDS, gender balance, family planning, adult literacy and community work (*Umuganda*) among others. Furthermore, the youth contribute in fighting and preventing people against the genocide and genocide ideology, fighting against the drug abuse and sensitizing and mobilizing local population about credit.

The youth also contribute in national service by contributing in service provision and delivery to local population at sector and cell levels. Services delivered including distribution of official documents namely identity cards and land registration certificates. Data entry in computers and customer care is also done by national service participants. This boosts the service delivery to the local population.

Application activity 8.5



1. If the youth in a particular district successfully build 50 houses for vulnerable families during their national service, explain how this affects the district's ability to fund other projects like healthcare or education
2. In a village project to plant 10,000 trees on a steep hill, how can the youth leaders ensure that a student with a physical disability and a student who is a star athlete both contribute equally to the success of the mission?
3. Compare two sectors: Sector A relies on a foreign donor to clean their water sources once a year, while Sector B uses youth volunteers and *Umuganda* to maintain their water sources every month. Which sector has more *Agaciro* (Dignity), and why?
4. Why a bridge built by youth during *Urugerero* is often better protected by the local community than a bridge built by an anonymous private contractor?

8.6 General roles of the national service in the nation building

Learning activity 8.6



1. Imagine a country consisting of several different provinces, each with its own language and local traditions. The government notices that youth feel more loyal to their specific province than to the country as a whole. They decide to launch a National Service program where every participant must serve in a province far from their home for one year.

In this case, is the primary role of national service economic or social? How does "geographic displacement" (moving people away from their home area) help prevent future national conflicts?

2. A district needs to build five new primary school classrooms to meet its educational goals, but the budget only has enough money to buy the roofing, cement, and bricks. If they hire a private contractor, they can only afford to build one classroom. The local leaders suggest using the youth currently in *Urugerero* to provide the labor. If the youth work without a salary, are they "losing" money, or is the nation "gaining" wealth? Explain this using the concept of *Kwigira* (Self-reliance).
3. Two students graduate from Senior 6. Student A spends the three-month break resting at home. Student B joins National Service, where they are put in charge of coordinating a team to plant trees and must report daily progress to the Sector Commander. When they both apply for a job later, the employer chooses Student B. What "hidden roles" of national service did Student B benefit from that Student A missed? How does this role benefit the national economy in the end?
4. Much larger neighbors surround a small country. The country decides that every citizen, regardless of their career-whether they want to be a doctor, an artist, or a farmer-must undergo basic military and emergency response training during their national service. How does training a civilian (like an artist or a teacher) in defense tactics contribute to the "Strategic Deterrence" of a nation?

In Rwanda, the National Service *Urugerero* programme aims at developing programmes that enhance the current efforts put in place to accelerate growth in all sectors of the economy by adding a formalized voluntary service component. For instance, the participants have sensitized local population to join *Mutuelle de Santé*, *Umurenge SACCO* and to participate actively in community service.

Through *Urugerero*, young people are supported to fulfil their potential and to work together as a community. Each participant receives practical training (training related to domains of service), training in civic education and basic military training. This enables the participants to play a big role in economic and social transformation of the country.

The national service increases solidarity among the Rwandan citizen as they are

initiated to help each other, strengthen national identity and reduces stereotypic thinking by interfacing with the realities of the communities and the country in general.

Through the military trainings provided to each participant, national service promotes patriotism and civic participation especially among the young generation. By training the youth to fulfil national service activities, the country benefits from the committed and motivated workers at no financial reward. The committed and motivated workers often have a positive impact by influencing regular employee at the work place hence contributing to the nation building.

Through the community service rendered to the local communities, national service encourages social integration and cohesion necessary to national building. In this regard, intore who are performing a range of activities are integrated in those communities and have to work hand in hand with the local people who are beneficiaries of such activities.

Participation in national service empowers those involved in different ways including gaining new skills like leadership, problem solving, and interaction with others among others. The participants are initiated to different tasks like planning, design, building and other key roles throughout national service. Such practical skills prepare them to contribute actively to the national building.

Participating in a national service programme offers members a unique opportunity to develop personally and professionally. Research has proven that those who participate in service increase their understanding of how they can address social challenges.

Being a national service member also provides opportunities for enhanced problem-solving skills, ability to work in teams and planning abilities.

For people with disabilities, engaging in national service provides an additional opportunity; to shift perceptions and show that people with disabilities can be service providers, not just recipients of service.

In Rwanda, the volunteerism has contributed a lot to national development where, in 2011 for instance, the volunteerism has contributed more than 30 % to the national Gross Domestic Product (GDP). Due to the work performed by community health workers, local government officials and committees, election process managers, mediators (abunzi), judges in Gacaca courts and Rwanda Red Cross, the Government of Rwanda has saved about 70 billion Rwf.

In Rwanda, the national service is a continuation of the spirit of promoting positive values among Rwandans, especially the youth. The values of unity, patriotism, selflessness, integrity, responsibility, volunteerism, humility enhanced during the national service contribute to the promotion of nation building.

National service encourages young people to enter careers in fields experiencing shortages: In education, for instance where the national service persons help in adults teaching. To explore future job and educational interests can be motivation to join national service for the young people and their career plans become more community oriented.

Application activity 8.6



1. Analyze how serving in a province far from your home village during national service break down regional prejudices and strengthen the 'Ndi Umunyarwanda' (national identity) more effectively than reading a textbook.
2. Explain how a nation with a trained and disciplined National Service corps responds differently to a sudden natural disaster compared to a nation that relies solely on paid emergency professionals.
3. When youth participate in national service, they often track down school dropouts or promote health insurance. Explain how this 'peer-to-peer' approach changes the community's perception of government programs compared to when an official gives a speech.

8.7 End of unit assessment



Section A. Knowledge & understanding

1. Identify two countries that use a "Military-First" model of national service and explain the primary reason for this choice.
2. Distinguish between the "University Graduate" model used in Nigeria (NYSC) and the "Secondary School" model used in Rwanda (*Urugerero*).
3. Define the concept of "Compulsory vs. Voluntary" service and give an example of a country for each.

Section B. Skills

1. A developing nation has high youth unemployment and poor rural infrastructure. Analyse which model the Brazilian (Male-only) or the Israeli (Universal) would be more effective in solving these two problems simultaneously.
2. In Rwanda, youth in Urugerero often track down school dropouts. Compare this "Peer-to-Peer" approach with a "Top-Down" approach (officials making speeches). Which is more likely to result in long-term behavioral change?
3. Create a brief "Impact Plan" for a group of youth in your sector who want to use their national service to improve local environmental security.

Section C. Attitudes and values

1. Explain how the practice of serving in a province far from your home village contributes to the value of "Ndi Umunyarwanda."
2. Some argue that national service is "forced labour" because it is unpaid. How would a student of the CBC curriculum justify this service using the value of "Kwigira" (Self-reliance)?
3. If you are lead a team building a house for a vulnerable family and the work is harder than expected, which "Intore" value would you use to motivate your team to finish?

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UNIT 9

DIGNITY AND SELF-RELIANCE IN AFRICA



Figure 9.1. Dignity and self-reliance in Africa



Key Unit Competence:

Analyse the dignity and self-reliance policies of some African leaders considering them as role models in adapting the homegrown solutions in Rwanda.

Learning objectives

By the end of this unit you should be able to:

Knowledge and understanding

1

- Identify African leaders, dignity and self-reliance policies (Mutara III Rudahigwa of Rwanda, Louis Rwagasore of Burundi, Jomo Kenyatta of Kenya, Milton Obote of Uganda, Julius Nyerere of Tanzania, Patrice Lumumba of Congo, Kenneth Kaunda of Zambia, Nelson Mandela of South Africa, Kwame Nkrumah of Ghana);
- Explain the factors for the success of self-reliance policies of some of the African leaders;
- Explain the lessons that can be learnt from the successful self-reliance policies of the African leaders that we can follow as examples;
- Explain the concepts of home-grown solutions and self-reliance in Rwandan society;
- Describe the challenges encountered during the implementation of homegrown solutions.

Skills

2

- Analyze African leaders, dignity and self-reliance policies (Mutara III Rudahigwa of Rwanda, Louis Rwagasore of Burundi, Jomo Kenyatta of Kenya, Milton Obote of Uganda, Julius Nyerere of Tanzania, Patrice Lumumba of Congo, Kenneth Kaunda of Zambia, Nelson Mandela of South Africa, Kwame Nkrumah of Ghana);
- Analyze the factors for the success of self-reliance policies of some of the African leaders;

2

- Examine the lessons that can be learnt from the successful self-reliance policies of the African leaders that we can follow as example;
- Analyze the concepts of home-grown solutions and self-reliance in Rwandan society;
- Analyze the challenges encountered during the implementation of homegrown solutions.

Attitudes and values

3

- Value African leaders, dignity and self-reliance policies (Mutara III Rudahigwa of Rwanda, Louis Rwagasore of Burundi, Jomo Kenyatta of Kenya, Milton Obote of Uganda, Julius Nyerere of Tanzania, Patrice Lumumba of Congo, Kenneth Kaunda of Zambia, Nelson Mandela of South Africa, Kwame Nkrumah of Ghana);
- Acknowledge the factors for the success of self-reliance policies of some of the African leaders;
- Appreciate the lessons that can be learnt from the successful self-reliance policies of the African leaders;
- Value the concepts of home-grown solutions and self-reliance in Rwandan society;
- Acknowledge the challenges encountered during the implementation of homegrown solutions.

Introduction

This unit explores the foundational pillars of African development "Dignity" (Agaciro) and "Self-Reliance" (Kwigira). It shifts the narrative from dependency to empowerment, examining how African nations can leverage their own resources, history, and values to build a sustainable future.

The primary goal of this unit is to inspire students to understand and embrace the spirit of independence. It aims to foster a sense of national and continental pride, encouraging students to think critically about how Africa can solve its own challenges using Home-Grown Solutions. By studying past leaders and modern successes, students learn that dignity is not just a feeling, but a catalyst for economic and social transformation.

Key Concepts: Agaciro (Dignity), Kwigira (Self-Reliance), Homegrown Solutions (HGS), Pan-Africanism, Human Capital.

Introductory activity 9



1. Think of a program in your own village (e.g., Umuganda or Girinka). Analyse how those programs make the community more dependent on others, or more self-reliant. Explain why.
2. If a country relies 100% on foreign aid for its schools and hospitals, can that country truly claim to be "dignified". Why or why not?

9.1 Examples of African leaders

Learning activity 9.1



Imagine a country X. For decades, the country X has exported 100% of its raw cotton to Europe for \$1 per kilogram. They then import finished shirts made from that same cotton for \$20 per shirt. The government decides to ban the export of raw cotton and instead provides low-interest loans to local entrepreneurs to build textile factories and fashion houses. This move creates 50,000 jobs but initially leads to a shortage of clothing in the shops for the first six months while the factories get up to speed.

Questions

1. Why is the \$1 vs. \$20 exchange described as a "Dignity Gap"?
2. Was the government's decision to ban cotton exports an act of "Self-Reliance" or "Isolationism"?
3. How should the government handle the six-month clothing shortage and rising prices?
4. Synthesis: How does this economic policy impact the "National Mindset" of the citizens?

❖ Self-reliance in Rwanda under King Mutara III Rudahigwa



Figure 9.2. King Mutara III Rudahigwa

In Rwanda, self-reliance was visible in the following ways under the leadership of King Mutara III Rudahigwa. Belgians applied this policy because they have seen that the kingdom of Rwanda had a strong centralized and organized leadership appreciated and respected by all Rwandans.

Educated people knowing what is happening elsewhere helped the king to struggle for self-reliance. E.g. Members of "High National Council" The growth of patriotism and nationalistic spirit. Patriotism is the factor of self-resilience in the way that people fight for national integrity, respect of national sovereignty and protect public property.

The sacrifice where one's personal interests, one's life is sacrificed for the sake of the general interests, self-denial, being visionary, exemplary, honesty and love of heroic needs. In his character, Mutara III Rudahigwa was against injustice, dishonest,

nepotism and selfishness. He solved impartially conflicts and disputes publically (abolition of clientelism-Ubuhake in 1954).

Rwandan people respected and protected their leadership and their national heritage. Rwandans were interested in national development based on their own efforts.

After Second World War, colonial powers were destroyed by the war. They increased overexploitation on resources in their colonies and stopped to support financially their colonies. Rwandans and the King himself resented this.

These factors helped the King Mutara III Rudahigwa to achieve the following:

- He mediated between the Belgian colonialists and the Catholic Church;
- He highly advocated for equality, justice and the welfare of Rwandans by eliminating clientelism (Ubuhake) by obliging rich Rwandans to share cows and land equally by their servants;
- He advocated for democracy and fighting against injustice through the King's Court by fighting for independence and self-determination of Rwandans;
- He worked hard to educate Rwandans through the establishment of the Mutara Fund that helped Rwandans students to study secondary schools and Universities in Europe without waiting for Belgians support for educating Rwandans;
- Mutara III Rudahigwa offered scholarships to many Rwandans to study in Europe: He was interested in education of Rwandans without depending on foreign scholarship.

Under his monarchy, he eliminated all forms of slavery and advocated for unity and reconciliation among Rwandans: He did not want to continue applying the forms of inequality, injustice and slavery increased by Belgians.

He created High National Council that could solve political problems of Rwandans through dialogue without violence. All these achievements led to Rwandan dignity and self-reliance during his reign. In addition, this is the reason why Rwandans choose Rudahigwa as one of Rwandan heroes.

His dreams started becoming the reality when the Triple Tacit Accord (Colonial rule-King Mutara III Rudahigwa -Catholic Church) on the systematic plan to rule over Rwandans made in early 1940s split apart in 1948. Many versions on the death of the King mention that this struggle may be one of factors that ended up to cost his life on July 25th, 1959.

❖ Self-reliance in Kenya under Jomo Kenyatta



Figure 9.3. Jomo Kenyatta of Kenya (1891–1978). (Source: <https://www.sahistory.org.za/people/jomokenyatta>)

Harambee is a Kenyan tradition of community self-help that involves fundraising for development activities. *Harambee* literally means, "All pull together" in Swahili. It is also the official motto of Kenya and appears on its coat of arms.

Harambee events may range from informal lasting a few hours, in which invitations are spread by word of mouth, to formal, multi-day events advertised in newspapers. These events have long been important ways to build and maintain communities.

Following Kenya's independence in 1963, the first prime minister, and later first president of Kenya, Jomo Kenyatta adopted "Harambee" as a concept of pulling the country together to build the new nation. He encouraged communities to work together to raise funds for all sorts of local projects, pledging that the government would provide their startup costs. Under this system, wealthy individuals wishing to get into politics could donate large amounts of money to local harambee activities, thereby gaining legitimacy. However, such practices were never institutionalized during Kenyatta's presidency.

❖ Ujamaa policy in Tanzania

Ujamaa ('family hood / Brotherhood' in Swahili) was the concept that formed the basis of Julius Nyerere's social and economic development policies in Tanzania after it gained independence from Britain in 1961.

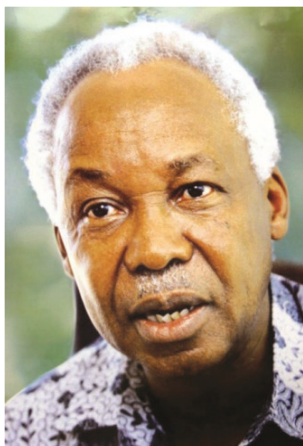


Figure 9.4. President Julius Nyerere (1922– 1999). Source <https://www.blackpast.org/global-africanhistory/nyererejulius-k-1922-1999>

In 1967, President Nyerere published his development blueprint, which was known as the Arusha Declaration, where he pointed out the need for an African model of development and this formed the basis of African socialism. The Swahili word Ujamaa means 'extended family', 'brotherhood' or 'socialism'. As a political concept, it asserts that an individual becomes a person through the people or community.

Nyerere used Ujamaa as the basis for national development. He translated the Ujamaa concept into a political economic management model through several approaches:

- The creation of a one-party system under the leadership of the Tanganyika African National Union (TANU) in order to consolidate the cohesion of the newly independent Tanzania;
- The institutionalization of social, economic, and political equality through the creation of a central democracy;
- The abolition of discrimination based on ascribed status;
- The nationalization of the economy's key sectors;

- The villagization of production, which essentially collectivized all forms of local productive capacity.

The fostering of Tanzanian self-reliance through two dimensions: the transformation of economic and cultural attitudes.

Economically, everyone would work for both the group and for him/herself; culturally, Tanzanians had to free themselves from dependence on developed countries. For Nyerere, this included Tanzanians learning to do things for themselves and learning to be satisfied with what they could achieve as an independent state.

- The implementation of free and compulsory education for all Tanzanians in order to sensitize them on the principles of Ujamaa;
- The creation of a Tanzanian rather than tribal identity through the use of Swahili

Julius Nyerere's leadership of Tanzania commanded international attention and attracted worldwide respect for his consistent emphasis on ethical principles as the basis of practical policies. Tanzania under Nyerere made great strides in vital areas of social development. Infant mortality was reduced from 138 per 1000 in 1965 to 110 in 1985; life expectancy at birth rose from 37 in 1960 to 52 in 1984; primary school enrolment was raised from 25 per cent (only 16 per cent of females) in 1960 to 72 per cent (85 per cent of females) in 1985 (despite the rapidly increasing population); adult literacy rate rose from 17 per cent in 1960 to 63 per cent by 1975 (much higher than in other African countries) and continued to rise.

❖ **Kenneth Kaunda's Mulungushi Declaration**

Mulungushi is a river (and a small town nearby) in central Zambia that has taken on a symbolic and historical meaning synonymous with the independence and identity of the nation. This name has been given to a number of events, localities, buildings and organizations, including:

The Mulungushi Declaration, a policy statement made by President Kenneth Kaunda in 1968 on the nationalization of the means of production.

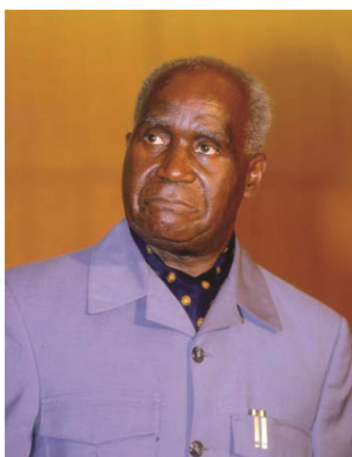


Figure 9.5. President Kenneth Kaunda of Zambia born on April 28th, 1924

(Source: Google/image)

A major change in the structure of Zambia's economy came with the Mulungushi Reforms of April 1968 where Kaunda declared his intention to acquire an equity holding (usually 51 per cent or more) in a number of key foreign-owned firms, to be controlled by his Industrial Development Corporation (INDECO).

By January 1970, Zambia had acquired majority holding in the Zambian operations of the two major foreign mining interests, the Anglo-American Corporation and the Rhodesian Selection Trust (RST). The two became the Nchanga Consolidated Copper Mines (NCCM) and Roan Consolidated Mines (RCM), respectively.

Kaunda also announced the creation of a new parastatal body, the Mining Development Corporation (MINDECO), while the Finance and Development Corporation (FINDECO) enabled the Zambian government to gain control of insurance companies and building societies. Major foreign-owned banks, such as Barclays, Standard Chartered and Grindlays Bank successfully resisted takeover.

In 1971, INDECO, MINDECO, and FINDECO were brought together under an omnibus parastatal, the Zambia Industrial and Mining Corporation (ZIMCO), to create one of the largest companies in sub-Saharan Africa, with Francis Kaunda as chairperson of the board. The management contracts under which day-to-day operations of the mines had been carried out by Anglo American and RST were terminated in 1973. In 1982, NCCM and RCM were merged into the giant Zambia Consolidated Copper Mines Ltd (ZCCM).

❖ Mandela's vision



Figure 9.6. Nelson Mandela of South Africa (July 18, 1918 – December 5, 2013)
(Source: Google/image)

Mandela's administration inherited a country with a huge disparity in wealth and services between white and black communities. In a population of 40 million, around 23 million lacked electricity or adequate sanitation; 12 million lacked clean water supplies, with 2 million children not in school and a third of the population illiterate. There was 33 per cent unemployment, and just under half of the population lived below the poverty line.

Government financial reserves were nearly depleted, with a fifth of the national budget being spent on debt repayment, meaning that the extent of the promised Reconstruction and Development Programme (RDP) was scaled back, with none of the proposed nationalization or job creation. Instead, the government adopted liberal economic policies designed to promote foreign investment, adhering to the "Washington consensus" advocated by the World Bank and International Monetary Fund.

Under Mandela's presidency, welfare spending increased by 13 per cent in 1996/97, 13 per cent in 1997/98, and 7 per cent in 1998/99. The government introduced parity in grants for communities, including disability grants, child maintenance grants, and old-age pensions, which had previously been set at different levels for South Africa's different racial groups.

In 1994, free healthcare was introduced for children under six and pregnant women. The provision extended to all those using primary level public sector health care services in 1996. By the 1999 election, the ANC could boast that due to their policies, 3 million people were connected to telephone lines. 1.5 million Children were brought into the education system; 500 clinics were upgraded or constructed, 2 million people were connected to the electricity grid, water access was extended to 3 million people, and 750,000 houses were constructed, housing nearly 3 million people.

The Land Restitution Act of 1994 enabled people who had lost their property because of the Natives Land Act, 1913 to claim back their land, leading to the settlement of tens of thousands of land claims.

The Land Reform Act 3 of 1996 safeguarded the rights of labor tenants who live and grow crops or graze livestock on farms. This legislation ensured that such tenants could not be evicted without a court order or if they were over the age of 65. The Skills Development Act of 1998 provided for the establishment of mechanisms to finance and promote skills development at the workplace.

The Labor Relations Act of 1995 promoted workplace democracy, orderly collective bargaining, and the effective resolution of labor disputes. The Basic Conditions of Employment Act of 1997 improved enforcement mechanisms while extending a “floor” of rights to all workers. The Employment Equity Act of 1998 was passed to put an end to discrimination and ensure the implementation of affirmative action in the workplace.

❖ Nkrumah's reforms

Nkrumah improved transport and communication by setting up a number of roads and bridges. During his rule, piped water and electricity were extended in most villages and towns. He improved health by setting up health centers like Kumasi Hospital and set up district and regional hospitals.



Figure 9.7. President Kwame Nkrumah (1909–1972). (Source: <https://www.blackpast.org/globalafricanhistory/nkrumah-kwame-1909-1972e>)

He reformed the education system by constructing several primary, secondary and tertiary institutions such as Ghana University. He introduced scientific methods of farming like irrigation, mechanized farming, use of fertilizers and pesticides. He Africanized the civil service by replacing European expatriates with Africans.

He emphasized the need to respect African culture and supported local artists to compose African songs and plays. He ended sectarian and regional tendencies by defeating all the sectarian parties in the 1954 and 1956 elections. After winning them, he called for unity.

Application activity 9.1



1. Thomas Sankara famously said, 'He who feeds you, controls you.' Based on his policy of wearing locally made cotton (Faso Dan Fani) and eating local grain analyse how reducing imports directly increased the political independence and 'Agaciro' (dignity) of his people.
2. Julius Nyerere's Ujamaa policy in Tanzania aimed to group people into villages to share resources. Looking at Rwanda's Villagisation (Imidugudu) today, evaluate how does physical proximity between citizens make it easier to implement self-reliance compared to a population that is scattered.
3. Many self-reliance policies face external pressure or 'sabotage' from global markets that prefer African countries to remain importers. If you were a leader today, analyse how you would protect your local industries (like 'Made in Rwanda') while still maintaining good trade relationships with the rest of the world.
4. Leaders like emphasise that self-reliance (Kwigira) starts in the mind before it reaches the pocket. Explain how some countries with vast natural resources (gold, oil, and diamonds) fail to be self-reliant, while countries with fewer resources but a 'disciplined' population often succeed.

9.2 Factors for Success of Self-Reliance and the lessons Learnt from successful self-reliance policies of African leaders

Learning activity 9.2



1. A new global fashion trend makes imported second-hand clothes very cheap, but it is killing the local textile industry. Reflecting on Rwanda's "**Made in Rwanda**" policy and the "Faso Dan Fani" (local cotton) movement in Burkina Faso. Beyond the economy, evaluate how does wearing clothes made by your own neighbours contribute to a sense of national 'Agaciro' (Dignity) compared to wearing cheap imports from abroad?"
2. Your nation discovers a new mineral. One leader wants to export it raw for quick cash; another wants to wait and build a local factory to process it, which takes years. Comparing the short-term gains of extraction vs. the long-term self-reliance of industrialisation. Successful African leaders taught us that 'Self-reliance is a marathon, not a sprint.' Analyse why the discipline to delay gratification is essential for a country to move from a 'developing' to a 'developed' status.
3. A village has no school. They can wait five years for a government budget or use Julius Nyerere's Ujamaa model to build it themselves using local bricks and volunteer labor. In the spirit of Umuganda, analyse the psychological difference between a community that 'received' a school and a community that 'built' its own school."

9.2.1 Factors for Success of Self-Reliance

Some African leaders were successful in their self-reliance policies due to many factors including:

- Favorable population mindset: In many countries, the African leaders took advantage of the situation because it was immediately after the achievement of African independence. The Africans massively supported their new African leaders, leading to the success of their policies.
- Negative effects of colonialism: Africans had for long suffered from colonial constraints. This is why self-reliance policies were successful in many African countries.
- Economic crisis after the independence: The economic crisis was among the immediate problems faced by Africans. Self-reliance was seen as solution to these problems. This led to their success because the population supported them.
- Recovery of African identity: during colonization, Europeans undermined all African initiatives. When Africans recovered their independence, their leaders wanted also to recover the African identity by implementing internal solutions to their problems. It was due to this that they found these policies successful.
- Sign of obedience to their own leaders: Another factor for the success of the self-reliance policies is that Africans accepted them as one way to express their obedience to their new leaders.

9.2.2 Common lessons learnt

- The success of self-reliance in some African countries inspires other developing countries and especially other African countries;
- We also learn about the importance of dignity;
- The need to encourage Africans to be proud of our continent, our culture and customs;
- We appreciate the importance of home growth solutions;
- It is a testimony that only Africans can find solutions to their problems;
- The success of self-reliance supports respect of human rights and the campaign against racial discrimination.

9.2.3 Lessons learnt

Lessons learnt from Mutara III Rudahigwa

As a leader, you should:

- Be a good mediator between conflicting parties;
- Advocate for equality;
- Advocate for justice, and welfare of citizens;
- Advocate for democracy and justice;
- Advocate for self-determination and dignity;
- Advocate for education for all citizens;
- Advocate for unity and reconciliation.

Lessons learnt from Prince Louis Rwagasore

As a leader, you should:

- Encourage economic independence and self-reliance the country;
- Prepare your followers for a peaceful transition on time;
- Promote the reduction of ethnic rivalry among citizens;
- Promote nationalism and patriotism among citizens.

Lessons learnt from Jomo Kenyatta:

As a leader, you should:

- Avoid vengeance when you become a leader;
- Be resilient i.e don't give up when you want to achieve a goal;
- Avoid fear in your struggle;
- Work to establish harmonious race relations, safeguarding people's property rights and appealing to people to forget past injustices;
- Work together for the development of a country.

Lessons learnt from Julius Nyerere

As a leader, you should:

- Struggle for equality and human dignity;
- Seek development solutions from man' capacity;
- Fight against poverty and injustice;
- Balance religious beliefs influence and political views and actions;
- Find own route to development instead of borrowing ideas from the West;
- Live a modest life while serving your nation.

Lessons learnt from Kenneth Kaunda

As a leader, you should:

- Be humanist;
- Bear courage;
- Be a patriot;
- Promote human dignity;
- Instill self-reliance;
- Bear empathy (the ability to identify with and understand somebody else's feelings or difficulties).

Lessons learnt from Nelson Mandela:

As a leader, you should:

- Fight for freedom of his people;
- Build stronger institutions.

Application activity 9.2



1. A country is offered a low-interest loan from a foreign bank to build a national highway, but the bank demands the right to set the country's tax rates for ten years. The local community suggests a "Dignity Fund" where citizens contribute a small monthly amount to build the road slower but independently. Based on the factor of Domestic Resource Mobilization, which path better secures national sovereignty, and what is the "hidden cost" of the foreign loan?
2. Successful self-reliance policy has led to the graduation of 5,000 new engineers, but 40% are leaving for higher salaries in Europe. One of the lessons from successful leaders is that "Self-reliance requires technical expertise." Explain how can a nation apply the factor of Investment in Human Capital to ensure that trained experts stay and build the local economy?
3. An African nation is the world's leading producer of gold but continues to struggle with high poverty rates. They decide to ban the export of "gold dust" and only allow the export of "finished jewelry." Using the lesson of Value Addition, explain how this policy changes the country's position in the global "Dependency" model.
4. A local entrepreneur makes high-quality shoes, but citizens prefer to buy expensive foreign brands because they believe they are "higher status." Reflecting on the factor of Citizen Buy-in, why is Mental Decolonization considered a critical economic factor for the success of self-reliance?

9.3 Concepts of homegrown solutions and self-reliance in Rwandan society

Learning activity 9.3



The village of Gatere has been struggling with two major issues: a high number of children dropping out of school because their parents cannot afford lunch, and several houses in the village are in disrepair following a heavy rainy season.

The local government has limited funds, and an international NGO that used to provide food aid has ended its program. The village leaders call a Cell meeting to discuss how they can use the spirit of Home Grown Solutions and Self-Reliance to solve these problems without waiting for outside help.

Questions

1. Based on the scenario, identify which Rwandan Home-Grown Solution could be applied to fix the damaged houses?
2. Explain how can the village solve the school lunch problem using the "Girinka" (One Cow per Poor Family)
3. Analyse why is the concept of Agaciro (Dignity) central to the village's decision to solve their own problems?
4. If a dispute arises regarding who should receive help first, which HGS could be used to resolve the conflict?

Home Grown Initiatives (HGI) are Rwanda's 'trade mark' solutions built on the Rwandan history and culture. These policies are a direct response to economic and social challenges and contribute to fulfil the developmental vision of Rwanda.

Following the 1994 Genocide against the Tutsi, the country faced a decimated infrastructure and a fractured social fabric. Standard international development models often lacked the cultural nuance required for deep reconciliation and rapid mobilization. Consequently, Rwanda looked inward, adapting ancestral practices to create high-impact, low-cost interventions.

Home Grown initiatives include Umuganda (community work), Gacaca (truth and reconciliation traditional courts), Abunzi (mediators), Imihigo (performance contracts), Ubudehe (community-based and participatory effort towards problem solving), Itorero and Ingando, Umushyikirano (national dialogue), Umwiherero (National Leadership Retreat), Girinka (One cow per Family program) etc. They are all rooted in the Rwandan culture and history and therefore easy to understand by the communities.

The core philosophy of HGS is self-reliance (Kwigira) and dignity (Agaciro). These solutions are not merely "traditions" but are modernized frameworks that bridge the gap between grassroots participation and national policy.

Homegrown initiatives, such as imihigo, ubudehe, umuganda, girinka, gacaca, abunzi, etc. have generated numerous success stories in strengthening the delivery of the first Economic Development and Poverty Reduction Strategy.

Among these homegrown initiatives, we are going to talk about 4 HGS and its huge contribution in building new Rwanda after genocide against Tutsi.

1. **Gacaca courts (justice and reconciliation)**

Perhaps the most famous HGS, Gacaca was adapted from a traditional community dispute resolution mechanism. To process hundreds of thousands of genocide-related cases that would have taken centuries in a conventional court, Rwanda turned to community-led justice. Local judges (Inyangamugayo), elected by the community for their integrity, presided over trials where truth telling was prioritized over punitive measures. As the goal was to achieve restorative justice, allowing survivors and perpetrators to live side-by-side again, **Gacaca Courts tried over 1,958,634 cases** over its ten-year operational period (2002–2012). This included everything from property crimes to complicity in murder. Meanwhile, the **ICTR indicted only 93**. of these, 62 were sentenced, 14 were acquitted, and others were either referred to national jurisdictions, died, or remained at large.

The financial discrepancy between the two systems also, is often cited in discussions of international versus local justice. The following table shows a huge difference between Gacaca and ICTR, in terms of fiancé:

Feature	Gacaca Courts	ICTR (Arusha, Tanzania)
Total Estimated Cost	\$40 million – \$50 million	\$1.3 billion – \$2 billion
Cost Per Case/ Suspect	\$50	\$15 million – \$22 million
Duration	10 Years (Active Trials)	21 Years (1994–2015)
Primary Funding	Rwandan Government & Local Labor	United Nations (International)

Differences in Impact

- **Gacaca** utilized over 12,000 community courts and nearly 170,000 lay judges (*Inyangamugayo*) and Rwanda cleared a judicial backlog that experts estimated would have taken over 100 years in a conventional court system. Trials took place outdoors in the villages where the crimes occurred. This allowed millions of Rwandans to participate as witnesses, accusers, or observers, facilitating immediate community dialogue and this promoted reconciliation as, the confession was encouraged in exchange for reduced sentences, and many punishments involved community service (*TIG*) to help rebuild what was destroyed.
- ICTR was criticized for its slow pace. Because it followed rigorous international legal standards, required extensive translation, and international travel for witnesses, a single trial could last several years. Based in Arusha, Tanzania, the tribunal was physically and psychologically distant from the Rwandan people. Many survivors felt disconnected from the proceedings, as they could not easily attend the trials of the planners who orchestrated the violence. While the purpose of Gacaca was the reconciliation, ICTR was Punitive, focusing on retributive justice. It aimed to establish a historical record of the genocide and ensure that top-tier perpetrators did not enjoy impunity, applying standard prison sentences in international facilities.

2. Umuganda (community work)

Rooted in the tradition of neighbors helping neighbors, *Umuganda* is a mandatory community service day held on the last Saturday of every month. Citizens engage in environmental protection, infrastructures, reconciliatory structure repair (building classrooms or clinics), and cleaning public spaces. Beyond the economic value estimated in millions of dollars annually, it serves as a platform for local leaders to discuss government programs with citizens.

3. Imihigo (performance contracts)

Imihigo dates back to a pre-colonial practice where individuals set publicly declared goals to prove their bravery or service. Today, it is a formal performance management tool. Local government officials sign annual contracts with the President, committing to specific targets in health, education, and infrastructure. These results are evaluated annually, fostering a culture of competition and transparency in service delivery.

4. Girinka (one cow per poor family)

Inspired by the historical importance of cattle as a symbol of prosperity and social bonding, the Girinka program provides a dairy cow to Rwanda's poorest households. It tackles malnutrition by providing milk and improves agricultural productivity through the use of manure as fertilizer. When the cow gives birth, the calf is given to a neighbor, strengthening community ties.

In summary, Home-Grown Solutions are more than just programs; they are a governance mindset. They prove that for development to be sustainable, it must be "home-grown" nurtured by the history, values, and collective will of the people it intends to serve.

Application activity 9.3



The village of Gatare is facing a period of hardship. Recent floods have damaged several homes, and a local primary school is reporting high dropout rates because many families cannot afford the costs of the school feeding program. Simultaneously, there are growing disputes between neighbors regarding land boundaries shifted by the floods. The local leaders decide to hold a community meeting to address these issues using the spirit of *Kwigira*.

Questions

1. Which Home-Grown Solution should the village use to repair the damaged houses, and how does this promote self-reliance?
2. Explain how the "Girinka" (One Cow per Poor Family) program could be leveraged to solve the school feeding crisis in Gatare?
3. If the land disputes between neighbours escalate, why would the village choose "Abunzi" over a formal court of law?
4. How does the implementation of "Imihigo" (Performance Contracts) ensure that the village leaders actually follow through on these plans?

9.4 Contribution of home- grown solutions towards good governance, self-reliance and dignity in Rwanda

Learning activity 9.4



The fictional District of Gicumbi is facing a challenge: a bridge connecting two vital farming sectors has collapsed due to heavy rains. The local farmers cannot get their produce to the market, and children are struggling to reach school safely. Rather than waiting for a centralised national budget or an international grant, which could take months, the District Mayor meets with the local citizens during a monthly community assembly.

They decide to use **Imihigo** to set a 3 months deadline for the bridge's completion, mobilise the community via **Umuganda** for the labour, and use the **Ubudehe** database to identify the most skilled local masons to lead the technical work.

Questions

1. Explain how does the Mayor's use of "Imihigo" in this scenario contribute to Good Governance?
2. In what way does the use of "Umuganda" to fix the bridge promote Self-Reliance?
3. How does identifying skilled masons through "Ubudehe" enhance the Dignity (Agaciro) of the local people?
4. If a dispute arises between farmers regarding land access during the bridge construction, which Home Grown Solution would be most appropriate to maintain harmony, and why?

The success of homegrown initiatives lies in their high levels of ownership. Because these programs are based on familiar cultural symbols, they enjoy higher compliance and enthusiasm than imported policies. It embeds unique experiences and practices that answer best the challenges that we encounter as we advance as a nation in the modern and ever changing competitive global environment. *Ubudehe*, *Girinka*, *Umuganda* and *Imihigo* are just a few examples of such unique solutions that make a difference as our input in the development sciences, allowing the country to accelerate its pace in the reduction of poverty towards vision 2020.

Each of these Home-Grown Initiatives is unique in itself, whether by its origin, techniques and underlying practices. Add on this that each is clearly understood by the citizens even when complemented and enriched with borrowed “best practices” from other nations. The implementation of these homegrown initiatives have had significant, though varying, social and economic impacts on the households, communities, and the development of the country as a whole. This is testified by changes to better in the social and economic indicators as measured by different evaluations and specialized institutions.

The assessment established that *Ubudehe* has had significant social impact at household and community level in terms of access to health, education, shelter, food and social cohesion. The program has significantly promoted the participation of the local population in decision making is also significant. The program had also a positive economic impact, with improvements in the capacity of households' income generation that allowed them to join savings associations or start a saving account with the local SACCO. Households reported increased and diversified home belongings after joining *Ubudehe* program. However, the share of *Ubudehe* support in the income of the recipient households was found to be moderate or even too little for most of the households to enable rapid graduation from poverty, a trend that was confirmed by the results of the linear regression model.

As far as *Girinka* program is concerned, the assessment established that the program has achieved tremendous results and had a significant impact on the socio-economic development of the poor communities and the economy in general. The program led particularly to the increase in milk production that led to the emergence of flourishing milk-based businesses across the country. Income from milk production has enabled farmers to invest in increased crop production, while individual farmers have been able to take loans to engage in development. Farmers also unanimously agree that manure improves their soil fertility and improves crop yields. The results of the assessment confirmed these findings and stressed further that *Girinka* Program is among the HGI that are rapidly making changes in the livelihoods of the poor households and communities in almost all aspects of their lives.

In the same line as *Ubudehe*, *Girinka* has also contributed to beneficiary households increased access to health and education services, shelter, improved nutrition, social cohesion and sustained participation in decision making at community level. The linear regression model allowed to establish however that *Girinka* has contributed to the reduction of poverty by 31.4% for the beneficiary households.

Imihigo have led to significant achievements in local development and the system instilled a competition spirit between districts, which energizes the development pace

The assessment found that around 2,866 *Imihigo* were implemented over the last four years. Remaining focused while planning and pledging what can be achieved given the resources available or foreseen is one of the key lessons learnt through *Imihigo*

for local planning. It was also established that *Imihigo* had a positive impact on social cohesion both at household and community level. The preparation and implementation of household performance contracts calls for household members to agree on the different targets they set and the manner in which they will commit the household resources to the achievement of these targets. This triggers constant dialogue among the household members, and equitable household resources sharing. On the other hand, *Imihigo* are publicly shared with other members of the community in the planning meetings at village level. Different exchanges in these meetings yield lessons on which community members can learn on running their own households. It also allows the community members to have a common cause in their local development, striving all together to achieve targets they set themselves. *Imihigo* remain however a top-down process with limited participation of the citizens at grass roots in the planning process.

Achievements of the population through *Umuganda* include the construction of houses for vulnerable people, support to the implementation of water supply projects, construction of new classrooms for primary and secondary education, health centers, offices for sectors and cells, road maintenance, tree planting, radical terracing and other soil erosion control infrastructures, etc. *Umuganda* serves also as a forum in which public policies are communicated and explained to the population, and in which community members discuss the problems they are facing and propose possible solutions.

Application activity 9.4



Imagine you are a Youth Leader in a district where a bridge was washed away by floods, and the local health center is understaffed. The national budget for these repairs won't be available for another eight months. A foreign donor has offered a loan, but it comes with strict conditions that would force the district to stop its local school-feeding program.

The Mayor calls a "Community Dialogue" (similar to *Umushyikirano*) to find a way forward using the principles of HGS and self-reliance.

Questions

1. As a Youth Leader, how would you propose using *Umuganda* to address the bridge problem immediately? What specific roles would you assign to different groups (e.g., youth, skilled masons, and local business owners) to ensure the project is self-reliant?
2. If the District Mayor makes a public vow during the meeting to fix the health center staffing issue using local volunteers by the end of the quarter, which HGS does this represent? How can citizens use this to ensure "Good Governance"?
3. The foreign donor's conditions would stop the school-feeding program, potentially increasing malnutrition. How does the *Girinka* model offer a long-term "Self-Reliant" alternative to external food aid for these students' families?
4. During the bridge construction, a dispute breaks out between two families over whose land the new access path should cross. Why would turning to the *Abunzi* (Community Mediators) be better for "Self-Reliance" than taking the case to a high court in the city?

9.5 Challenges encountered during the implementation of home-grown solutions

Learning activity 9.5



1. How can the “Dependency Syndrome” hinder the success of a program like Girinka (One Cow per Poor Family)?
2. What happens to the quality of infrastructure when technical experts do not properly supervise Umuganda (Community Work)?
3. Explain why might Imihigo (Performance Contracts) lead to “reporting for the sake of reports” rather than actual impact?
4. In the context of “Abunzi” (Community Mediators), how does the evolution of modern law create a challenge for traditional mediation?

9.5.1 Modern legal and regulatory conflicts

Homegrown solutions often rely on traditional practices that may not perfectly align with modern, codified legal systems.

- **Conflict with international standards:** international bodies as lacking “due process” or failing to meet global bureaucratic standards may sometimes view local justice or governance models.
- **Lack of legal frameworks:** Transitioning an informal community practice into a state-sanctioned program requires rigorous legislation, which can be a slow and arduous process.

9.5.2 Resource and capacity constraints

While HGS are designed to be self-sustaining, they are not “free.”

- **Financial sustainability:** Many local initiatives rely on volunteerism or community contributions. Over time, maintaining high levels of participation without formal financial incentives can lead to “volunteer fatigue.”
- **Technical expertise:** Scaling a local solution to a national level often requires data management, monitoring, and evaluation (M&E) skills that may be scarce in the communities where the solutions originated.

9.5.3 Political and ideological resistance

- **Elite capture:** There is a risk that local leaders or influential figures might manipulate home-grown processes to serve their own interests rather than the community’s.
- **Skepticism from external partners:** International donors or NGOs may be hesitant to fund or support programs that do not follow “Western” developmental blueprints, fearing a lack of accountability or “professionalism.”

9.5.4 Documentation and standardisation

- **Informality:** Because these solutions are often rooted in oral traditions or localized customs, documenting the processes for “replication” in other regions is difficult. What works in one province may fail in another due to subtle cultural differences.

- **Measuring impact:** It is often harder to quantify the success of a “healing-based” community program compared to a standard infrastructure project, making it difficult to prove efficacy to stakeholders.

9.5.5 Socio-cultural dynamics

- **Changing social fabric:** Urbanization and modernization can weaken the community ties that homegrown solutions rely on. In cities, the “social pressure” that makes rural community programs work is often diminished.
- **Inclusion issues:** Some traditional models may historically exclude certain groups, such as women or youth. Modernizing these solutions requires a careful balance of respecting tradition while ensuring modern standards of inclusivity.

Taking an example on Rwanda, in terms of challenges, communities and households have the following

- Underlined insufficient financing, high levels of poverty which need diversified responses,
- Limited knowledge and capacity of the beneficiaries in project planning.
- The model of categorization of people, the backbone of Ubudehe, which is used by several other local development programs need to be readjusted to the current realities, an exercise that is fortunately underway.
- Girinka Program has a problem of limited access to veterinary drugs, proper cowshed, access to veterinary services, cow feeding, access to water for the cows, limited knowledge in livestock management and low milk prices as highlighted by the beneficiaries.
- Umuganda has a challenge of capacity constraints and poor planning, the level of participation that is not yet sufficient, and insufficient strategies for the maintenance of the realization of community works.

Application activity 9.5



The leaders of Karongi District have committed to an Imihigo goal of building five new health posts using Umuganda labor within six months. However, three months in, the community reports that they lack enough shovels and wheelbarrows. Furthermore, a long dry season has left many Girinka cows in the area weak, forcing farmers to spend their “Umuganda time” traveling long distances to find water for their livestock instead of helping with construction.

Questions

1. Explain how does the “Lack of Necessary Tools” described in the scenario impact the spirit of Self-Reliance?
2. Describe the risk of strictly following the 6-month Imihigo deadline under these challenging conditions?
3. Analyse how the “Climate Challenge” mentioned (the dry season) create a conflict between two different Home-Grown Solutions?
4. As a local leader, explain how would you use the principle of Ubudehe to solve the tool shortage and the water crisis simultaneously?

9.10 End of unit assessment



Section A. Knowledge & Understanding

1. Identify African leaders who championed self-reliance and describe their core philosophies.
2. Define the concept of "Home-Grown Solutions" (HGS) in the Rwandan context, and can you provide examples?
3. Outline the primary challenges faced when implementing self-reliance strategies in Africa?

Section B. Skills

1. Demonstrate how a community identify and leverage local resources to transition from aid-dependency to self-sufficiency?
2. Examine how Rwandan Home-Grown Solutions contribute to national reconciliation and social cohesion?
3. Analyse the factors determine the success or failure of a self-reliance policy.

Section C. Attitudes and values

1. Justify why the concept of "Dignity" (Agaciro) is considered a prerequisite for economic development.
2. Evaluate the ethical implications of relying heavily on foreign aid versus to promoting self-reliance.
3. Assess the most significant lesson learned from Africa's pursuit of self-reliance and explain why understanding the local context is essential for achieving sustainable development.

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